

THE SECURITIZATION OF UNITED STATES FOREIGN ASSISTANCE

by

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A Dissertation
Submitted to the
Graduate Faculty
of
George Mason University
in Partial Fulfillment of
The Requirements for the Degree
of
Doctor of Philosophy
Public Policy

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George Mason University
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ACKNOWLEDGEMENTS

I wish to thank my committee for all their assistance, advice, and patience through the process of writing this dissertation. I would especially like to thank my chair, Dr. James Pfiffner for his excellent advice as I worked to shape and write this dissertation. I would also like to thank all of those who agreed to be interviewed, your unique insights on this topic helped to shape this research. Finally, I would like to thank my many colleagues, friends, and family who have provided me with so much advice and encouragement.

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LIST OF ABBREVIATIONS

Assistant Secretary of Defense	ASD
Budget Control Act	BCA
Central Intelligence Agency	CIA
Combined Joint Task Force-Horn of Africa	CJTF-HOA
Department of Defense	DoD
Department of Defense Directive	DODD
Department of Defense Instruction	DODI
Department of State	State
Global War on Terror.....	GWOT
Gross Domestic Product	GDP
Humanitarian and Civic Assistance	HCA
International Security Affairs	ISA
Medical Stability Operations	MSO
Military Health Support	MHS
National Security Council.....	NSC
National Security Strategy	NSS
North Atlantic Treaty Organization.....	NATO
Office of Management and Budget.....	OMB
Office of the Secretary of Defense.....	OSD
Overseas Contingency Funding	OCO
Planning, Programming, and Budgeting System	PPBS
Presidential Policy Directive.....	PPD
Provincial Reconstruction Team.....	PRT
United Kingdom.....	UK
United Nations	UN
United States Africa Command	AFRICOM
United States Agency for International Development	USAID
United States Central Command.....	CENTCOM
United States European Command	EUCOM
United States Indo-Pacific Command.....	INDOPACOM
United States Southern Command.....	SOUTHCOM
World War II.....	WWII

ABSTRACT

THE SECURITIZATION OF UNITED STATES FOREIGN ASSISTANCE

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George Mason University, 2022

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A body of existing research argues that, following 9/11, U.S. national security priorities and the Department of Defense (DoD) began to have an expanded role in directing foreign assistance. This dissertation identifies policy changes that have indeed deepened national security considerations in foreign assistance giving and increased DoD's authority to administer assistance to countries without ongoing U.S. military operations. However, examining data on DoD foreign assistance spending to countries without active military engagement reveals only a slight increase in select humanitarian-focused foreign assistance. Overall DoD foreign assistance spending has generally remained below civilian foreign assistance giving-agencies. Further, a review of foreign assistance spending to countries without active U.S. military engagement indicates that national security priorities have been a consistent driver of assistance allocation since WWII. Through subject matter expert interviews, this research finds that DoD's

resources in manpower, logistics, and funding have likely contributed to the role of DoD in foreign assistance and security priorities in directing foreign assistance.

CHAPTER ONE

INTRODUCTION

This dissertation seeks to understand whether U.S. foreign assistance to countries at peace is increasingly provided by the Department of Defense (DoD) and driven by national security priorities following World War II, and if so, what are the key drivers? This research also strives to understand how the aftermath of 9/11 impacted DoD's role in the provision of foreign assistance and the role of security priorities in directing foreign assistance.¹ To answer this question this dissertation first examines the key policy turning points that may have helped pave the way for securitization. Next it measures to what extent the securitization of foreign assistance is occurring by examining both DoD's role in providing foreign assistance and whether national security priorities direct U.S. foreign assistance spending. Finally, the dissertation conducts an exploratory analysis on the key drivers of securitization identified through existing literature and subject matter expert interviews.

To an extent, U.S. foreign assistance has long been securitized. In other words, the U.S. military has a history of providing foreign assistance and national security priorities have driven U.S. foreign assistance going back to WWII. In 1962, President John F. Kennedy remarked upon signing the Foreign Assistance Act that foreign

¹ In this dissertation DoD refers to the entire department including the military services.

assistance is a component of national security to prevent the spread of communism.²

Additionally, the U.S. National Security Strategy (NSS) has captured the importance of foreign assistance to national security since the first strategy written in 1987.³

Although U.S. foreign assistance has been securitized to some extent for many years, scholars assert that, at the macro level, U.S. foreign assistance increasingly reflects U.S. security objectives, rather than recipients' development needs.⁴ Further, scholars argue that the U.S. military has a growing role in providing foreign assistance. Most notably, the aftermath of 9/11 and the global war on terror led to several policy changes that allowed DoD to take a more proactive stance in regions susceptible to instability to conduct humanitarian and civic assistance.⁵ All of this gave DoD increased authority to provide preventative foreign assistance and assistance to countries at peace, not just assistance in the aftermath of natural disasters or conflicts.

Although existing literature is largely in agreement that securitization is occurring and has increased in recent decades, there are few attempts to measure the securitization of foreign assistance to countries at peace to understand how it may have changed over time and what the drivers of the change are. This dissertation attempts to measure the

² John F. Kennedy, "Remarks of the President Upon Signing the Foreign Assistance Act of 1962" (Speech, Washington, DC, August 1, 1962), <https://www.jfklibrary.org/asset-viewer/archives/JFKPOF/039/JFKPOF-039-021>.

³ "National Security Strategy of the United States" (Washington, DC: Department of Defense, January 1987), <https://history.defense.gov/Historical-Sources/National-Security-Strategy/>, p. 8.

⁴ Joanna Spear and Paul D. Williams, eds., *Security and Development in Global Politics: A Critical Comparison* (Washington, DC: Georgetown University Press, 2012), p. 42.

⁵ "Department of Defense Directive 3000.05 Military Support for Stability, Security, Transition, and Reconstruction Operations" (Department of Defense, November 28, 2005), [https://policy.defense.gov/portals/11/Documents/solic/DoDD%203000.05%20SSTR%20\(SIGNED\)%2028NOV05.pdf](https://policy.defense.gov/portals/11/Documents/solic/DoDD%203000.05%20SSTR%20(SIGNED)%2028NOV05.pdf).and 1. "Department of Defense Instruction 2205.02 Humanitarian and Civic Assistance Activities" (Department of Defense, December 2, 2008), <https://cryptome.org/dodi/dodi-2205-02.pdf>.

changes and understand the key drivers of the securitization of foreign assistance to countries at peace.

This dissertation first examines how key policy turning points may have shaped securitization. The dissertation breaks this analysis into two categories: post WWII foundations of securitization and post 9/11 institutionalization of securitization. Next, through quantitative measures, this dissertation analyzes the extent to which securitization is occurring. This analysis looks at the trends in foreign assistance spending at large and in countries at peace to determine if DoD is increasingly providing more assistance after WWII. This analysis also examines whether security priorities increasingly direct U.S. foreign assistance giving to countries at peace using two unique proxies for national security threats, incidents of terrorism by country, and for the historical perspective, the threat of a country becoming communist based on declassified Central Intelligence Agency documents. Finally, the research explores some of the larger key drivers of securitization. The literature on the securitization of foreign policy dedicates some inquiry into the factors that have contributed to the securitization of foreign policy more broadly. These factors include the institutional imbalance between the Department of State (State) and DoD, the role of the president and Congress, and the role of the geographic combatant commands. This dissertation uses these factors that attempt to explain securitization more broadly as a basis for understanding why the securitization of foreign assistance to countries at peace has occurred. This dissertation then uses subject matter expert interviews and additional supporting research to verify and expand upon the key drivers from existing literature.

This research finds that there are distinct policy turning points that have deepened national security considerations in foreign assistance giving and increased DoD's authority to administer assistance to countries at peace. The post WWII foundations of securitization laid the foundation for DoD's role in foreign assistance and the post 9/11 institutionalization of securitization resulted in policy changes that directly codified DoD's role in foreign assistance to countries at peace and the role of national security considerations in foreign assistance priorities.

In measuring the securitization of foreign assistance, this dissertation finds that total foreign assistance spending for DoD did not generally outpace combined State and USAID spending since WWII, with the exception of a brief period in the mid-1970s and again following 9/11. Focusing on countries at peace did not make this trend disappear but rendered it less dramatic, particularly after 9/11. However, trends in DoD humanitarian and civic assistance, as well as health assistance spending to countries at peace show increases post 9/11. For the analysis on whether national security priorities direct foreign assistance spending, the results demonstrate that there is a positive relationship between a country having incidents of terrorism or threat of communism (pre-1991) and increased U.S. foreign assistance giving. This analysis also controls for traditional determinants of foreign assistance giving including natural disasters, gross domestic product, democracy, and infant mortality. Overall, this analysis provides some limited support to the idea that securitization may be occurring since DoD does have a role in foreign assistance and national security priorities appear to be a consistent driver of foreign assistance giving. However, this has not seen the increase in recent decades

that some existing scholarship implies it has. Although the changes in securitization are not as dramatic as some existing literature posits, securitization is still occurring by these measures. As a result, it is worth exploring the key drivers of securitization.

The root causes of the securitization of foreign assistance are difficult to trace as many complex factors drive securitization. The U.S. foreign policy context over the last two decades has likely influenced DoD's increased role in providing foreign assistance. More specifically, during the wars in Iraq and Afghanistan, other agencies including State and USAID were not well suited to provide foreign assistance in an unstable counterinsurgency environment, leaving it to DoD. The war on terror also likely drove the increased use of foreign assistance as a tool to prevent the spread of terrorism and support other national security priorities. Beyond the larger foreign policy context, looking at the broader drivers of securitization, one of the largest drivers of the securitization of foreign assistance is that DoD is a larger and more powerful organization with greater and more flexible funding than State or USAID. This institutional imbalance has resulted in DoD gaining expanded authorities to provide foreign assistance and for security priorities to drive foreign assistance giving. Additionally, the president and Congress do not appear to have a strong direct role in increasing securitization through the federal budget process. However, the post 9/11 increase in DoD's budget through overseas contingency operations funding and more flexible funding has likely played a role in securitization. It is less clear if the geographic combatant commands have played a role in securitization. However, there is some limited

evidence that they have a role in securitization and that some individual commanders have pushed for increased responsibility in the provision of foreign assistance.

All of this has several potential implications for public policy. First, and perhaps most significantly, if DoD has come to play a role in how the U.S. gives foreign assistance to countries at peace this change could impact the effectiveness of U.S. foreign policy, including the security of the U.S. and allied relationships. Securitization of foreign assistance may also affect the behavior of developing nations, and the outcomes of development in those nations. It will incentivize governments to prioritize their security relationship with the U.S. or even artificially boost security threats to get assistance. Additionally, many of the driving factors of the securitization of foreign assistance also influence the larger securitization of foreign policy. Therefore, a better understanding of these factors will also broaden the knowledge of the drivers of the securitization of foreign policy.

Important Definitions

Securitization. For the purpose of this dissertation, securitization refers to both DoD's (including the military departments) increasing role in the provision of foreign assistance and foreign assistance giving becoming increasingly directed by national security priorities. This dissertation uses Stephen Brown and Jörn Grävingholt's definition of the securitization of foreign assistance. Brown and Grävingholt argue that securitization occurs when donor countries increasingly provide the highest levels of assistance to specific countries and sectors based on security imperatives. Additionally, securitization occurs when military forces deliver significant amounts of assistance, and

when donor governments create new institutional units within their agencies that provide foreign assistance or new interdepartmental coordination mechanisms based on security-related motives.⁶

Part of the securitization of foreign assistance is the U.S. military's increasing role in the provision of foreign assistance, which links to the literature on the militarization of foreign policy. Scholars define the militarization of foreign policy as the gradual trend of the military perspectives and priorities creeping into the broader foreign policy and U.S. national security strategies.⁷ This means a growing dependence on the military for the execution of an increasing range of foreign policies and responsibilities not traditionally associated with the core military function of warfighting including peace and stability operations, nation-building, and the provision of foreign assistance. The literature on the militarization of foreign policy agrees that one reflection of this militarization is the U.S. military's increased role in the provision of foreign assistance.⁸

The concepts of securitization and the militarization of foreign policy are interrelated ideas that are both important to examine concerning the changes in the provision of U.S. foreign assistance. This dissertation combines these two interrelated

⁶ Stephen Brown and Jörn Grävingholt, eds., *The Securitization of Foreign Aid*, (New York: Palgrave Macmillan, 2016), p. 3.

⁷ William G. Anderson and Connie Veillette, Chapter 6, "Soldiers in Sandals," in Gordon Adams and Shoon Murray, eds., *Mission Creep: The Militarization of U.S. Foreign Policy?* (Washington, DC: Georgetown University Press, 2014), pp. 100-10, Nina M. Serafino, Chapter 7, "Foreign Assistance in Camouflage," in Adams and Murray eds. *Mission Creep*, pp. 122-130, and Nina Serafino, "The Department of Defense Role in Foreign Assistance: Background, Major Issues, and Options for Congress" (Washington, DC: Congressional Research Service, December 9, 2008), <https://www.fas.org/sgp/crs/natsec/RL34639.pdf>, pp. 1-15.

⁸ Adams and Murray, eds., *Mission Creep*, p. 14, Karl W. Eikenberry, "The Militarization of U.S. Foreign Policy," *American Foreign Policy Interests: The Journal of the National Committee on American Foreign Policy* 35, no. 1 (February 21, 2013), pp. 1-8, and Dana Priest, *The Mission: Waging War and Keeping Peace with America's Military* (New York: Norton and Company, 2003), pp. 61-99.

areas of research that are largely treated separately in the existing literature. It is important to explore these two ideas together because DoD playing a greater role in the provision of foreign assistance could drive foreign assistance to be more focused on national security and vice versa.

Foreign Assistance. Foreign assistance as defined in the Foreign Assistance Act of 1961 is:

any tangible or intangible item provided by the United States Government [including “by means of gift, loan, sale, credit, or guaranty”] to a foreign country or international organization under this or any other Act, including but not limited to any training, service, or technical advice, any item of real, personal, or mixed property, any agricultural commodity, United States dollars, and any currencies of any foreign country which are owned by the United States Government....⁹

This dissertation looks at all types of foreign assistance but focuses on assistance to countries at peace. The U.S. provides foreign assistance for several different purposes, and Congress has authorized several foreign assistance accounts to meet these objectives. The Congressional Research Service has identified 12 major foreign assistance accounts including bilateral development assistance, economic assistance supporting U.S. political and security goals, humanitarian assistance, military assistance, and the “other” category that includes a variety of smaller accounts, most of which are to deal with contingencies and post-conflict transitions.¹⁰

⁹ “Foreign Assistance Act of 1961,” Pub. L. No. 87–195 (1961),

<https://www.govinfo.gov/content/pkg/STATUTE-75/pdf/STATUTE-75-Pg424-2.pdf#page=1>, p. 248.

¹⁰ Curt Tarnoff and Marian Leonardo Lawson, “Foreign Aid: An Introduction to U.S. Programs and Policy” (Washington, DC: Congressional Research Service, April 20, 2012), <http://fpc.state.gov/documents/organization/157097.pdf>.

The USAID official record of U.S. foreign aid that tracks all U.S. spending from 1947 to the present (the primary data source for U.S. foreign assistance spending used in later chapters of this dissertation) organizes foreign assistance spending and activities by military and economic assistance defined as:

Military assistance includes military financing, which U.S. allies use to buy weapons, funding intended to advance counterterrorism and anti-narcotics initiatives, and money spent on efforts related to military operations in Iraq, Afghanistan, and other nations. Most military aid dollars come from either the State Department or the DoD budget.

Economic assistance includes all programs with development or humanitarian objectives. That tends to include projects related to health, disaster relief, the promotion of civil society, agriculture, and the like. Most economic aid dollars come from the State Department budget, including spending allocated by USAID.¹¹

This dissertation defines foreign assistance to countries at peace as the provision of all foreign assistance to countries where there are no active U.S. military engagements. Further, foreign assistance to countries at peace is primarily preventative. In other words, it is assistance directed at economic development, bolstering the host country's military or police force, or increasing public health.¹² Although foreign assistance to countries at peace is preventative it is not necessarily given for the good of the economic development of the country. Preventative foreign assistance often focuses on thwarting the spread of terrorism, disease, or other factors that the U.S. might view as a threat to national security.

¹¹ "Foreign Aid Explorer: The Official Record of U.S. Foreign Aid" (Washington, DC: United States Agency for International Development, December 19, 2018), <https://explorer.usaid.gov/data.html>.

¹² Anderson and Veillette, Chapter 6, "Soldiers in Sandals" in Adams and Murray eds., *Mission Creep*, p.101.

BACKGROUND

Although the securitization of foreign assistance may have accelerated in recent decades, U.S. foreign assistance has long been securitized.

Security Priorities in Foreign Assistance

The Foreign Assistance Act of 1961 formed the basis for how, where, and when the U.S. gives foreign assistance. The act reorganized the structure of existing U.S. foreign assistance programs, distinguishing between military and non-military assistance, and created USAID to administer non-military, economic assistance programs. USAID integrated already existing U.S. assistance efforts, combining the economic and technical assistance operations of the International Cooperation Administration, the loan activities of the Development Loan Fund, the local currency functions of the Export-Import Bank, and the agricultural surplus distribution activities of the Food for Peace program of the Department of Agriculture.¹³ Upon signing the Foreign Assistance Act, President John F. Kennedy remarked that foreign assistance is a component of national security to prevent the spread of communism, directly highlighting that the provision of foreign assistance can be in the interest of U.S. national security. However, in addition to highlighting the national security concerns in foreign assistance giving, Kennedy also remarked on the humanitarian considerations to provide assistance to those countries that are suffering the most.¹⁴

Of additional importance, the NSS has captured the importance of foreign assistance to national security since the first strategy written in 1987. The first NSS

¹³ Foreign Assistance Act of 1961.

¹⁴ Kennedy, "Remarks of the President Upon Signing the Foreign Assistance Act of 1962."

released in 1987 by Ronald Reagan included explicit direction on the importance of security and development assistance as a preventative measure to military involvement and to fight the spread of communism.¹⁵ In the 1987 strategy, Reagan highlighted both the importance of development and security assistance in national security, stating that:

Security assistance: By helping friends and allies acquire the means to defend themselves, we complement the rebuilding of our own military strength and increase the human and material resources available for the defense of free-world interests. In the process, we reduce the likelihood of direct American involvement in potential conflicts. Security assistance is a key instrument in our national security strategies, a productive and highly leveraged investment that promotes our security interests at bargain prices.

Development assistance: It is in our national interest to support the efforts of friendly developing countries to provide for the basic needs of their people. Development assistance plays a vital role in encouraging market-oriented approaches with the potential to increase income levels in recipient countries. A well-structured and financed development assistance program enhances our world leadership and influence.¹⁶

The NSS under George H.W. Bush continued to highlight the role of foreign assistance and its preventative role in national security.¹⁷ President Clinton followed a similar pattern but largely focused on foreign assistance for democratization, arguing that democratization was beneficial for U.S. national security as free democratic nations were less likely to be a direct threat to the U.S. or be breeding grounds for extremist organizations.¹⁸

¹⁵ “National Security Strategy of the United States” (Washington, DC: Department of Defense, January 1987), <https://history.defense.gov/Historical-Sources/National-Security-Strategy/>, p. 8.

¹⁶ “National Security Strategy of the United States,” 1987, p. 8.

¹⁷ “National Security Strategy of the United States” (Washington, DC: Department of Defense, March 1990), <https://history.defense.gov/Historical-Sources/National-Security-Strategy/>, p. 18.

¹⁸ “A National Security Strategy of Engagement and Enlargement” (Washington, DC: Department of Defense, July 1994), <https://history.defense.gov/Historical-Sources/National-Security-Strategy/>, p. 2.

Joanna Spear and Paul Williams trace how, at the macro level, assistance increasingly reflects donors' security objectives, rather than recipients' development needs. Events in Somalia (1992), Kosovo (1999), and Sierra Leone (2000) where governments used military intervention where assistance had failed laid the foundation for an increasing alliance between the military and so-called humanitarian purposes. Additionally, the increase of HIV/AIDS in Africa and the rising death toll began to drive concerns about the relationship between disease and national security. The attacks of 9/11 brought foreign assistance to the forefront of military tools as foreign assistance was used in the fight against terrorism. Civilian and military leaders deemed development assistance useful in these circumstances because it provided a critical instrument for engineering the behavior of both states and individuals.¹⁹

Several key studies examine why countries give foreign assistance and find that to an extent, the strategic interests of donor countries influence where and for what purposes they give assistance.²⁰ Perhaps most significantly, in their seminal paper "Who Gives Foreign Aid to Whom and Why?" Alberto Alesina and David Dollar explore the correlation between political and strategic considerations and foreign assistance giving, finding that colonial past and alliance with donor countries are significant determinants of foreign assistance giving.²¹

¹⁹ Spear and Williams, eds., *Security and Development in Global Politics*, pp. 40-42.

²⁰ Cooper Drury, Richard Stuart Olson, and Douglas Van Belle, "The Politics of Humanitarian Aid: U.S. Foreign Disaster Assistance, 1964-1995," *The Journal of Politics* 62, no. 2 (May 2005), pp. 454-473 and Vin Gupta et al., "Have Geopolitics Influenced Decision on American Health Foreign Assistance Efforts During the Obama Presidency," *Journal of Global Health* 8, no. 1 (June 2018), pp. 1-10.

²¹ Alberto Alesina and David Dollar, "Who Gives Foreign Aid to Whom and Why?," *Journal of Economic Growth* 5, no. 1 (March 2000), pp. 33-63.

DoD's Increasing Role in Foreign Assistance

Historically the U.S. military's role was not restricted to warfighting or providing security, the military has played a role in activities such as humanitarian assistance and nation-building since the infancy of the American military. The U.S. military was involved in leading humanitarian, reconstruction, and nation-building activities in the wake of the U.S. occupations of Cuba, Puerto Rico, and the Philippines in the early 1900s. U.S. Further, allied forces rebuilt infrastructure and governments in Europe and Asia in the wake of WWII.²² Although the military has an established role in some forms of foreign assistance, this role has changed. Most notably, the aftermath of 9/11 and the global war on terror led to DoD Directive 3000.5, giving the department the authority to take a more proactive stance in regions susceptible to instability as part of the global war on terror.²³ This gave DoD the authority to provide preventative foreign assistance or assistance to countries at peace, not just assistance in the aftermath of disaster or conflict.

To grasp the extent of this change, this analysis measures the level of securitization both in DoD's role in the provision of foreign assistance and how security priorities drive foreign assistance giving. Other studies have explored this, but this dissertation is unique in its focus on countries at peace.

Why Securitization has Occurred

This dissertation builds on the explanations of the militarization of foreign policy to understand the driving factors behind the securitization of foreign assistance. This research also relies on subject matter expert interviews to validate and expand on these

²² Schubert, "Other Than War," pp. 15-20 and Davidson, *Lifting the Fog of Peace*, pp. 5-10.

²³ DoD Directive 3000.5.

key drivers. When examining the drivers of securitization, it is difficult to focus exclusively on the drivers of the securitization to countries at peace because the factors that enabled securitization more broadly also drove the securitization of assistance to countries at peace.

Key Policy Turning Points. According to existing literature, several post 9/11 policy changes played a role in laying the foundation for securitization. These changes include DoDD3000.5 which gave the department the authority to take a more proactive stance in regions susceptible to instability as part of the global war on terror; DoDI 2205.02 which established policy and responsibilities for the conduct of humanitarian and civic assistance activities and more formally framed DoD's role in these activities; and DoDI 6000.16 which established policies and defined responsibilities for how military health system assets support DoD's stability operations efforts.²⁴ A key area for additional research is to identify additional policy and organizational turning points that likely played a significant role in securitization. This analysis breaks out the policy turning points by post WWII foundations of securitization that allowed the DoD to be a larger and more powerful organization; and post 9/11 institutionalization of securitization that directly impacted the securitization of foreign assistance to countries at peace.

The first key turning point is the Foreign Assistance Act of 1961 because it forms the legislative foundation for how the U.S. gives foreign assistance. This act established the importance of the role of the presidency in U.S. foreign assistance decisions and laid

²⁴ DoD Directive 3000.5, DoDI 2205.02, and "Department of Defense Instruction 6000.16 Military Health Support for Stability Operations" (Department of Defense, May 17, 2010), https://irp.fas.org/doddir/dod/i6000_16.pdf.

the foundation for the U.S. military's role in preventative foreign assistance. Other post WWII foundations of securitization include McNamara's internal reorganization of DoD which made the secretary of defense more powerful on the National Security Council; Goldwater-Nichols which reorganized DoD and much of the combatant command structure; and the expansion of noncombatant military tasks in the 1990s. Post 9/11 institutionalization of securitization turning points include the post 9/11 policy changes that reshaped how and why the U.S. gives foreign assistance.

Key Drivers of Securitization. The key turning points analysis mentioned above focuses on the policy and organizational changes that indirectly or directly shaped the securitization of foreign assistance. The key drivers analysis is an attempt to step back and understand the broader drivers of securitization, some of which influenced the policy and organizational changes that shaped securitization. The intent of this analysis is not to explore all the drivers of securitization but to take a broad look at some of the key drivers suggested in the literature on the militarization of foreign policy to understand through subject matter expert interviews and additional research if these are drivers of the securitization of foreign assistance.

Institutional Imbalance. As mentioned earlier, one of the most important drivers of securitization according to the existing literature and subject matter expert interviews is the institutional imbalance between DoD and State, and by extension USAID. Several scholars argue that this institutional imbalance has enabled DoD to far outstrip State in size and influence. The increased size and influence of DoD has made its priorities, and thus national security priorities, a much louder voice in foreign policy. This leaves much

of U.S. foreign policy to be determined by national security goals. Further, the imbalance has resulted in DoD playing a larger role in the provision of foreign assistance because they have more resources to provide assistance both in skills, manpower, and accessible, flexible funding.²⁵ Understanding securitization means further exploring the institutional imbalance: the size and scope of it, how it has continued to deepen, and its impact on securitization.

The President and Congress. The president and Congress may also play a unique role in securitization. Assertive presidents have resulted in the presidency becoming more dominant in foreign policy.²⁶ Because of the president's powerful role in foreign policy, particularly in when and how to use the military, decisions the president and his administration make may have had a significant impact on the securitization of foreign assistance. Further, Congress has the power of the purse. Although some literature argues that this power has weakened and Congress often defers to the president on the foreign assistance budget, Congress may play a role in securitization through the federal budget because they have allowed DoD significantly more funding and more flexible funding than the other foreign policy departments.²⁷ This dissertation examines whether presidents have used the budget process to further the securitization of foreign assistance and whether Congress exercises its power of the purse on foreign assistance spending.

²⁵ Adams and Murray, eds., *Mission Creep*, p. 7, and Derek Reveron and Michelle Gavin, Chapter 1, "America's Viceroy" in Derek Reveron, ed., *America's Viceroy: The Military and U.S. Foreign Policy* (New York: Palgrave Macmillan, 2004), p. 10.

²⁶ James Pfiffner, *The Modern Presidency* (Boston: Wadsworth, 2005), pp. 188-96.

²⁷ Kori Schake, *State of Disrepair: Fixing the Culture and Practices of the State Department* (Stanford: Hoover Institution Press, 2012), p. 52 and Barbara Hinckley, *Less than Meets the Eye: Foreign Policy Making and the Myth of the Assertive Congress* (Chicago: University of Chicago Press, 1994), p.10.

The Geographic Combatant Commands. The literature on the role of the geographic combatant commands in the militarization of foreign policy seems to suggest two potential explanations for the role of combatant commands in securitization. Circumstances in the command may push combatant commands to take on responsibility in areas that extend into diplomatic activities. Therefore, commands like United States Africa Command and United States Southern Command that do not have ongoing wars or face direct great power competition may expand their responsibilities into activities outside traditional defense responsibilities to include foreign assistance by necessity or to compete for more resources and prove their relevance.²⁸ In some cases individual combatant commanders can be policy entrepreneurs wielding their unique influence to increase the role of their commands in activities outside traditional defense responsibilities.²⁹

METHODOLOGY

This dissertation uses a mixed-methods approach combining a variety of quantitative and qualitative research methods. The qualitative portion of the dissertation in chapter 3 on the key turning points relies in part on process tracing. Process tracing is an analytic tool for drawing descriptive and causal inferences from indicative pieces of evidence, often understood as part of a sequence of events or phenomena. Process tracing

²⁸ Priest, *The Mission*, pp. 61-99, Shoon Murray and Anthony Quainton, Chapter 9, “Combatant Commanders, Ambassadorial Authority, and the Conduct Diplomacy,” in Adams and Murray eds., *Mission Creep*, pp. 197-168, and Reveron and Gavin, Chapter 1, “America’s Viceroy” in Reveron, ed., *America’s Viceroy*, p. 10.

²⁹ Derek Reveron, Chapter 5, “U.S. European Command: General Wesley Clack and the War for Kosovo,” in Reveron, ed., *America’s Viceroy*, p. 100 and Dean Cook, Chapter 6, “U.S. Southern Command: General Charles E. Wilhelm and the Shaping of U.S. Military Engagement in Columbia, 1997-2000” in Reveron, ed., *America’s Viceroy*, p. 128.

can help to explain why certain events took place because of the emphasis on causal inferences.³⁰ This dissertation uses process tracing to understand how sequences of events built upon one another to shape the environment for securitization, as well as to understand the individual policy decisions that played a role in securitization.

The quantitative portion of this dissertation in chapter 4 examines the measures of the securitization of foreign assistance to countries at peace. This includes both descriptive measures of foreign assistance giving over time to measure DoD's role in the provision of assistance to countries at peace, and regression analysis linking foreign assistance giving to U.S. national security threats (see data and methods appendix for additional details).

Chapter 5 on the key drivers of securitization includes subject matter interviews with experts on the military's increasing role in foreign assistance, the president's role in foreign assistance decisions, and the role of combatant commands in driving securitization. Subject matter experts include a range of retired military officers and civil servants from DoD, State, and the Office of Management and Budget who had direct experience in U.S. foreign assistance, as well as some academic subject matter experts. These six interviewees provide valuable insight into the key drivers of securitization that helped shape this analysis. Additional interviewees also gave valuable background information that, while not cited directly in this dissertation, provided key insight into further understanding these issues and framing the analysis. All interviewees chose to be interviewed off the record so there are no names cited in this dissertation only the

³⁰ David Collier, "Understanding Process Tracing," *Political Science and Politics* 44, no. 4 (2011), pp. 823-30.

interviewees' general background and position (see data and methods appendix for additional details).³¹

OVERVIEW OF THE DISSERTATION

Chapter 2 of this dissertation begins with a review of the literature on the securitization of foreign assistance. Chapter 3 analyzes the key policy and organizational turning points that contributed to the securitization of foreign assistance. The first section of this chapter examines the post WWII foundations of securitization that established the foundation for the securitization of foreign assistance. The second section analyzes the post 9/11 institutionalization of securitization that directly shaped the securitization of foreign assistance. Chapter 4 lays out the measures of the securitization of foreign assistance. The goal of this chapter is to understand the extent of securitization by measuring both the U.S. military's role in the provision of foreign assistance and whether national security priorities direct foreign assistance giving. Chapter 5 provides an exploratory analysis of the likely key drivers of securitization including the institutional imbalance between DoD and State, the president and Congress, and the geographic combatant commands. The dissertation closes with an analysis of what the securitization of foreign assistance means for the securitization of foreign policy and any developing turning points that could affect securitization in the coming decades.

³¹ All interviewees chose to be interviewed off the record, therefore this dissertation does not reveal interviewee identities so interviewees could speak candidly. Interviews were approved by the George Mason University Institutional Review Board, and interview notes and documentation are recorded in properly secured files to ensure any insights cannot be tied back to a particular individual (see data and methods appendix for additional details).

CHAPTER TWO

INTRODUCTION

This chapter provides an overview of the literature framing this dissertation, including the gaps in the literature and the theoretical frameworks shaping the research. The chapter begins by examining the existing literature on the securitization of foreign assistance and the militarization of foreign policy. The following sections of this chapter explore what existing literature posits are the key policy turning points that shaped securitization and drivers of securitization including the institutional imbalance between the Department of Defense (DoD) and the Department of State (State) and by extension the United States Agency for International Development (USAID); the president and Congress; and the combatant commands. The chapter closes by laying out the theoretical frameworks and key research expectations for measuring the securitization of foreign assistance and understanding the key policy turning points and drivers of securitization.

THE SECURITIZATION OF FOREIGN ASSISTANCE

The literature on the securitization of foreign assistance has two interrelated focuses. First, is the use of foreign assistance to achieve national security goals. Second, is DoD's role in the provision of foreign assistance. The following sections summarize the existing literature on these two aspects of securitization. The literature on the militarization of foreign policy largely addresses the second aspect of securitization, the

military's increasing role in foreign assistance. Scholarship on the militarization of foreign policy is important since it helps to frame the key drivers of the securitization of foreign assistance to countries at peace for further research in this dissertation.

Foreign Assistance for National Security Objectives

Brown and Grävingholt argue that for many years, some scholars and practitioners believed that needs, either economic, health care, or natural disaster should direct foreign assistance giving. In other words, employing development assistance to help those countries that struggle the most to have the maximum impact on development. However, the emergence of 'failed and fragile states,' including Afghanistan, Somalia, and the Balkans led to the blurring of lines between what scholars consider economic development and the field of national and international security. Through the Cold War, governments used development assistance to quell the spread of communism. The end of the Cold War brought some hope that foreign assistance would return to focusing on fighting poverty and inequality. However, new forms of conflict, along with failing states led to an increase in assistance to promote a security agenda.³² Spear and Williams in *Security and Development in Global Politics* trace how, at the macro level, post-9/11 assistance increasingly reflects donors' security objectives, rather than recipients' development needs. In the twenty-first century, governments used military intervention where assistance had failed in Somalia (1992), Kosovo (1999), and Sierra Leone (2000), laying the foundation for an increasing alliance between the military and so-called humanitarian purposes. During this time, the increase of HIV/AIDS in Africa and the

³² Brown and Grävingholt, eds., *The Securitization of Foreign Aid*, p. 1.

rising death toll began to drive concerns about the relationship between disease and national security.³³ Further, the Clinton administration made significant strides to securitize democracy promotion. Clinton's National Security Strategies (NSS) emphasized the role of democracy in national security, noting that democracies are more likely to co-operate with the U.S. on security issues, are less likely to upset international stability with war and internal instability, and are more likely to respect human rights. The Clinton administration used the linkage between democracy and security to drive humanitarian interventions in Haiti and the Balkans. This codified the link between security and democracy for use during the next administration and influenced President Bush's thinking about democracy promotion through military interventions in Iraq and Afghanistan.³⁴ Chapter 4 on key turning points covers the securitization of democracy assistance in detail.

The post-9/11 era brought foreign assistance to the forefront of military tools through using foreign assistance in the fight against terrorism. Civilian and military leaders deemed development assistance useful in these circumstances because it provided a critical instrument for engineering the behavior of both states and individuals. At the geopolitical level, national security leaders believed assistance was critical to preventing

³³ Spear and Williams, eds., *Security and Development in Global Politics*, p. 42.

³⁴ "A National Security Strategy of Engagement and Enlargement," 1994, "A National Security Strategy of Engagement and Enlargement" (Washington, DC: Department of Defense, February 1995), <https://history.defense.gov/Historical-Sources/National-Security-Strategy/>, "A National Security Strategy of Engagement and Enlargement" (Washington, DC: Department of Defense, February 1996), <https://history.defense.gov/Historical-Sources/National-Security-Strategy/>, "A National Security Strategy for a New Century" (Washington, DC: Department of Defense, May 1997), <https://history.defense.gov/Historical-Sources/National-Security-Strategy/>, "A National Security Strategy for a New Century" (Washington, DC: Department of Defense, October 1998), <https://history.defense.gov/Historical-Sources/National-Security-Strategy/>, and "A National Security Strategy for a New Century" (Washington, DC: Department of Defense, December 1999), <https://history.defense.gov/Historical-Sources/National-Security-Strategy/>.

failed states and, at the state level, assistance was key to winning the hearts and minds in counterinsurgency.³⁵ Spear and Williams note that during this time defense departments and ministries worldwide took on more official development assistance roles and directed assistance towards countries with conflict and insecurity.³⁶

Some scholars assert that foreign assistance has, to an extent, always been directed by national security priorities. For example, Spear points out that the Kennedy administration used foreign assistance to turn developing countries against communism. As the Cold War intensified, nation-building and modernization through assistance continued as key tools in preventing countries from becoming communist. Later the Reagan administration employed foreign assistance as a tool to support governments in Latin America opposing leftist groups that backed right-leaning groups such as the ‘Contras’ who were attempting to undermine the Sandinista government of Nicaragua.³⁷ Similarly, analysis later in this dissertation in chapter 3 finds that since the first NSS produced in 1987, presidents have generally viewed foreign assistance as a tool of national security. Through the NSS, presidents have advocated for the use of foreign assistance to assist in countries that were susceptible to the threat of communism and later to prevent unstable countries from becoming breeding grounds for terrorist organizations.³⁸

Several key studies examine why countries give foreign assistance and find that, to an extent, the strategic interests of donor countries influence where and for what

³⁵ Spear and Williams, eds., *Security and Development in Global Politics*, pp. 40-42.

³⁶ Spear and Williams, eds., *Security and Development in Global Politics*, p. 39.

³⁷ Joanna Spear, Chapter 1, “The Militarization of United States Foreign Aid” in Brown and Grävingholt, eds., *The Securitization of Foreign Aid*, pp. 18-19.

³⁸ 1987- 2015 National Security Strategies.

purposes they give assistance. In their seminal paper “Who Gives Foreign Aid to Whom and Why?” Alberto Alesina and David Dollar explore the correlation between political and strategic considerations and foreign assistance giving. Alesina and Dollar find that across 24 major foreign assistance donor countries, colonial past and alliance with donor country are significant determinants of foreign assistance giving. This study also reveals that the U.S. gives foreign assistance more heavily to countries in the Middle East; the authors posit that the U.S.’s considerable strategic interests in the region drive this assistance.³⁹ A study by Melita Lazell and Ivica Petrikova examines how securitization has affected the distribution of foreign assistance by the United States, the United Kingdom, Sweden, and Denmark. Conflict in the recipient state and the extent to which the donor country perceives the state as a strategic interest affects foreign assistance giving. States that are of strategic interest to the donor country generally receive more assistance.⁴⁰ Cooper Drury, Richard Stuart Olson, and Douglas Van Belle find that the level of disaster relief assistance provided by the U.S. positively correlates with the recipient country’s alliance ties to the U.S., level of democracy, and low gross domestic product.⁴¹ Looking only at U.S. health assistance giving, Vin Gupta et. al. find that higher threat levels in the recipient country are associated with less health assistance. This is contrary to other studies that find that threat level is associated with increased foreign assistance; however, this study only examines health assistance.⁴²

³⁹ Alesina and Dollar, “Who Gives Foreign Aid to Whom and Why?,” pp. 33-63.

⁴⁰ Melita Lazell and Ivica Petrikova, “Is Development Aid Securitized? Evidence From a Cross-Country Examination of Aid Commitments,” *Development Policy Review* 38, no. 3 (May 2020), pp. 323-43.

⁴¹ Drury et al., “The Politics of Humanitarian Aid,” pp. 454-473.

⁴² Gupta et al., “Have Geopolitics Influenced Decision on American Health Foreign Assistance Efforts During the Obama Presidency?,” pp. 1-10.

DoD Provided Assistance

In recent decades, the U.S. military shifted its focus from traditional warfighting capabilities defined by military-to-military combat to an approach that emphasizes the balance between warfighting and the prevention, mitigation, and resolution of conflict. More specifically, before and during World War II the U.S. military focused on building and deploying conventional warfare capability to counter the spread of fascism. During the Cold War, the military focused on the containment of the Soviet Union, minimizing the global influence of communism, and nuclear deterrence. In the post-9/11 era, the military's emphasis turned to non-state actors in weak and failing states driven by poverty, unstable institutions, and corruption that could cause weak states to be vulnerable to becoming breeding grounds for terrorist institutions.⁴³

Scholars Janine Davidson and Frank Schubert note that historically the U.S. military's role is not restricted to warfighting or providing security. The military has played a role in activities such as humanitarian assistance and nation-building since the infancy of the American military. Schubert notes that the U.S. military was involved in leading humanitarian relief, reconstruction, and nation-building activities in the wake of the U.S. occupations of Cuba, Puerto Rico, and the Philippines in the early 1900s. U.S. and Allied forces also rebuilt infrastructure and governments in Europe and Asia in the wake of WWII.⁴⁴

⁴³ Adams and Murray, eds., *Mission Creep*, p. 14 and Eikenberry, "The Militarization of U.S. Foreign Policy," p. 2.

⁴⁴ Schubert, "Other Than War," pp. 15-20 and Davidson *Lifting the Fog of Peace*, pp 5-10.

Although DoD has an established role in some forms of foreign assistance, additional scholarship explores the areas where this role has changed. The works of Nina Serafino, William Anderson, Connie Veillette, and James Dobbins all trace DoD's expanding role in the provision of foreign assistance by following the relevant policy changes that enabled the U.S. military's increased role and funding in this mission set since 9/11. Serafino, Anderson, and Veillette all conducted analyses on the legal authorities that allowed DoD's role in the provision of foreign assistance to increase. Their work shows DoD's expansion in the provision of some forms of foreign assistance from a supporting to a leading role. Although the military does have a historically established role in certain forms of humanitarian assistance, including assistance in the aftermath of conflict and disaster, its role has generally increased since 2001.⁴⁵

According to the work of Serafino, Anderson, and Veillette there are three different environments in which DoD provides assistance: countries in conflict or countries recovering from conflict, countries recovering from natural disasters, and countries at peace. The following analysis summarizes DoD's role in these three environments.

Countries in Conflict or Countries Recovering From Conflict. DoD has a long history of providing assistance to countries in conflict or recovering from conflict. DoD initially undertook these operations without any formal legal authority. The U.S. military was involved in leading humanitarian, reconstruction, and nation-building activities in the

⁴⁵ Anderson and Veillette, Chapter 6, "Soldiers in Sandals," in Adams and Murray eds., *Mission Creep*, pp. 100-10, Serafino, Chapter 7, "Foreign Assistance in Camouflage," in Adams and Murray eds., *Mission Creep*, pp. 122-130, Serafino, "The Department of Defense Role in Foreign Assistance," pp. 1-15, and James Dobbins, Chapter 3, "Civil-Military Roles in Postconflict Stabilization and Reconstruction," in Adams and Murray eds., *Mission Creep*, pp. 46-50.

aftermath of the U.S. occupations of Cuba, Puerto Rico, and the Philippines in the early 1900s. U.S. and allied forces also rebuilt infrastructure and governments in Europe and Asia in the wake of WWII.⁴⁶ In 1961, Congress passed the Foreign Assistance Act, creating USAID and formalizing agency roles in the provision of foreign assistance. The act reorganized the structure of existing U.S. foreign assistance programs, distinguished between military and non-military assistance, and created USAID to administer non-military, economic assistance programs. USAID integrated already existing U.S. assistance efforts, combining the economic and technical assistance operations of the International Cooperation Administration, the loan activities of the Development Loan Fund, the local currency functions of the Export-Import Bank, and the agricultural surplus distribution activities of the Food for Peace program of the Department of Agriculture. Following this change, DoD generally confined itself to development and humanitarian assistance at the direction of State or USAID leadership, as specified by the Foreign Assistance Act.⁴⁷ Policy guidance given in DoDD 5100.46 for humanitarian operations in 1975 further formalized the relationship between the growing network of programs and agencies involved in foreign assistance.⁴⁸ These policies guided which agency was in charge of foreign assistance until the early 2000s. In the early 2000s problems with interagency coordination in Iraq and Afghanistan convinced policymakers that there was a need for the military to take the reins in post-conflict reconstruction and

⁴⁶ Schubert, "Other Than War," pp. 15-20.

⁴⁷ Foreign Assistance Act of 1961.

⁴⁸ "Department of Defense Directive 5100.46 Foreign Disaster Relief," (Washington, DC: Department of Defense, July 6, 1975), <http://www.dtic.mil/whs/directives/corres/pdf/510046p.pdf>

development activities, as it had briefly following WWII.⁴⁹ As a result, DoDD 3000.05 published in November of 2005 established that U.S. forces must be prepared to perform a vast range of functions in the aftermath of conflict and in countries at peace including helping to meet basic human needs and reforming the security sector, establishing institutions of government, reviving market activity, and rebuilding infrastructure.⁵⁰ Chapter 4 explores why this and other key policy changes matter for the securitization of foreign assistance to countries at peace.

Countries Recovering From Natural Disasters. DoD's immense air and sealift capabilities give it the unique ability to respond quickly to a natural disaster and get supplies into difficult to reach areas. The U.S. military has a long history of providing disaster relief including conducting an evacuation in the Falkland Islands in 1831 and assisting in several disaster relief operations throughout the 1800s and 1900s.⁵¹ These responses were typically civilian-led by State. DoD's statutory authorities for humanitarian assistance activities are contained in Title 10 of the United States Code, which states that DoD's involvement in such activities must be in concert with civilian agencies and should complement rather than duplicate other forms of U.S. assistance.⁵² Statutory authority for disaster relief is also included in the aforementioned Foreign

⁴⁹ Anderson and Veillette, Chapter 6, "Soldiers in Sandals," in Adams and Murray eds., *Mission Creep* pp. 100-101.

⁵⁰ "DoDI 3000.05.

⁵¹ Adam B. Siegel, "A Chronology of U.S. Marine Corps Humanitarian Assistance and Peace Operations," CIM 334 (Alexandria: Center for Naval Analysis, September 1994), <https://cna.org/sites/default/files/research/9503340000.pdf>, pp. 7-9.

⁵² "Title 10 (As Amended through January 7, 2011)," Armed Forces § (2011), <https://www.govinfo.gov/content/pkg/CPRT-112HPRT67344/pdf/CPRT-112HPRT67344.pdf>.

Assistance Act of 1961 and DoDD 5100.46.⁵³ These policies give military commanders the authority to assist in urgent circumstances, in some cases without getting prior approval from the president or U.S. ambassadors.⁵⁴

Scholars note that DoD assistance to countries recovering from natural disasters has seen the least amount of growth. The military has an established role in disaster relief and likely always will because State and USAID do not have the physical assets, including ships and airlift, to respond quickly to large-scale disasters.⁵⁵

Countries at Peace. The most controversial area of DoD provided foreign assistance is assistance to countries at peace. DoD does not have a long history of assisting countries at peace and this activity has increased in the post-9/11 era.⁵⁶ DoDD 3000.5 gave DoD the authority to take a more proactive stance in countries that are susceptible to political instability or might be a breeding ground for terrorist organizations.⁵⁷ DoD activities in these countries have included: governance in the form of justice and security sector reform; building clinics and providing health services and training; and constructing schools, digging wells, and providing technical assistance to farmers. Many of the activities in countries at peace involve building and

⁵³ Foreign Assistance Act of 1961 and DoDD 5100.46.

⁵⁴ Stephen J. Morrison, “Integrating 21st Century Development and Security Assistance: Final Report of the Task Force on Nontraditional Security Assistance” (Washington, DC: Center for Strategic and International Studies, January 18, 2008), <https://www.csis.org/analysis/integrating-21st-century-development-and-security-assistance>, p. 22.

⁵⁵ Schubert, “Other Than War,” p. 30.

⁵⁶ Anderson and Veillette, Chapter 6, “Soldiers in Sandals,” in Adams and Murray eds., *Mission Creep*, p.101.

⁵⁷ “DoDI 3000.05.” 2009.

professionalizing the host country's military. This type of foreign assistance is preventative because it is not responding to a crisis or conflict.⁵⁸

An example of both DoD's increased role in preventative foreign assistance to countries at peace and foreign assistance giving to support national security priorities is preventative global health assistance. Despite the DoD's history in global health, in recent decades DoD has linked global health to defense objectives. Part of the reason behind this shift is the realization that global health issues can affect U.S. national security. There is a perception among U.S. policymakers that poor health conditions and lack of health system capacity can contribute to the emergence of weak and failing states that threaten U.S. interests. An important shift in the U.S. viewing global health as a national security issue was in the early 2000s when the U.S. declared HIV/AIDS as a national security threat. Foreign policy leadership perceived HIV/AIDS as a threat to U.S. national security because of the potential societal and political instability resulting from the expanding HIV/AIDS epidemics in Saharan African countries.⁵⁹ United States Africa Command (AFRICOM) cites the prevention and containment of infectious diseases, including HIV/AIDS and malaria as one of its key strategic objectives for the command's engagement on the continent.⁶⁰ DoD also conducts a wide range of activities in preventative health assistance including medical stability operations and partnership engagement intended to contribute to greater stability and lessen conflict in the receiving nation. These activities occur in countries in active conflict as well as in countries at

⁵⁸ Anderson and Veillette, Chapter 6, "Soldiers in Sandals," in Adams and Murray eds., *Mission Creep*, p. 101.

⁵⁹ Josh Michaud, Kellie Moss, and Jen Kates, "The U.S. Department of Defense and Global Health Policy," *U.S. Global Health Policy* (Menlo Park: The Henry J. Kaiser Family Foundation, September 2016), p. 7.

⁶⁰ AFRICOM, "What We Do," 2022, <https://www.africom.mil/what-we-do>.

peace as a preventive measure.⁶¹ Because DoD's role in health assistance is about national security, military health activities do not focus on improving global health in and of itself. In other words, better population health is a secondary outcome of the objective of national security activities. This means that military activities can be short-term focused and not long-term sustainable efforts dedicated to the health of the host country's population.⁶²

As mentioned above, chapter 4 offers an in-depth analysis of the policy turnings points that enabled the securitization of foreign assistance.

Gaps in the Literature

Despite the literature suggesting that national security priorities may increasingly direct foreign assistance and that DoD plays a growing role in the provision of foreign assistance, there are few concrete measures of these changes. Some analysis examines the broad budget trends in foreign assistance spending to demonstrate DoD's increasing role. However, there is little in-depth analysis of the changes to DoD assistance to countries at peace. Further, there is limited literature attempting to measure the relationship between U.S. national security priorities and foreign assistance spending over time to countries at peace.

This dissertation measures both DoD's changing role in the provision of foreign assistance overall and to countries at peace to better understand if the role has changed. It also measures whether national security priorities direct foreign assistance giving to

⁶¹ Michaud et al., "The U.S. Department of Defense and Global Health Policy," p. 24.

⁶² Michaud et al., "The U.S. Department of Defense and Global Health Policy," p. 11.

countries at peace and if national security has always been a significant determinant of U.S. foreign assistance giving.

POTENTIAL DRIVERS OF SECURITIZATION

This section examines the potential key drivers of the securitization of foreign assistance based on a review of the existing literature on the subject. The section begins with a review of the literature on the institutional imbalance between DoD and State as a key driver of the militarization of foreign policy and thus a driver of securitization. A review of the literature on how the president and Congress, and the geographic combatant commands may drive securitization follows this section. However, before addressing the literature on the deeper organizational drivers of securitization, it is important to note the potential role of the post 9/11 foreign policy context in shaping securitization.

The Foreign Policy Context

Broadly, the foreign policy context over the last two decades has likely helped pave the way for securitization. The post 9/11 policy environment was arguably more security-focused than previous decades with an emphasis on preventive security. The post 9/11 NSSs reflect this change. Starting with the 2002 strategy, reducing the threat of terrorism rose to the highest priority. This strategy highlighted that weak states pose a threat because they can become breeding grounds for terrorist institutions and spelled out criteria for rogue states that are at risk of becoming breeding grounds for terrorist institutions. The 2002 strategy also emphasized the role of development assistance in

helping to alleviate these challenges.⁶³ The increased security focus resulted in the U.S. moving to a strategy of preventative war and intervention.⁶⁴ NSSs in subsequent years in the Bush administration continued to highlight these themes and the Obama administration strategies also emphasized the importance of preventing the spread of terrorism and countries supporting terrorist institutions.⁶⁵

Following 9/11, many military operations, both conventional and humanitarian, supported this strategy of preventative engagement. Iraq and Afghanistan were partially wars to stop terrorist ideologies and the governments that supported them from spreading. Giving foreign assistance to regions susceptible to the growth of terrorist organizations also became part of that preventative strategy.

The Role of the Institutional Imbalance

One of the largest drivers of militarization is, according to existing literature, the institutional imbalance between DoD and State, and by extension USAID. The institutional imbalance results in DoD having more influence, as well as more resources and capabilities that enable them to take on a larger role in activities like the provision of foreign assistance.⁶⁶

According to the work of Gordon Adams and Shoon Murray, the origins of the institutional imbalance between DoD and State are rooted in the formation of a unified DoD after WWII and the retention of a large military and military-industrial complex that

⁶³ “The National Security Strategy of the United States of America” (Washington, DC: Department of Defense, September 2002), <https://history.defense.gov/Historical-Sources/National-Security-Strategy/>, pp. 4-13.

⁶⁴ Patricia L. Dunmire, “‘9/11 Changed Everything’: on Intertextual Analysis of the Bush Doctrine,” *Discourse & Society* 20, no. 2 (March 2009): 195–222.

⁶⁵ 2006-2015 National Security Strategies.

⁶⁶ Adams and Murray, eds., *Mission Creep*, pp. 7-8.

created an institutional competitor for State. The National Security Act of 1947, the Truman Doctrine (1947), the White House Policy Memorandum (NCS-68) (1950), and the Korean War (1950-53) all set the foundation for DoD to become a larger and more powerful organization than State.

The National Security Act of 1947 involved a vast restructuring of the U.S. military and intelligence agencies following WWII. The act merged the Department of War (renamed the Department of the Army), the Department of the Navy, and the newly created Department of the Air Force into the National Military Establishment headed by the new position of secretary of defense. Initially, each of the service secretaries maintained quasi-cabinet status, however, Congress amended the act in 1949 to ensure their subordination to the secretary of defense. The same amendment renamed the National Military Establishment the Department of Defense. The Truman Doctrine pledged to contain communism in Europe and elsewhere and impelled the U.S. to support any nation with both economic and military aid if communism or the Soviet Union threatened its stability. Additionally, NCS-68 was one of the most significant statements of American policy in the Cold War, shaping U.S. foreign policy in the war and beyond. NCS-68 significantly increased DoD's budget to build force size and capability to match the perceived Soviet military growth. Finally, the Korean War left an even larger standing Army and civilian workforce in place than that following WWII. All these changes made significant modifications toward DoD becoming a more permanent, unified, and powerful organization.⁶⁷

⁶⁷ Adams and Murray, eds., *Mission Creep*, p. 8.

There are several ways that the institutional imbalance between DoD and State has continued to deepen since the 1950s, including in the disparate size of the budgets and personnel numbers. DoD's budget authority of \$670.7 billion for FY 2018 was twenty times the size of State's budget authority of \$29.1 billion. As of 2013, the workforce of the DoD was almost 100 times the size of State.⁶⁸ Former Secretary of Defense Robert Gates put this in perspective when he said, "there are 6,600 Foreign Service Officers, which is less than the number of sailors assigned to a Carrier Battle Group."⁶⁹ It should not be surprising that DoD would be a larger organization because the military mission by nature requires more manpower and equipment that incur resource-intensive logistics and support networks. However, differences in organizational missions aside the imbalance is still significant. This imbalance also affects USAID, however, much of the existing literature focuses on the imbalance between DoD and State as these are the older and larger U.S. foreign policy institutions.⁷⁰

Additional factors that continue to enable the imbalance include DoD's more robust constituency and networks with Congress, and different organizational cultures regarding planning. DoD and State are at opposite extremes with their domestic networks and constituencies. With large numbers of military personnel and DoD civil servants spread around the country, many Congressmen represent districts containing a significant number of active and retired military personnel, in addition to military bases. Defense contracting is another vehicle for constituency development: about 40 percent of the

⁶⁸ Adams, Chapter 2, "The Institutional Imbalance of American Statecraft," in Adams and Murray eds., *Mission Creep*, p. 23.

⁶⁹ Robert Gates in Eikenberry, "The Militarization of U.S. Foreign Policy," p. 2.

⁷⁰ Adams and Murray, eds., *Mission Creep*, p. 7 and Schake, *State of Disrepair*, p. 25.

defense budget in any given year goes to buying weapons and other products made in states across the U.S.⁷¹ In contrast, State has far fewer employees, most of whom are concentrated in the metropolitan Washington DC area and small enclaves abroad. Additionally, State has relatively little need for contracting with the industrial base. All these factors make it more difficult for State to win public and congressional support for their institutional needs.⁷² Kori Schake notes that State has never had significant domestic constituencies and networks, while DoD has slowly built these as it grew into a larger organization. Further, following WWII and the Korean War, a significant number of Americans served in the military or engaged in activities affiliated with the war efforts. This resulted in many people having a personal tie to DoD and receiving benefits from DoD for years after their service. In comparison, very few Americans have worked for State, or have ever interacted with a State official.⁷³

Derek Reveron and Michelle Gavin argue that defense issues are generally more politically compelling than other foreign policy issues because members of Congress want to court the pool of military voters and show patriotism by supporting DoD. Finally, while many leaders view defense spending as necessary for national security, they view spending on diplomacy as less important. Senate Committee activities also contribute to the imbalance between DoD and State. The prestige and power of the Senate Foreign Relations Committee has decreased over the past decades while the Senate Armed Services Committee has grown in popularity. This is in part because Senate rules prohibit

⁷¹ Adams, Chapter 2, “The Institutional Imbalance of American Statecraft,” in Adams and Murray eds., *Mission Creep*, p. 29.

⁷² Adams, Chapter 2, “The Institutional Imbalance of American Statecraft,” in Adams and Murray eds., *Mission Creep*, p. 31.

⁷³ Schake, *State of Disrepair*, pp. 16-17.

serving on more than one of the major committees (Armed Services, Appropriations, Finance, and Foreign Relations) and, as noted above, military basing and contracting issues have more prominent constituencies than foreign relations do. DoD also has a long-established presence on Capitol Hill and each military service maintains an office there. However, State does not have the same presence, and former Secretary of State Colin Powell had to fight for them to have the small presence that they now have.⁷⁴

DoD and State also have very different organizational cultures stemming from divergent values and priorities. According to Rickey Rife, the military value competence, achievement, and efficiency and are mission and task-oriented, with a “give me the mission and get out of the way” mentality. Diplomats prioritize intellectual ability and individual achievement over teamwork. Diplomats struggle to develop plans and prefer a more fluid event-driven approach to planning.⁷⁵

The cultural dissimilarities combined with differences in central authority between DoD and State impact their respective abilities to conduct strategic planning. DoD has gained considerable institutional coherence with strategic planning from the revolution in central authority headed by former Secretary of Defense Robert McNamara (see chapter 4 for additional details). Further, the introduction of the Planning, Programming, and Budgeting System (PPBS) strengthened the role of the secretary of defense in planning, budgeting, and management. PPBS allowed the secretary greater access to and control over the force and budget planning concerning all military

⁷⁴ Reveron and Gavin, Chapter 1, “America’s Viceroys,” in Reveron, ed. *America’s Viceroys*, pp. 5-7.

⁷⁵ Rickey L. Rife, “Defense is from Mars, State is from Venus; Improving Communications and Promoting National Security.” (Carlisle Barracks: Army War College, June 1998), <http://www.dtic.mil/docs/citations/ADA351032>, pp. 4-7.

capabilities. In contrast, the secretary of state does not have the same centralized authority to carry out strategic planning or budget authority, making strategic planning a nearly impossible challenge.⁷⁶

Overall, the institutional imbalance influences the securitization of foreign policy because DoD is a larger organization in terms of spending power and people, making it is easier for foreign policy leadership to call on them to perform missions outside of traditional defense responsibilities. Factors like the organizational culture and a closer relationship with Congress help DoD get more funding and, in some cases, responsibilities that assist in deepening the imbalance.⁷⁷

Gaps in the Literature. There are few fulsome measures of the institutional imbalance beyond the budget disparity, or analysis of how it may have driven the securitization of foreign assistance. Chapter 5 lays out the size and scope of the imbalance and why this influences securitization. This chapter also examines how subject matter experts who have worked in the foreign policy departments view the role of the institutional imbalance in securitization.

The Role of the President and Congress

The Power of the President. The president holds more influence in national security and foreign policy than he does in many domestic policy areas. Although the framers of the Constitution envisioned an independent executive, they did not intend the executive to have the power to take the nation to war. The framers did not want the

⁷⁶Adams, Chapter 2, “The Institutional Imbalance of American Statecraft,” in Adams and Murray eds., *Mission Creep*, pp. 25-35 and Schake, *State of Disrepair*, pp. 5-17.

⁷⁷ Adams and Murray, eds., *Mission Creep*, p. 7.

executive to have the power of war in part because they were concerned that the president could benefit from war, and, as a result, gave Congress this power. The framers granted the president the authority to appoint and receive ambassadors, negotiate treaties with the Senate's concurrence, and conduct war once it commenced. To Congress the framers gave the power to declare war; Article I, Section 8, Clause 11 of the United States Constitution grants Congress the power to declare war, raise and support armies, provide and maintain a navy, and make the rules for the government and regulation of the land and naval forces. Meanwhile, the president derives the power to direct the military after a congressional declaration of war from Article II, Section 2, which names the president Commander-in-Chief of the armed forces.

Despite the intention of the framers to give Congress and not the president the authority to go to war, Congress's involvement in the decision has declined since WWII. Assertive presidents have resulted in the presidency becoming more dominant in foreign policy. When there has been a disagreement about the use of military force, it has most often been the president's view that has prevailed. Most commitments of U.S. troops overseas have been in response to relatively minor incidents revolving around the protection of American lives or property without declarations of war. Congress has only issued a formal declaration of war five times, most recently in WWII.⁷⁸

In 1973, in response to Congress' perception that the presidency was overstepping the war powers, Congress passed the War Powers Resolution intended to rebalance the authority between Congress and the executive regarding the use of military force. This

⁷⁸ Pfiffner, *The Modern Presidency*, pp. 188-96.

resolution required that the president report to Congress within 48 hours of any commitment, or a substantial increase in U.S. troops abroad. Further, if forces were committed without approval from Congress, they must withdraw within 60 days. However, the War Powers Resolution has not been particularly effective in limiting presidential military actions and it has not forced presidents to consult Congress before employing military force. Presidents Ford, Reagan, Clinton, G. W. Bush, and Obama have all been responsible for not fully complying with the resolution and continuing to further presidential power in the use of military force.⁷⁹

War powers are just one of the ways the president seems to hold the most power and influence over U.S. national security and foreign policy. Presidential advisory structures create a foreign policy bureaucracy within the White House that grants the president an information advantage in foreign policy over Congress. In other words, although Congress technically has oversight authority for the diplomatic, development, defense, and intelligence agencies, the president manages these agencies and, since the 1930s, has the bureaucracy within the White House to assert control over these foreign policy agencies. Prior to the extraordinary growth in the White House staff, both Congress and the president were dependent on the military for information and expertise. Today, while Congress has oversight authority, it is too costly and time-consuming to monitor them and there are no significant incentives from voters to do so. As a result, the president has an information advantage over Congress.⁸⁰

⁷⁹ Pfiffner, *The Modern Presidency*, pp. 188-96.

⁸⁰ Brandice Canes-Wrone, William G. Howell, and David E. Lewis, "Toward a Broader Understanding of Presidential Power: A Reevaluation of the Two Presidencies Thesis," *The Journal of Politics* 70, no. 1 (January 2008), pp. 1-16.

Another reason the president wields more influence in foreign policy is that the president, unlike Congress, is a unitary actor. As a result, the president often has the first-mover advantage and this advantage is clear in foreign policy because it requires quick responses to events around the world as they unfold. The first-mover advantage may be less clear with foreign assistance because Congress must approve the funds to spend and the president cannot act until Congress approves the budget. However, partisan divisions in Congress make it difficult to reach a consensus on an alternative to what the president puts forward in his budget.⁸¹

The Federal Budget: Congress versus the President. Despite the president's advantage in foreign policy, Congress has control over the budget and determines how much funding departments receive. Even if a president has an ambitious agenda in national security, he must have the money to implement his agenda, which is subject to congressional control. The resources the military services dedicate to building relationships with Congress demonstrates how influential Congress can be in this area. Each military service maintains a large presence on Capitol Hill to work with staffers and see that they understand the service's resource needs.⁸²

The congressional powers to control spending have increased since WWII. In the past, the authorization for defense spending was on a standing basis; however, between 1961 and 1983 Congress increased the percentage of required authorizations from 2 to 100 percent. Congress has also become more involved in decisions regarding the

⁸¹ William G. Howell, *Power without Persuasion: The Politics of Direct Presidential Action* (Princeton: Princeton University Press, 2003).

⁸² David E. Lewis and Jennifer Selin, "Political Control and the Forms of Agency Independence," *The George Washington Law Review* 83, no. 4/5 (September 2015), p. 1500.

procurement and acquisition of weapons systems, partially because the production of these systems maintains jobs in many districts.⁸³

Despite these expansions of congressional control, contemporary presidents have increasingly centralized policymaking responsibility in the White House. The president's advisory staff has grown more bureaucratized over time, thus wielding more power and influence. The most visible efforts to add White House oversight to agency policymaking are changes to budgeting. Before 1921, agencies went directly to Congress with their budget requests, but the Budget and Accounting Act of 1921 centralized budget requests in the Bureau of the Budget, which became the Office of Management and Budget in 1970. Presidents then began to use the budget as a policy tool and to shape the president's legislative program. The president's power to receive all agency budget estimates, revise them, and suggest funding levels was an important aspect of presidential control. While the president has the power to establish a baseline budget, Congress holds final authority over appropriations. This influence primarily takes the form of controlling the level of appropriated funds to the federal agencies, as no federal agency may spend funds unless Congress has appropriated them. Thus, Congress can use funding levels to reward or punish agencies to exert influence over agency decisions.⁸⁴ However, some scholars suggest that Congress now generally defers to the president's budget in foreign affairs, while they had previously held a more active role in the foreign affairs budget adjudication.⁸⁵

⁸³ Pfiffner, *The Modern Presidency*, pp. 198-99.

⁸⁴ Lewis and Selin, "Political Control and the Forms of Agency Independence," p. 1500.

⁸⁵ Schake, *State of Disrepair*, p. 52.

Barbara Hinckley argues that disagreement between the president and Congress on foreign policy issues is largely an illusion supported by selective debates on symbolic issues.⁸⁶ Overall, Congress and the president pick the issues and the times they want to engage each other. This means that while Congress and the president debate one policy issue such as foreign assistance spending, they leave out other issues. Further, over time Congress has exercised the power of the purse on foreign assistance spending less and less.⁸⁷ Similarly, in his article “The President, Congress, and the Allocation of Foreign Aid” Jeremy Caddel finds that the president generally dictates foreign assistance spending to countries, but Congress plays a stronger role in directing the foreign assistance allocation across accounts.⁸⁸

Gaps in the Literature. It appears that the president holds significant power in national security. However, further research is required to understand if this means the president plays a noteworthy role in driving securitization. Additionally, this literature begs the question of whether Congress has a role in securitization. Even though Congress in theory has the power of the purse are they in practice deferring to the president with the budget? Further, despite arguments that Congress does not have as powerful of a role in the foreign assistance budget as it once did, Congress put in place many of the budget authorities that have allowed DoD greater and more flexible funding, including overseas contingency operations (OCO) funding. Of course, the president also had a role in these but less so than Congress. Chapter 5 examines whether and how the president and

⁸⁶ Hinckley, *Less than Meets the Eye*, p. 5.

⁸⁷ Hinckley, *Less than Meets the Eye*, p. 49.

⁸⁸ Jeremy Caddel, “The President, Congress, and the Allocation of Foreign Aid,” 2013, <https://www.semanticscholar.org/paper/THE-PRESIDENT%2C-CONGRESS%2C-AND-THE-ALLOCATION-OF-US-Caddel/e50c567644bebc01bea74afed74921068edbc757>, pp. 22-27.

Congress may have played a role in shaping securitization through the federal budget process.

The Role of the Geographic Combatant Commands

Graham Allison argues that one cannot understand a nation's foreign policy without understanding the process. To understand the process, one must look at the whole of government and take into account that no one entity has a monopoly on power. Rather, the state is a web of competing bureaucratic agencies each with its own set of incentives, perspectives, capabilities, and leaders. Thus, policy decisions in the bureaucracy are made through the process of competition and coalition-building between competing entities. Combatant commands are bureaucratic entities competing for power and influence. Some commands are granted significant resources because they have long-running conflicts in their area of responsibility e.g. United States Central Command (CENTCOM) with Iraq and Afghanistan, or because there are significant threats in their area of responsibility like China in United States Indo-Pacific Command (INDOPACOM) and Russia in United States European Command (EUCOM). However, commands like United States Southern Command (SOUTHCOM) and AFRICOM do not have ongoing conflicts or significant threats within their area of responsibility so they must find a way to get more resources through additional responsibilities, increasing their role in foreign assistance is one way to do this.

DoD, State, and USAID are also bureaucratic entities competing for resources. However, this competition is likely less influential on securitization because DoD is a much larger and more powerful organization. As a result, DoD does not have to compete

much to acquire additional resources and responsibilities in the provision of foreign assistance, instead the competition is internal to the department.

There is a significant body of literature arguing that the role of the geographic combatant commanders has increased in scope in the last two decades, allowing the commands more power and autonomy in foreign policy, thus contributing to the securitization of foreign policy.⁸⁹ This section examines the literature that argues that the commands have increased their role in directing U.S. foreign policy.

Expanding Power of the Geographic Combatant Commanders. There is significant anecdotal evidence that combatant commanders and the role they play in their area of responsibility have contributed to the militarization of foreign policy. This anecdotal evidence focuses on the increased role in non-military activities, such as combatant commanders shaping U.S. policy toward their region of responsibility. One of the first to explore this idea was Dana Priest in her book *The Mission*. Priest argues that some combatant commanders took on a role that rivals or even displaces the role of ambassadors in their area of responsibility. Priest, through conversations with high-level military officials, including former combatant commanders, discovered that many commanders have increasingly found themselves in roles traditionally done by an ambassador. These expanded roles include engaging in diplomatic negotiation and representing U.S. foreign policy interests. Priest points out that some combatant commanders have been concerned with their expanded role and understand that the

⁸⁹ Andrew Feickert, “The Unified Command Plan and Combatant Commands: Background and Issues for Congress” (Washington, DC: Congressional Research Service, 2013), <https://fas.org/sgp/crs/natsec/R42077.pdf>, p. 3.

military cannot address all foreign policy needs. Former Commander United States Central Command, General Anthony Zinni was notorious for being outspoken on this issue, feeling forced to take on an ambassadorial role at times. Priest further argues that these combatant commanders are like proconsuls in their leadership and autonomy in their area of responsibility. Meaning, some combatant commanders have become policy advocates using their connections in their area of responsibility, as well as relationships back in Washington, DC with Congress, or other high-ranking government officials, to press certain policy options or agendas.⁹⁰

Carnes Lord in his book *Proconsuls* asserts that the power of the combatant commanders is sometimes like that of a proconsul, however, he disagrees with Priest that it contributes to the militarization of foreign policy because their role in foreign policy is not new.⁹¹ Lord does note there are several reasons why combatant commanders may be more powerful than their civilian counterparts are. More specifically, Lord discusses how combatant commanders are supposed to receive policy advice from their State counterparts (known as Foreign Policy Advisors) but in practice, this does not happen, partially because Foreign Policy Advisors rank relatively low in State, while combatant commanders are four-star generals.⁹² Further, Lord notes that the president appoints some ambassadors in return for favors and financial support as part of their campaign for

⁹⁰ Priest, *The Mission*, pp. 61-99.

⁹¹ A proconsul was an official of ancient Rome who acted on behalf of a consul. A proconsul was typically a former consul. The term is also used in recent history for officials with delegated authority.

⁹² Carnes Lord, *Proconsuls* (Cambridge: Cambridge University Press, 2012), p. 201.

president, resulting in these ambassadors possessing limited knowledge of international relations.⁹³

Shoon Murray and Anthony Quainton interviewed dozens of U.S. ambassadors to ascertain how they felt about the perception that combatant commanders are increasingly powerful in foreign policy. These interviews revealed mixed results. Many of the ambassadors expressed personal respect for the combatant commanders with whom they worked and noted that generally there was cooperation between State and military leadership. However, many of the responses pointed to the impact of the disparity in resources between the two departments. Having more resources, the combatant commanders tend to hold more foreign policy sway in their area of responsibility than the ambassadors. This is due to the perception that the combatant commanders can make things happen in terms of getting humanitarian assistance or security assistance, whereas ambassadors have considerably fewer resources and capabilities to work with.⁹⁴

According to Reveron's work, the fact that the military has more influence with Congress, while State has a relatively weak relationship is part of the reason the combatant commanders have more influence than ambassadors.⁹⁵ Further, Christopher Fettweis argues that with larger budgets and a broader perspective than U.S. ambassadors, combatant commanders hold influence inside and outside the regions they

⁹³ Lord, *Proconsuls*, p. 20.

⁹⁴ Murray and Quainton, Chapter 9, "Combatant Commanders, Ambassadorial Authority, and the Conduct of Diplomacy," in Adams and Murray eds., *Mission Creep*, pp. 197-168.

⁹⁵ Reveron and Gavin, Chapter 1, "America's Viceroy" in Reveron, ed., *America's Viceroy*, p 10.

command. As a result, the combatant commanders not only implement policy but also play a critical part in formulating foreign policy.⁹⁶

Reveron and Dean Cook provide specific examples of the role of the combatant commanders eclipsing the role of diplomats. Reveron argues that EUCOM's mission emphasizes the role of diplomacy over the military because since the end of WWII there is no longer a rival military in Europe. Instead, EUCOM is about assuring U.S. allies by providing military presence, training with allied militaries, dissuading potential adversaries, and counter coercion, all of which have an inherently diplomatic component.⁹⁷ Relatedly, Cook contends that General Wilhelm, the former SOUTHCOM Commander, was notorious for shaping rather than just implementing a major change in U.S. policy towards Columbia. This resulted in Columbia becoming the third-largest recipient of U.S. foreign assistance at the time. Wilhelm's advocacy and interest in the situation, combined with his adeptness in Washington, DC policy circles ultimately achieved his vision for U.S. policy towards Columbia. These examples of the expanded role of the combatant commander matter because some see combatant commanders in the traditional role of just carrying out the president's orders, not shaping U.S. foreign policy.⁹⁸

There is some contradiction in both Lord and Reveron's work because they demonstrate that the role of the combatant commander in foreign policy is large, but at

⁹⁶ Christopher J. Fettweis, Chapter 3, "Militarizing Diplomacy: Warrior-Diplomats and the Foreign Policy Process," in Reveron, ed., *America's Viceroy*, p. 48.

⁹⁷ Reveron, Chapter 5, "U.S. European Command: General Wesley Clack and the War for Kosovo," in Reveron, ed., *America's Viceroy*, p. 100.

⁹⁸ Cook, Chapter 6, "U.S. Southern Command: General Charles E Wilhelm and the Shaping of U.S. Military Engagement in Columbia, 1997-2000", in Reveron, ed., *America's Viceroy*, p. 128.

the same time argue that it has not contributed to the militarization of foreign policy, as Priest argues it does.⁹⁹ This is perplexing since neither defines the militarization of foreign policy or explains why they believe the changing role of the combatant commanders does not contribute to the militarization of foreign policy.

The literature on the role of the geographic combatant commands in the securitization of foreign policy seems to suggest two potential explanations for the role of combatant commands in securitization. Circumstances in the command may push combatant commands to take on responsibility in areas that extend into diplomatic activities. Therefore, commands like AFRICOM and SOUTHCOM that do not have ongoing wars or face direct great power competition may expand their responsibilities into activities outside traditional defense responsibilities to include foreign assistance by necessity or to compete for more resources and prove their relevance.¹⁰⁰ Some literature also suggests that individual combatant commanders can be policy entrepreneurs wielding their influence to increase the role of their commands in activities outside traditional defense responsibilities.¹⁰¹

Gaps in the Literature. The key questions this literature raises are whether the type of command, warfighting versus non-warfighting, can contribute to securitization,

⁹⁹ Reveron, Chapter 5, "U.S. European Command: General Wesley Clack and the War for Kosovo," in Reveron, ed., *America's Viceroy* p. 120, and Lord, *Proconsuls*, p. 5.

¹⁰⁰ Priest, *The Mission*, pp. 61-99, Murray and Quainton, Chapter 9, "Combatant Commanders, Ambassadorial Authority, and the Conduct Diplomacy," in Adams and Murray eds., *Mission Creep*, pp. 197-168, and Reveron and Gavin, Chapter 1, "America's Viceroy" in Reveron, ed., *America's Viceroy*, p. 10.

¹⁰¹ Reveron, Chapter 5, "U.S. European Command: General Wesley Clack and the War for Kosovo," in Reveron, ed., *America's Viceroy*, p. 100 and Cook, Chapter 6, "U.S. Southern Command: General Charles E Wilhelm and the Shaping of U.S. Military Engagement in Columbia, 1997-2000" in Reveron, ed., *America's Viceroy*, p. 128.

and whether a commander's personality and connections can play a role in securitization. The analysis in this dissertation explores whether the roles of the different types of commands, those engaged in active conflict or facing direct great power competition versus those that are not, play different roles in the provision of foreign assistance. This analysis attempts to assess whether commands not actively engaged in conflict or facing direct great power competition may seek or take on additional responsibilities in foreign assistance by examining how they present their mission, priorities, and posture statements to Congress, as well as measuring the differences in the command's foreign assistance spending and programs. Next, this analysis examines whether individual combatant commanders have played role in advocating for increased foreign assistance spending in their area of responsibility, exploring whether there are examples of this occurring and its limitations.

UNDERSTANDING SECURITIZATION

This research lends itself to the following focus areas based on the existing literature and theoretical frameworks laid out in this chapter.

Key Research Focus Areas and Expectations

Key Turning Points. Prior scholarship suggests several organizational and policy changes that may have played a role in increasing the securitization of foreign assistance.¹⁰² However, based on a review of the literature it is not clear if these are all the relevant changes that played a significant role in shaping securitization and how these changes shaped the securitization of foreign assistance. This dissertation traces these

¹⁰² DoDD 3000.5, DoDI 2205.02, and DoDI 6000.16.

turning points through process tracing and analysis how they may have contributed to the securitization of U.S. foreign assistance.¹⁰³

This dissertation selected the key turning points included in the analysis based on a review of the existing literature on the militarization of foreign policy. This literature suggested several policy turning points that may have changed DoD's role in foreign assistance and the role of national security priorities in directing foreign assistance.

Measuring Securitization. Scholarship by Serafino, Anderson, Veillette, and Dobbins explore some trends in DoD's increased spending on foreign assistance, finding that relative to other agencies DoD's spending has increased significantly in the last two decades. However, there is no clear understanding of foreign assistance spending trends to countries at peace despite some literature examining DoD's expanded policy authorities to provide assistance to countries at peace. This dissertation analyses the trends in foreign assistance to countries at peace to understand if there are changes over time. Further, there is quite a bit of literature measuring the drivers of foreign assistance giving, particularly how national security interests drive assistance giving.¹⁰⁴ This dissertation expands on this research and focuses exclusively on U.S. foreign assistance spending. Additionally, this dissertation utilizes different measures of security threats including the incidents of terrorism by country and threat of communism by country.

¹⁰³ Collier, "Understanding Process Tracing," pp. 823-30.

¹⁰⁴ Anderson and Veillette, Chapter 6, "Soldiers in Sandals," in Adams and Murray eds., *Mission Creep*, pp. 100-10, Serafino, Chapter 7, "Foreign Assistance in Camouflage," in Adams and Murray eds., *Mission Creep*, pp. 122-130, Serafino, "The Department of Defense Role in Foreign Assistance," pp. 1-15, and Dobbins, Chapter 3, "Civil-Military Roles in Postconflict Stabilization and Reconstruction," in Adams and Murray eds., *Mission Creep*, pp. 46-50.

This dissertation expects to find that securitization is occurring but not as dramatically in countries at peace as existing literature posits. This is because foreign assistance has always been securitized to an extent. Further, there will be a significant relationship between foreign assistance giving and key national security threats but little increase in the post 9/11 era.

Key Drivers. The analysis of the key drivers of securitization is an attempt to step back to understand the broader drivers that shaped securitization and likely influenced the policy and organizational changes that institutionalized securitization. This analysis uses the existing literature summarized in this chapter to frame the key drivers of securitization (the institutional imbalance, the president and Congress, and the combatant commands). Through interviews with subject matter experts and additional research, this dissertation seeks to explore these key drivers in greater depth to understand their contributions to the securitization of U.S. foreign assistance.

The Institutional Imbalance. Based on existing literature, the institutional imbalance between DoD and State is likely a large driver of the securitization of foreign assistance.¹⁰⁵ This dissertation further explores the depth of the institutional imbalance and, through subject matter expert interviews, how it may have contributed to the securitization of foreign assistance.

The President and Congress. Existing literature suggests that the president holds significant power in national security and this power has continued to increase in recent

¹⁰⁵ Adams and Murray, eds., *Mission Creep*, p. 7 and Schake, *State of Disrepair*, p. 25.

decades.¹⁰⁶ However, Congress may also have a role through the federal budget because they are partially responsible for allowing DoD to have greater and more flexible funding. This dissertation examines whether some presidents have used the budget process to further the securitization of foreign assistance and whether Congress exercises its power of the purse on foreign assistance spending.

The Geographic Combatant Commands. This analysis explores whether the roles of the different types of commands, those engaged in active conflict or facing direct great power competition versus those that are not, play different roles in the provision of foreign assistance. Next, this analysis examines whether individual combatant commanders have played a role in advocating for increased foreign assistance spending in their area of responsibility.

¹⁰⁶ Schake, *State of Disrepair*, p. 52, and Hinckley *Less than Meets the Eye*, p.10.

CHAPTER THREE

INTRODUCTION

The goal of this chapter is to identify the policy and organizational turning points that enabled the securitization of foreign assistance. This analysis breaks the turning points into two broad categories: first, post World War II turning points that established the foundation for the securitization of foreign assistance by laying the groundwork for how the U.S. gives foreign assistance and enabling the Department of Defense (DoD) to be a larger and more powerful organization; and second, post 9/11 turning points that institutionalized securitization and directly shaped the securitization of foreign assistance to countries at peace.

This chapter begins by examining the Foreign Assistance Act of 1961. In addition to serving as the legislative foundation for how the U.S. gives foreign assistance, the Foreign Assistance Act established the importance of the role of the presidency in U.S. foreign assistance decisions and laid the foundation for the U.S. military's role in preventative foreign assistance. Next, this section explores the McNamara internal reorganization of DoD that made the secretary of defense more powerful on the National Security Council; Goldwater-Nichols that reorganized DoD and much of the combatant command structure; and the expansion of noncombatant military tasks in the 1990s. For the post 9/11 institutionalization of securitization, this analysis examines the role of the

post 9/11 policy changes in reshaping how the U.S. gives foreign assistance. These changes resulted in policies that led to the securitization of foreign assistance, granting DoD a larger role in the provision of preventative foreign assistance. Further they allowed national security objectives to guide foreign assistance giving, particularly in preventing the spread of terrorism.

This dissertation selected the key turning points included in this chapter based on a review of the existing literature on securitization. This literature suggests several policy and organizational turning points that may have changed DoD's role in foreign assistance and allowed national security objectives to guide foreign assistance giving. While researching the turning points identified in the literature it became clear that those turning points tied to other changes that played a significant role in shaping or setting the foundation for the securitization of foreign assistance. This chapter attempts to identify these turning points and analyze how they may have impacted securitization.

The analysis in this chapter is based on process tracing. Process tracing is an analytic tool for drawing descriptive and causal inferences from indicative pieces of evidence, often understood as part of a sequence of events or phenomena. Process tracing can help to explain why certain events took place because of the emphasis on causal inferences.¹⁰⁷ Process tracing can explain why securitization has occurred through understanding how sequences of events built upon one another to shape the organizational structures and policies that laid the foundation for securitization, as well as the individual policy decisions that played a direct role in securitization.

¹⁰⁷ Collier, "Understanding Process Tracing," pp. 823-30.

For some of the turning points, other scholars have explored the drivers of the change and this analysis builds on these secondary sources to understand how and why the turning point influenced the securitization of foreign assistance. For the analysis of the McNamara reorganization of DoD, the analysis relies on literature largely produced by the Office of the Secretary of Defense Historical Office exploring the changes to DoD and its role in foreign policy as a basis for the analysis. This chapter draws on the original legislation, policy instructions, and relevant National Security Strategies (NSS) for the analysis of the Foreign Assistance Act of 1961, Goldwater Nichols, the expansion of noncombatant military tasks in the 1990s, and the post 9/11 policy directives regarding the role of national security priorities and DoD's role in foreign assistance.

POST WWII FOUNDATIONS OF SECURITIZATION

The Foreign Assistance Act of 1961

The Foreign Assistance Act of 1961 is an important foundational turning point because it formed the basis for how, where, and when the U.S. gives foreign assistance. The act reorganized the structure of existing U.S. foreign assistance programs, distinguishing between military and non-military assistance, and created a new agency, the United States Agency for International Development (USAID) to administer non-military, economic assistance programs. USAID integrated already existing U.S. assistance efforts, combining the economic and technical assistance operations of the International Cooperation Administration, the loan activities of the Development Loan Fund, the local currency functions of the Export-Import Bank, and the agricultural surplus distribution activities of the Food for Peace program of the Department of

Agriculture. Further, the Foreign Assistance Act laid the foundation for two particularly important areas of concern for this dissertation. First, it granted the president significant authority in decisions regarding foreign assistance giving, and second, it set forth some basic guidance on military assistance.¹⁰⁸

Upon signing the Foreign Assistance Act in 1961, President John F. Kennedy remarked that foreign assistance is a component of national security to prevent the spread of communism, directly highlighting that the provision of foreign assistance is in the national interest. However, in addition to highlighting the national security considerations in foreign assistance giving, Kennedy also remarked on the humanitarian considerations including providing assistance to those countries that are suffering the most, but the focus was on national security and U.S. interests. These remarks give a sense of the context in which the president signed the original act and its broader intension.¹⁰⁹

The 1961 Foreign Assistance Act granted the president most of the power in directing foreign assistance giving. For the development loan and grant programs to promote economic development in less developed friendly countries, the Foreign Assistance Act authorized the president to make loans and grants payable as to principal and interest in U.S. dollars on such terms and conditions as he may determine. Although this gives the president a lot of freedom to make decisions, the Foreign Assistance Act also spelled out criteria for presidential decisions. These criteria include whether the program has a reasonable expectation of delivering the intended development assistance, possible adverse effects on the U.S., and the economic and technical soundness of the

¹⁰⁸ Foreign Assistance Act of 1961.

¹⁰⁹ Kennedy, "Remarks of the President Upon Signing the Foreign Assistance Act of 1962"

project. However, these criteria are broad and would not be a constraint on the president's foreign assistance decisions. Analysis of the president's role in foreign assistance spending in chapter 5 covers the power of the president in foreign assistance spending. In 1961 after Congress passed the Foreign Assistance Act, Congress initially implemented significant oversight of the president's foreign assistance program, but this has waned over time and now Congress employees much more limited oversight.¹¹⁰

Of additional importance, the Foreign Assistance Act is the legal mechanism through which the military received a codified role in foreign assistance giving to countries at peace. Post 9/11 policy changes covered later in this chapter furthered this role. The act specified that the military may provide assistance for any defense equipment or service; give financial contributions for the acquisition or construction of facilities for the collective defense in foreign countries; provide financial assistance for expenses related to participation by the United States Government in regional or collective defense organizations; and assign or detail members of the United States Armed Forces and other DoD personnel to perform duties of a noncombatant nature, including those related to training or advice.¹¹¹

Contribution to Securitization. The Foreign Assistance Act of 1961 is key to understanding the securitization of foreign assistance for several reasons. First, it set the foundation for how the U.S. gives foreign assistance to this day, including establishing USAID to create one consolidated agency for foreign assistance. The act also granted the president significant power in decisions regarding the provision of foreign assistance.

¹¹⁰ Hinckley, *Less than Meets the Eye*, p. 5.

¹¹¹ Foreign Assistance Act of 1961.

This is important for understanding how the securitization of foreign assistance has deepened and sets the presidency up as a potential driver of securitization, as existing literature suggests. Finally, the Foreign Assistance Act set a foundation for military assistance. Although much of what the act captures for military assistance were activities that the military was already involved in, the Foreign Assistance Act codifies this more clearly in statute. Codifying these in statute it increases the likelihood that the expanded activities will continue. Of key importance, the act assigns the military responsibilities in foreign assistance to perform duties of a noncombatant nature including training or advice. This language set the stage for the military's role in the provision of foreign assistance where combat is not occurring, e.g. countries at peace.

The McNamara Reorganization of DoD

Former Secretary of Defense Clark Clifford best captured the magnitude of the changes McNamara brought to DoD when he said: "It is not an exaggeration to say that the history of the Department of Defense will always be divided into pre-McNamara and post McNamara eras."¹¹²

The McNamara reorganization of DoD created greater organizational unity in the department through the Planning, Programming, and Budgeting System (PPBS) that established a central role for the secretary of defense in planning, budgeting, and management with respect to all military capabilities.¹¹³ Further, changes brought about by McNamara's close relationship with the president (primarily Kennedy but also Johnson)

¹¹² Clark Clifford, *Counsel to the President: A Memoir* (New York: Random House, 1991).

¹¹³ Adams, Chapter 2, "The Institutional Imbalance of American Statecraft," in Adams and Murray eds. *Mission Creep* p. 24.

arguably increased the role of the secretary of defense as a lead advisor in U.S. foreign policy.¹¹⁴

During his tenure as secretary of defense, McNamara performed a larger role in defining American foreign affairs than any of his predecessors (including the secretaries of war and the Navy in the years prior to the creation of DoD and the position of secretary of defense), and although he outwardly supported the notion that defense reinforced State's policy direction, in practice he did not adhere to this. This change stemmed from McNamara's close personal relationship with the president (particularly with Kennedy). Before Vice President Johnson took over a clear trend was already emerging that DoD was competing with State in its dominant role in foreign policy. Further, DoD was undertaking policy initiatives that extended its sphere of influence well beyond traditional defense issues.¹¹⁵

McNamara operated in a very different policy environment than many previous civilian leaders of the military due to Kennedy's restructuring of the National Security Council (NSC). Kennedy wished to approach national security decision-making differently than Eisenhower's tight chain of command for the policymaking process. This was the most extensive overhaul of the NSC since its creation in 1947, largely overseen by Kennedy's special assistant for national security affairs, McGeorge Bundy. At Kennedy's direction, council meetings became less regular, more informal, and with fewer people in attendance than under Presidents Truman and Eisenhower. The NSC now

¹¹⁴ Erin Mahan and Jeffrey Larsen, eds., "The Ascendancy of the Secretary of Defense," Cold War Foreign Policy Series (Washington, DC: Historical Office, Office of the Secretary of Defense, July 2013).

¹¹⁵ Mahan and Larsen, eds., "The Ascendancy of the Secretary of Defense," p. xiii.

became only one of several means by which the administration might address foreign and defense policy concerns.¹¹⁶ Further, when Bundy became the national security advisor, he did away with the deliberative process used under the Eisenhower administration so that the NSC staff focused more on policy advocacy and less on the honest brokerage of information to the president.¹¹⁷

For McNamara as the secretary of defense, this NSC structure had several key advantages. Most importantly, it granted him greater direct access to the president and allowed many policy deliberations to be one-on-one discussions between him and Kennedy. The new arrangement of the NSC did not favor the Joint Chiefs, because Kennedy did not trust their advice following the Bay of Pigs catastrophe in 1961. The personal relationships that developed among senior Kennedy administration officials and their staffs provided the most common means of coordination, and McNamara, not previously a close personal advisor to Kennedy, quickly became one of his most trusted advisors. This close relationship combined with the more informal structure of the NSC that lent itself to one-on-one meetings meant that McNamara as secretary of defense quickly became the loudest voice in foreign policy.¹¹⁸

McNamara's good personnel relationships extended beyond the president to secretary of state Dean Rusk. Although the two enjoyed a good rapport, McNamara seemed to prefer supplying his foreign policy guidance directly to the president, including it with each annual budget presentation, in classified form to accompany his

¹¹⁶ Mahan and Larsen, eds., "The Ascendancy of the Secretary of Defense," p.2

¹¹⁷ John Burke, *Honest Broker?* (College Station: Texas A&M University Press, 2009), pp. 58-60.

¹¹⁸ Mahan and Larsen, eds., "The Ascendancy of the Secretary of Defense," pp. 2-6.

memoranda to the president, and in unclassified form to accompany his “posture statements” to Congress. These posture statements and draft memoranda offered justification for new and ongoing defense programs based on how they contributed to U.S. foreign policy objectives. Although McNamara’s office often requested State’s input, they rarely received it in time for inclusion.¹¹⁹

McNamara’s posture statements covered far more ground than any posture statement since the first in 1948 produced by then Secretary of Defense James Forrestal. McNamara’s 1968 posture statement was over 300 pages detailing the challenges in South East Asia and his vision for the U.S. approach to the region. His statements also went beyond current conflicts and delved into a detailed analysis of the current state of each region, potential U.S. interests, and his vision for U.S. relations with that region/country. Overall, his posture statements read more like a strategy for U.S. foreign policy rather than a DoD posture and program justification.¹²⁰ Posture statements before McNamara were brief and focused on DoD program justification with limited information on the foreign policy context. Posture statements since McNamara have not included the same depth of information; however, most do include a more detailed analysis of the foreign policy environment DoD faces. For example, Melvin Laird as President Nixon’s secretary of defense continued posture statements in a similar vein. Although his statements focused on assessments of weapons systems and capabilities

¹¹⁹ Mahan and Larsen, eds., “The Ascendancy of the Secretary of Defense,” pp. 7-13.

¹²⁰ “Statement of the Secretary of Defense Robert S. McNamara before the House Armed Services Committee on the Fiscal Year 1968-72 Defense Program and 1968 Budget,” § sec. House Armed Services Committee (1968), sec. House Armed Services Committee, https://history.defense.gov/Portals/70/Documents/annual_reports/1969_DoD_AR.pdf?ver=2014-06-24-150553-827.

more than McNamara's statements, they still included an in-depth analysis of the foreign policy context facing the department and the significant national security interests around the globe.¹²¹ More recently, Ash Carter in his 2017-posture statement focused on program justification and his vision for the DoD's priorities in addition to the strategic foreign policy context the department faced and the challenges therein. This included an in-depth analysis of developing threats in Russia and China.¹²² Based on this analysis, it appears that McNamara's more foreign policy-oriented approach to the posture statement set an enduring standard in the department.

McNamara's skilled staff enabled him to take steps to deepen DoD's foreign policy influence where other secretaries of defense could not. McNamara had a large group of civilian specialists including his "Whiz Kids" who chiefly operated out of the Office of System Analysis. Although initially under the Office of the Secretary of Defense (OSD) Comptroller, Systems Analysis became a separate office at the Assistant Secretary level in 1965. To further bolster his analytical capabilities within his department, McNamara's inherited the International Security Affairs (ISA) office. ISA was sometimes referred to as the little State Department within DoD, a small but responsive, experienced, and efficient foreign affairs bureaucracy. Later in his tenure in May of 1961, McNamara bolstered the ISA with a new directive reaffirming ISA's existing policy powers and granting new authority. This new authority allowed ISA to

¹²¹ "Statement by Secretary of Defense Melvin Laird, Fiscal Year 1971 Defense Program and Budget" ((Washington, DC: Department of Defense, 1970), https://www.bits.de/NRANEU/others/strategy/1971_Defense_Program_Budget_Statement.pdf).

¹²² Ash Carter "2017 Defense Posture Statement: Taking the Long View, Investing for the Future Secretary of Defense" (Washington, DC: Department of Defense, February 2016), https://dod.defense.gov/Portals/1/Documents/pubs/2017DODPOSTURE_FINAL_MAR17UpdatePage4_WEB.PDF.

delve into studies on long-term security needs and the politico-military and foreign economic implications of force structures, weapon systems, and other military capabilities. ISA gained its importance and influence from the expanded range and complexity of politico-military problems that McNamara took a personal interest in.¹²³ ISA is still active as the Assistant Secretary of Defense (ASD) for ISA. The ASD ISA is the principal advisor to the Under Secretary of Defense for Policy and the secretary of defense on international security, strategy, and policy issues of DoD interest that relate to Europe (including the North Atlantic Treaty Organization (NATO)), the Middle East, and Africa; their governments and defense establishments; and oversight of security cooperation programs and foreign military sales programs.¹²⁴ ISA continues to perform an internal diplomatic function in terms of its responsibility to conduct and manage day-to-day, multilateral, regional, and bilateral defense relations with all foreign governments in the assigned areas of responsibility.

Another change during McNamara's time supporting Kennedy that had a lasting impact was the increased role of the secretary of defense in the conduct of diplomacy. McNamara was often busy with diplomatic matters. Previous secretaries of defense also performed these duties but were not as deeply involved as McNamara was. McNamara's close personal relationship with Kennedy carried weight. When he represented the United States abroad, it was with the support of the president, signifying that any commitments he made had the president's endorsement. McNamara did not represent all U.S.

¹²³ Mahan and Larsen, eds., "The Ascendancy of the Secretary of Defense," pp. 7-13.

¹²⁴ Department of Defense, "Assistant Secretary of Defense for International Security Affairs," 2022, <https://policy.defense.gov/OUSDP-Offices/ASD-for-International-Security-Affairs/>.

diplomacy during Kennedy's presidency, but he played a large role in certain crucial areas. More specifically, McNamara's involvement with NATO and Southeast Asia frequently eclipsed that of any of the president's other cabinet officials. For Kennedy, if DoD instead of State spearheaded a policy it generally indicated that he expected DoD officials to implement that policy as well.¹²⁵

One illustration of McNamara's role as the U.S. foreign policy spokesman was his address at the North Atlantic Council meeting in May 1962. This address laid out the strategic concept that eventually brought about changes that drove NATO planning and procurement for the next generation. McNamara's address stated that the development of nuclear forces by countries such as France and West Germany would do little to alter the strategic balance as U.S. nuclear weapons continued to provide adequate and effective protection. McNamara argued that the best course for NATO would be to devote resources to growing conventional force options. This change in the secretary of defense role set the precedent for the secretary to take a larger role in the conduct of U.S. foreign relations.

McNamara's managerial innovations within the DoD further strengthened the secretary of defense's role in foreign policy. By late 1963, McNamara had initiated several far-reaching changes to DoD's internal policy operations that institutionalized his direction, authority, and control over day-to-day activities. One of the most important innovations was the creation of a new resource allocation process through PPBS that sought to align defense budgeting decisions to national objectives and strategy. PPBS,

¹²⁵ Mahan and Larsen, eds., "The Ascendancy of the Secretary of Defense," pp. 17-18.

combined with the creation of the civilian-led Office of Systems Analysis (now OSD Cost Assessment and Program Evaluation) specializing in independent quantitative assessments of program costs across the department, provided the secretary with an efficient, responsive source of politico-military analysis on the full range of challenges confronting the U.S. This blurred the lines between foreign and defense policy and the departmental responsibilities therein.¹²⁶

Many of the changes that occurred during the Kennedy administration largely enabled by the close relationship between the secretary of defense and the president set the stage for continued organizational change under President Johnson. By the end of the Johnson administration in January 1969, his administration had reinforced the institutional precedent set during the Kennedy years: the secretary of defense was a central, indispensable contributor to U.S. foreign policy.¹²⁷

Contribution to Securitization. The McNamara era in DoD helped lay the foundation for a more powerful DoD in U.S. foreign policy. It furthered the institutional imbalance between DoD and State, setting up DoD to take on more responsibilities that helped drive DoD's increased role in the provision of foreign assistance. It also strengthened the role of the secretary of defense and set the precedent that this position can play a more powerful role and can have more influence with the president than the secretary of state. According to Brooks et. al., this trend continues to the present day.¹²⁸

¹²⁶ Mahan and Larsen, eds., "The Ascendancy of the Secretary of Defense," pp. 2-3.

¹²⁷ Mahan and Larsen, eds., "The Ascendancy of the Secretary of Defense," p. xii.

¹²⁸ Vincent Brooks et al., "Two Hand on the Sword: A Study of Political - Military Relations in National Security Policy" (Carlisle Barracks, U.S. Army War College, 1999), <https://apps.dtic.mil/sti/citations/ADA366820>, p. 30.

Further, McNamara established a larger more independent foreign policy analytical capability to rival that of State contained in the ISA office that is still operational today.

Goldwater-Nichols

Goldwater-Nichols is a post WWII foundation of securitization because it defined the combatant command structure we know today and the responsibilities of the combatant commanders. Goldwater-Nichols consolidated the geographic combatant commanders as operational organizations and confirmed that U.S. military activity abroad was no longer an occasional occurrence during wartime, but rather a normal activity the U.S. would pursue around the world through a global presence. This change set the stage for the combatant commands' role in foreign assistance as a preventative strategy. This change meant that for every country the U.S. government now had two senior representatives: the ambassador and the combatant commander for that region. Additionally, Goldwater-Nichols brought the military service area commanders together under one commander for each region, so instead of dealing with each service everything went through the combatant commander. This consolidated command structure likely deepened DoD's influence because it made it more streamlined for foreign governments to work with the U.S. through one central authority.¹²⁹

The main motivating factor for the Goldwater-Nichols reform was the lack of communication and collaboration across the military services brought to light by the failure of Operation Eagle Claw in 1980. Providing further impetus for defense reform were the communications failures in Operation Urgent Fury in October of 1983. During

¹²⁹ Edward Marks, Chapter 12, "The State Department: No Longer the Gatekeeper," in Adams and Murray eds., *Mission Creep* pp. 238-39.

this operation, commanders could not communicate between the military services because the services' radios were not interoperable and stories circulated that officers used commercial phones to contact officers in the other services.¹³⁰ Finally, there was the terrorist bombing in Beirut in 1983 from which the after-action review revealed that the Commander of United States European Command had limited authority to direct service components within his area of responsibility, leading to failures in cross-service coordination.¹³¹

Goldwater-Nichols change that is most important for securitization was the increased power and autonomy that Goldwater-Nichols granted the combatant commands. Goldwater-Nichols changed the combatant command structure in two important ways. Firstly, it clarified the chain of command from the president to the combatant commanders. This new chain of command ran from the president to the secretary of defense and from there to the combatant commander, instead of running through the Joint Staff. Secondly, Goldwater-Nichols specified that the military departments would assign all forces under their jurisdiction to unified and specified commands. It further specified that the secretary of defense would direct all assignments to the commander. Goldwater Nichols gave the secretary the responsibility to ensure that such assignments were consistent with the force structure prescribed by the president for

¹³⁰ John Hamre, "Reflections: Looking Back at the Need for Goldwater-Nichols" (Washington, DC: Center for Strategic and International Studies, n.d.), <https://www.csis.org/analysis/reflections-looking-back-need-goldwater-nichols>.

¹³¹ Kathleen McNinis, "Goldwater-Nichols at 30: Defense Reform and Issues for Congress" (Washington, DC: Congressional Research Service, June 2, 2016), https://digital.library.unt.edu/ark:/67531/metadc855790/m2/1/high_res_d/R44474_2016Jun02.pdf, p. 5.

each combatant command. Further, Goldwater Nichols gave combatant commanders the authority to:

- Give authoritative direction to subordinate commands and forces necessary to carry out missions assigned to the command, including authoritative direction over all aspects of military operations, joint training, and logistics.
- Prescribe the chain of command to the commands and forces within the command.
- Organize commands and forces within that command, as the commander considers necessary to carry out missions assigned to the command.
- Employ forces within that command, as the commander considers necessary to carry out missions assigned to the command.
- Assign command functions to subordinate commanders.
- Coordinate and approve those aspects of administration and support (including control of resources and equipment, internal organization, and training) and discipline necessary to carry out missions assigned to the command.
- Exercise the authority concerning selecting subordinate commanders, selecting combatant command staff, suspending subordinates, and convening court-martial.¹³²

¹³² “Goldwater- Nicholas Department of Defense Reorganization Act of 1986,” Pub. L. No. 99–433, 111 (1986), https://history.defense.gov/Portals/70/Documents/dod_reforms/Goldwater-NicholsDoDReordAct1986.pdf, pp. 1012.

- Additionally, Goldwater-Nichols specified that combatant commands would have their own annual budgets as part of the DoD budget submitted to Congress, including a separate budget for joint exercises, force training, contingencies, and selected operations.¹³³

Contribution to Securitization. The increased responsibility brought about by Goldwater-Nichols laid the foundation for the combatant commanders, particularly in commands that have not been involved in a major conflict in the last two decades including United States Southern Command and United States Africa Command (AFRICOM), to take on more responsibilities in the provision of foreign assistance. The most important change for securitization was that Goldwater-Nichols granted the commanders the ability to organize the assigned forces as the commanders sees necessary to carry out their assigned missions, employ assigned forces as the commander sees fit, and coordinate and approve those aspects of administration and support (including control of resources and equipment, internal organization, and training). These authorities grant commanders autonomy in how they address their mission. Combatant command missions are broad and open to a commander's interpretation within reason. As a result, the commands can organize and use forces as they see necessary, which could be in foreign assistance activities if the commander believes this is necessary to support the mission. Further, commanders control resources, equipment, and training for their command that they can independently adjust to support foreign assistance activities if required.

¹³³ "Goldwater- Nicholas Department of Defense Reorganization Act of 1986," pp. 1017.

The Expansion of Noncombatant Military Tasks and the Securitization of Democracy Promotion in the 1990s

For more than forty years following the reconstruction efforts in Germany and Japan, the U.S. had more limited involvement in reconstruction and nation-building activities. However, with the fall of the Soviet Union in 1991 and the end of that peer competition, U.S. involvement in multinational military action to preserve peace and security became feasible. As a result, during the 1990s two foreign policy events subtly but significantly contributed to the foundation of the securitization of foreign assistance. These events were the fallout from the Battle of Mogadishu in Somalia which changed how the U.S. became involved in peacekeeping operations, and the aftermath of the U.S. engagement in the Balkans and Haiti that shaped how the U.S. employs democratization as a tool of national security.¹³⁴

U.S. Role in Peacekeeping Operations. After losing the 1992 election to Bill Clinton, President George H.W. Bush sent American forces into Somalia on a humanitarian mission to bring food to the victims of a raging civil war. However, by the fall of 1993, the mission had expanded to one of restoring a government in Somalia. On October 3, 1993, the U.S. sent a special operations team into Mogadishu to arrest two top lieutenants of the warlord Mohammed Aidid, who controlled the city. This was supposed

¹³⁴ James Dobbins et al., *After the War: Nation-Building from FDR to George W. Bush* (Arlington: RAND Corporation, 2008).

to be a short raid that would take 30 to 45 minutes. However, things did not go according to plan, resulting in the deadliest firefight that U.S. forces had faced since Vietnam.¹³⁵

In reaction to what he viewed as a humanitarian mission gone wrong in Somalia, President Clinton ordered the national security bureaucracy to consider how and when the U.S. should become involved in peacekeeping operations. The resulting document was Presidential Decision Directive 25, issued on May 3, 1994. The directive stated that peace operations are not the focus of U.S. foreign policy. However, properly conceived, well-executed peace operations can be a useful element in serving America's interests. Furthermore, the directive stated that the primary mission of the U.S. military is to be prepared to fight and win two simultaneous regional conflicts. In this context, peacekeeping can be one useful means to help prevent and resolve such conflicts before they pose direct threats to U.S. national security. Peacekeeping can also serve U.S. interests by promoting democracy, regional security, and economic growth.

The directive prescribed several specific steps to improve U.S. and United Nations (UN) management of UN peace operations to ensure the use of such operations are selective and effective. Although the directive stated that peace operations are not the primary mission of the U.S. military, one of the purposes of this directive was to establish the role of the U.S. military in peace operations. The originally classified directive outlined a series of factors that the national security bureaucracy must consider before involving the U.S. in peacekeeping. Eight factors to weigh before deciding in favor of

¹³⁵ "What A Downed Black Hawk In Somalia Taught America," All Things Considered (National Public Radio, October 5, 2013), <https://www.npr.org/2013/10/05/229561805/what-a-downed-black-hawk-in-somalia-taught-america>.

peacekeeping in the UN, and nine additional factors to weigh before becoming involved in a Chapter VII action (action concerning threats to the peace, breaches of the peace, and acts of aggression).¹³⁶ More relevant to this dissertation, the directive also spells out factors for U.S. military participation in peace operations:

- Participation advances U.S. interests and the risk to American personnel has been weighed and considered acceptable.
- Funds, personnel, and other resources are available for U.S. participation.
- U.S. participation is necessary for the success of the mission or to persuade other nations or organizations to join.
- The role of U.S. forces is tied to clear objectives and an endpoint.
- There is domestic political and congressional support for U.S. participation or such support can be obtained.
- Command and control arrangements governing the participation of U.S. and foreign forces are acceptable to the U.S.¹³⁷

The first Clinton National Security Strategy (NSS) published in 1994 also reflected these policy changes.¹³⁸

Securitization of Democracy Promotion in the Balkans and Haiti. As discussed in the literature review in chapter 2, democracy promotion is a key component of U.S. foreign assistance and has been since the 1990s. In his 1994 State of the Union address, President Clinton stated that the promotion of democratic transition should be the core

¹³⁶ “Presidential Decision Directive 25” (Office of the President, May 3, 1994), <https://clinton.presidentiallibraries.us/items/show/12749>, p. 17.

¹³⁷ “Presidential Decision Directive 25.” p. 18.

¹³⁸ “A National Security Strategy of Engagement and Enlargement,” 1994.

national security strategy of the United States, stating that: “Ultimately, the best strategy to ensure our security and to build a durable peace is to support the advance of democracy elsewhere. Democracies don’t attack each other.”¹³⁹ Clinton’s NSSs also emphasized the role of democracy promotion in national security, noting that democracies are more likely to co-operate with the U.S. on security issues including non-proliferation, are less likely to upset international stability with war and internal instability, and are more likely to respect human rights. These principles cemented democracy promotion as an integral part of the administration’s foreign policy strategy.¹⁴⁰

The notion that promoting democratic transition abroad could support U.S. national security goals was not wholly new to the Clinton administration. The idea had been influential in various forms since Woodrow Wilson’s presidency (1913-1921), and promoting democratic transitions to support U.S. national security became part of the political tradition referred to as Wilsonianism. Wilsonianism encouraged open market economies and international organizations to create an international order under U.S. leadership.¹⁴¹

¹³⁹ William Clinton, “Address Before a Joint Session of the Congress on the State of the Union” (Washington, DC, January 25, 1994), <https://www.presidency.ucsb.edu/documents/address-before-joint-session-the-congress-the-state-the-union-12>.

¹⁴⁰ “A National Security Strategy of Engagement and Enlargement,” 1994, “A National Security Strategy of Engagement and Enlargement,” 1995, “A National Security Strategy of Engagement and Enlargement,” 1996, “A National Security Strategy for a New Century,” 1997, “A National Security Strategy for a New Century,” 1998, and “A National Security Strategy for a New Century,” 1999.

¹⁴¹ Tony Smith, *America’s Mission: The United States and the Worldwide Struggle for Democracy in the Twentieth Century* (Princeton: Princeton University Press, 1995), David Ryan, *U.S. Foreign Policy in World History* (London: Routledge, 2014), Michael Hunt, *Ideology and U.S. Foreign Policy* (New Haven: Yale University Press, 2009), Adam Quinn, *U.S. Foreign Policy in Context: National Ideology from the Founders to the Bush Doctrine* (London: Routledge, 2009), and Michael Cox, Timothy J. Lynch, and Nicolas Bouchet, eds., *U.S. Foreign Policy and Democracy Promotion* (London: Routledge, 2013).

Some assert that the military intervention in Haiti from 1994 to 1995 was the first example of the Clinton administration's securitization of democracy assistance. In 1991, the Haitian Army staged a coup against the democratically elected president. After American pressure, the UN Security Council authorized the international community to use military force to restore democracy in Haiti. The administration's desire to see democracy returned centered on the concern that the lack of democratic government presented a threat to regional security, as well as international norms, not the well-being of Haitians. Statements by Clinton's foreign policy advisors linked the form of government in Haiti directly to the security of the entire region, arguing that the absence of a democratic government in Haiti threatened regional security. This made the restoration of democracy in Haiti a security issue, a large step on the Clinton administration's path to securitizing democracy promotion.¹⁴² However, there were other factors that may have played in the intervention in Haiti that were ultimately not about democracy promotion but rather driven by domestic political considerations. The crisis in Haiti began before Clinton took office under President H.W. Bush. During his campaign Clinton criticized Bush for his policy on refugee return and promised to increase pressure on the military junta.¹⁴³ Because of this criticism Clinton had significant motivation to

¹⁴² Rasmus Søndergaard, "Bill Clinton's Democratic Enlargement and the Securitization of Democracy Promotion," *Diplomacy and Statecraft* 26 (2015), pp. 545-547, Karin von Hippel, "Democratization as Foreign Policy: The Case of Haiti," *The World Today* 51 (1995), pp. 11-14, and Thomas Carothers, "Working Papers: The Clinton Record on Democracy Promotion," (Washington, DC: Democracy and Rule of Law Project Carnegie Endowment for International Peace, 2000), <https://carnegieendowment.org/files/16carothers.pdf>, p. 8.

¹⁴² Jason Edwards, *Navigating the Post-Cold War World: President Clinton's Foreign Policy Rhetoric* (Washington, DC: Lexington Books, 2008), p.142.

¹⁴³ Department of State, Office of the Historian, "Intervention in Haiti, 1994-1995," (Washington, DC: Department of State, 2000), <https://history.state.gov/milestones/1993-2000/haiti>.

avoid an influx of Haitian refugees and ultimately this may have been the key motivation for the intervention in Haiti.

A couple of years later as tensions began to build in the Balkans, Secretary of State Madeleine Albright argued that the conflict highlighted the need to integrate the Balkans into the Atlantic community of democracies and emphasized this as another example of how the absence of democratic government had negative implications for American national security. The administration framed concerns over ethnic violence, human rights violations, internally displaced populations, and refugees as the result of the absence of a democratic government. Therefore, failing to restore a peaceful democracy would cause serious risks to Europe and the U.S. from terrorism, instability, and refugees.¹⁴⁴

With aggressive rhetoric on democracy, the Clinton administration contributed to a significant change in American foreign policy rhetoric towards more interventions.¹⁴⁵ Albright exemplified this in 1999 when she argued that intervention in intra-state affairs to stop human rights abuses had become an accepted principle, and the interventions in Bosnia and Kosovo supported this.¹⁴⁶ Further, the securitization of democracy assistance during the Clinton administration codified the link between security and democracy for use during the next administration and informed President Bush's thinking about democracy promotion through military interventions in Iraq and Afghanistan.

¹⁴⁴ Søndergaard, "Bill Clinton's Democratic Enlargement and the Securitization of Democracy Promotion," pp. 545-547.

¹⁴⁵ Edwards, *Navigating the Post-Cold War World*, p. 142.

¹⁴⁶ Madeleine Albright, "Continuing the Fight for Human Rights in the 21st Century" (Washington, DC: Department of State Dispatch, 1999), p. 3.

Contribution to Securitization. These changes are important to securitization because they set forward the policy position that the U.S. military is a fundamental component of peace operations and deepened the military's role in reconstruction and stability operations, later codified in policy post 9/11. Some peace operations are preventive and helped open the door to military involvement in countries at peace. Overall, the use of democracy promotion as a tool of national security contributed to the securitization of foreign assistance because it explicitly tied democracy promotion, and thus foreign assistance focused on building democracy, to national security.

POST 9/11 INSTITUTIONALIZATION OF SECURITIZATION

The post 9/11 environment introduced new policies that increased measures to prevent terrorism including foreign assistance, particularly in countries at peace that could be potential breeding grounds for terrorist organizations. This is not to argue that terrorism prevention was a new focus of U.S. foreign policy since the NSS has always included provisions for terrorism prevention.

The aftermath of 9/11 and the global war on terror constitute the most influential policy changes for the securitization of foreign assistance and led to DoDD 3000.5. This directive gave the department the authority to take a more proactive stance in regions susceptible to instability as part of the global war on terror. Additionally, during this time, State's perceived lack of ability to tackle reconstruction efforts in Iraq and Afghanistan led to increased authority for DoD, including the 2008 DoDI 2205.02. This instruction established policy and responsibilities for the conduct of humanitarian and

civic assistance activities and formally codified DoD's role in these.¹⁴⁷ Further, DoDI 6000.16 released in 2010 established policies and defined responsibilities for how military health system assets support DoD's stability operations efforts. This instruction also elevated DoD's "non-combat" support role to the same level as that of the "combat" role.¹⁴⁸

The post 9/11 era also brought changes to USAID policies on how the U.S. should direct foreign assistance. The USAID report, "Foreign Aid in the National Interest" and the Presidential Policy Directive on Global Development established that in the post 9/11 era foreign assistance was an important component of national security and USAID must focus on foreign assistance giving to support national security priorities.

Department of Defense Directive 3000.05

When funding for foreign assistance programs, particularly those to do with stability and reconstruction, increased as part of the conflicts in Iraq and Afghanistan the civilian foreign assistance agencies namely State and USAID did not have the ability or willingness to step in. Some argue this was because these agencies were ill-equipped to operate in post-conflict environments or counterinsurgency due to their lack of security and infrastructure, although these agencies had never operated in a counterinsurgency environment. As a result, there was a perceived need for the DoD to have more authority in this area leading to DoDD 3000.05.¹⁴⁹

¹⁴⁷ DoDI 2205.02.

¹⁴⁸ DoDI 6000.16.

¹⁴⁹ Anderson and Veillette, Chapter 6, "Soldiers in Sandals," in Adams and Murray eds., *Mission Creep*, p. 99.

DoDD 3000.05, originally published in 2005, established stability operations as a core military competency and elevated them to the same level of importance as combat operations. This directive defined stability operations as “military and civilian activities conducted across the spectrum from peace to conflict to establish or maintain order in states and regions.” The directive stated it is DoD policy that:

- Stability operations are a core U.S. military mission that DoD will be prepared to conduct and support. Stability operations will be given priority comparable to combat operations and be explicitly addressed and integrated across all DoD.
- Stability operations are conducted to help establish an order that advances U.S. interests and values. The immediate goal often is to provide the local populace with security, restore essential services, and meet humanitarian needs. The long-term goal is to help develop an indigenous capacity for securing essential services, a viable market economy, rule of law, democratic institutions, and a robust civil society.
- Many stability operations tasks are best performed by indigenous, foreign, or U.S. civilian professionals. Nonetheless, U.S. military forces shall be prepared to perform all tasks necessary to establish or maintain order when civilians cannot do so. Successfully performing such tasks can help secure lasting peace and facilitate the timely withdrawal of the U.S. and foreign forces.¹⁵⁰

¹⁵⁰ DoDI 3005.05.

Contribution to Securitization. Although stability operations in Iraq and Afghanistan were far from the first time that DoD led in this type of activity, DoDD 3000.05 put DoD at the forefront of stability operations by directing them to conduct and support these operations. Additionally, the directive explicitly stated that DoD must have the capability and capacity to provide humanitarian assistance. This is important because it means the military services must develop and retain expertise in this area, further enabling their ability to respond to stability operations. Finally, and most importantly for the securitization of foreign assistance to countries at peace, stability operations, by the definition laid out in 3000.5, are partially about conflict prevention in areas at peace. More specifically, the definition states that stability operations are “conducted in countries at peace and conflict to establish order, provide security, restore essential services, and address humanitarian needs.”¹⁵¹ This definition is broad and provides DoD authority to use foreign assistance as a tool to advance U.S. interests in countries at peace if there is a determined need. This set the precedent for preventative operations in countries at peace.

Some national security leaders initially viewed the release of DoDD 3000.05 in 2005 as a temporary change to allow for increased DoD support in reconstruction and assistance. When speaking about DoDD 3000.05 Secretary of Defense Robert Gates stated “and until our government decides to plus up civilian agencies like the Agency for International Development, Army soldiers can expect to be charged with reviving public service, rebuilding infrastructure, and promoting good governance. All these so-called

¹⁵¹ DoDI 3005.05.

‘non-traditional’ capabilities have moved into the mainstream of military thinking, planning, and strategy – where they must stay.”¹⁵² This statement implied that Gates saw a way that this could be a temporary change. However, the 2007 National Defense Authorization Act inferred that he and other defense leaders thought it would need to be enduring as it explicitly made DoD’s role in stability operations permanent.¹⁵³ Moreover, updated versions of DoDD 3000.05 in 2014 and 2017 continued to grant DoD authority in this area, clarifying that this was not a temporary expansion of DoD’s responsibility.

Department of Defense Instruction 2205.02

DoDI 2205.02 codified the military’s role in Humanitarian and Civic Assistance (HCA) activities. HCA activities include relief and development activities that take place as part of overseas military exercises, training, or operations. DoD frequently conducts exercises and training operations in countries at peace with a humanitarian assistance component. For example, Cobra Gold, first held in 1982, serves as a military training exercise to improve coordination between the U.S. and Thai armed forces in both military and humanitarian efforts. The exercise also aims to strengthen ties between the United States and Thailand, the oldest U.S. ally in the South Asia region. In Cobra Gold 2019, military personnel delivered health care to the local Thai population and used the exercise as a testing ground for new battlefield technologies including solar-powered weaponry.

DoDI 2205.02 states that HCA activities:

¹⁵² Robert Gates, “Remarks as Delivered by Secretary of Defense Robert M. Gates” (Washington, DC, October 10, 2007), <http://www.defense.gov/speeches/speech.aspx?speechid=1181>.

¹⁵³ “John Warner National Defense Authorization Act for Fiscal Year 2007,” Pub. L. No. 109–364 (2006), <https://www.govinfo.gov/content/pkg/PLAW-109publ364/pdf/PLAW-109publ364.pdf>.

- Should be conducted in conjunction with authorized U.S. military operations in a foreign country (including training).
- Should be conducted with the approval of the host nation's civilian authorities.
- Complement, not duplicate, other forms of social or economic assistance provided to the host nation by other U.S. departments or agencies.
- Serve the basic economic and social needs of the people in the host nation.
- Promote, as determined by the secretary of defense or the secretary of the military department concerned, U.S. national security and foreign policy interests and operational readiness skills of participating U.S. military members.
- Receive combatant commander recommendations and approval by the Assistant Secretary of Defense for Global Security Affairs via the established nomination and approval process.
- Require secretary of state or designee approval.
- Shall be limited to HCA activities.
- Shall be incorporated into the overall geographic combatant commanders' security cooperation plan.¹⁵⁴

Contribution to Securitization. DoDI 2205.02 is influential in the securitization of foreign assistance to countries at peace because many military exercises take place in allied countries at peace. Further, DoDI 2205.02 clearly states that the assistance must

¹⁵⁴ DoDI 2205.02.

serve the basic economic and social needs of the host nation and support the foreign policy and security interests of the U.S. In other words, the directive grants DoD the authority to use exercises to provide humanitarian assistance to countries to serve national security objectives.¹⁵⁵ For example, various Jihadist terror groups have been operating on the southern islands of the Philippines, a U.S. ally, and a country at peace. After 9/11 U.S. concern grew about this influence in the country and starting in 2002 the U.S. began using Balikatan (an annual military exercise between the U.S. and the Philippines) to quell the influence of these groups. The U.S. military worked to counter Jihadist influence through HCA programs in the southern islands to improve living conditions implemented by the U.S. and Philippine forces. The idea was that Jihadist groups would hold less influence if living conditions in the region improved.¹⁵⁶ It is unclear how effective this was in curbing the influence of Jihadists in the region, but this is a clear example of the U.S. military assisting a country at peace for national security purposes through a military exercise. Again, as with many of these key turning points, the policy change does not mean these things were not happening before. The U.S. military has provided humanitarian assistance as part of multi-national exercises for a long time, but what changed was the policy was expanded and formally codified this role. As with the other turning points, it is important that it was codified because this will create greater likelihood that the behavior will be replicated.

¹⁵⁵ DoDI 2205.02.

¹⁵⁶ Aurel Croissant and Michael Malley, "Balikatan Exercises: A Peace-Building Tool for Mindanao?" (Monterey, Naval Post Graduate School, 2005), <https://www.hsdl.org/?abstract&did=463342>.

Department of Defense Instruction 6000.16

DoDI 6000.16, published in 2010, entitled Military Health Support for Stability Operations established the policy that Medical Stability Operations (MSOs) would be a core military mission. The instruction set out to institutionalize how the Military Health Support (MHS) would effectively support MSOs.

Specifically, the instruction states that:

- MSOs are a core U.S. military mission that the DoD shall be prepared to conduct throughout all phases of conflict and across the range of military operations, including in combat and non-combat environments. MSOs shall be given priority comparable to combat operations and be explicitly addressed and integrated across all MHS activities including doctrine, organization, training, education, exercises, materiel, leadership, personnel, facilities, and planning.
- The MHS shall be prepared to perform any tasks assigned to establish, reconstitute, and maintain health sector capacity and capability for the indigenous population when indigenous, foreign, or U.S. civilian professionals cannot do so.
- The MHS shall be prepared to work closely with relevant U.S. government departments and agencies, foreign governments and security forces, global and regional international organizations, the U.S. and foreign nongovernmental organizations, and private sector individuals and for-profit companies.

- DoD health care personnel shall not practice outside their scope of privileges and their profession's scope of practice.¹⁵⁷

Contribution to Securitization. As mentioned in the literature review chapter, health assistance activities are an important manifestation of the securitization of foreign assistance to countries at peace. The HIV/AIDS crisis drove the role of health assistance activities in national security. The disease could contribute to instability, particularly in developing nations and the presence of unstable nations is a threat to U.S. national security.¹⁵⁸ DoDI 6000.16 states that MSOs shall be conducted through all phases of conflict and range of military operations, including both combat and non-combat operations, codifying that the military could perform MSOs in countries at peace. Again, this did does not mean DoD did not previously have a role in MSOs, DoDI 6000.16 just formalized and expanded this role. This change opened the door in the post 9/11 environment for the U.S. to use MSOs to assist countries at peace. For example, AFRICOM uses MSOs as a significant portion of their efforts for the Combined Joint Task Force-Horn of Africa (CJTF-HOA). CJTF-HOA conducts operations in the combined joint operations area to enhance partner nation capacity, promote regional stability, dissuade conflict, and protect U.S. and coalition interests. The U.S. employed MSOs and other humanitarian efforts in the region with the idea that meeting basic health and other humanitarian needs will promote stability and prevent conflict in the region.¹⁵⁹

¹⁵⁷ DoDI 6000.16.

¹⁵⁸ Michaud et al., "The U.S. Department of Defense and Global Health Policy," p. 7.

¹⁵⁹ AFRICOM, "Combined Joint Task Force - Horn of Africa," 2022, <https://www.africom.mil/our-team/combined-joint-task-force---horn-of-africa>.

Foreign Aid in the National Interest

In addition to the policy changes that expanded DoD's role in the provision of foreign assistance to countries at peace, policy changes in USAID also increased the role of national security priorities in foreign assistance giving.

The 2002 NSS was the first strategy to include development as the third pillar of U.S. national security, along with defense and diplomacy. Introducing development as the third pillar of national security speaks to the preventative approach to terrorism in the wake of the 9/11 terror attacks that the DoD policy changes summarized above responded to. Under the leadership of Secretary of State Colin Powell, the U.S. development community redefined strategic priorities to meet the intent of the strategy. As part of this effort, USAID commissioned a report titled "Foreign Aid in the National Interest." This report laid out a strategy for how USAID would employ development to support national security goals. The report stated that terrorism, political violence, civil wars, organized crime, drug trafficking, human trafficking, infectious diseases, environmental crises, refugee flows, and mass migration cascade across the borders of weak states more destructively than ever before. These activities endanger the security and well-being of all Americans and are the greatest challenge to the national interest. A conventional military force, intelligence gathering and operations, law enforcement, and diplomacy all have an important role in containing threats to U.S. security, however, they do not

address the root causes of these issues. The report posits that it is the role of development assistance to address these root causes.¹⁶⁰

The report framed six areas of development assistance, including promoting democratic governance, driving economic growth, improving people's health, mitigating conflict, providing humanitarian aid, and accounting for provided foreign aid. Of these six goals, the report identified four as key to supporting national security.

- Promoting democratic governance: promoting democratic governance must become a higher priority in U.S. foreign assistance and is vital to U.S. national security.
- Boosting economic growth: U.S. foreign assistance must grow global agriculture.
- Health and education: Diseases that cause illness and premature death must be identified and prevented and U.S. foreign assistance must offer more support for secondary education for the global marketplace.
- Preventing conflict: Preventing conflict requires long-term interventions that better enable states to manage tensions. The most important principle when designing foreign assistance programs is to apply a conflict lens to each major area of foreign assistance from agriculture to economic growth to democracy and governance—and to have each area work in concert.¹⁶¹

¹⁶⁰ "Foreign Aid in the National Interest" (Washington, DC: United States Agency for International Development, 2002).

¹⁶¹ "Foreign Aid in the National Interest."

In 2005, USAID published a new strategy titled “A New Vision for Strengthening Fragile States.” This strategy intended to build on “Foreign Aid in the National Interest” and address challenges in the post 9/11 world including the challenge that fragile states can be breeding grounds for terrorist groups. The strategy identified the ways that fragile states differ from those that are stable and able to pursue long-term development. The strategy lays out four interrelated priorities to strengthen fragile states:

- Enhance stability, addressing the sources of stress and conflict in the political, economic, and social spheres.
- Improve security, providing an environment that enhances personal safety, but also establishes the conditions under which serious outbreaks of generalized violence are averted.
- Encourage reform related to the conditions that are driving fragility and that will increase the likelihood of long-term stability.
- Develop the capacity of institutions that are fundamental to lasting recovery and transformational development.

Contribution to Securitization. This report and strategy represent an important turning point in the securitization of foreign assistance because it is the first USAID strategic document that explicitly acknowledges the role of foreign assistance in national security. As discussed in the preceding analysis of the DoD policy changes, the post 9/11 era gave way to an increased focus on preventive foreign assistance with the broad intent of preventing the spread of terrorism. “Foreign Aid in the National Interest” focuses on preventative foreign assistance, but it is the first USAID report to give explicit direction

on the national security priorities in USAID provided assistance. The four key goals laid out in the report highlight how foreign assistance should support national security. The role of democratization in national security is not new and the Clinton administration used democratization to promote national security goals, as discussed earlier in this chapter. How the strategy lays out the role of foreign assistance in each priority area is important for the securitization of foreign assistance to countries at peace because it established national security as the goal of these development assistance priorities.

Presidential Policy Directive on Global Development

In September of 2010, President Obama signed a Presidential Policy Directive on Global Development (PPD-6), the first presidential directive on global development. This directive called for the elevation of development as a core pillar of American power and laid a course for development, diplomacy, and defense to reinforce and complement one another in an integrated, comprehensive approach to national security. The actual directive was not released for public review until 2014. Like many policy directives, PPD-6 did not introduce a lot of new guidance but rather codified several earlier turning points coming from the Bush administration summarized above including the “Foreign Aid in the National Interest” report and the strategy “A New Vision for Strengthening Fragile States.”¹⁶² In the opening of the directive, President Obama stated that his administration viewed development as a strategic, economic, and moral imperative. The directive went on to outline the importance of development assistance in protecting American interests and national security, further emphasizing the importance of

¹⁶² “Presidential Policy Directive (PPD-6) U.S. Global Development Policy” (Office of the President, September 22, 2010), <https://irp.fas.org/offdocs/ppd/ppd-6.pdf>.

preventative foreign assistance as a tool to prevent future threats to U.S. national security. The directive also outlined a vision for sustainable development including the emphasis on partnerships and employing lessons learned on effective foreign assistance giving. The directive outlined the administration's key goals/objectives in foreign assistance giving including fostering the next generation of emerging markets, investing in game-changing innovations, placing greater emphasis on building sustainable capacity in the public sector, tailoring development strategies in stabilization and post-crisis situations to the context of the challenges, and holding recipients of U.S. assistance accountable for achieving development results. The directive also proposed a series of organizational changes for the administration of foreign assistance largely focused on strengthening USAID, most importantly to include a USAID representative in NSC meetings, as appropriate.¹⁶³

Of additional importance, Obama emphasized the importance of development in his 2010 NSS, stating that:

through an aggressive and affirmative development agenda and commensurate resources, we can strengthen the regional partners we need to help us stop conflict and counter global criminal networks; build a stable, inclusive global economy with new sources of prosperity; advance democracy and human rights; and ultimately position ourselves to better address key global challenges by growing the ranks of prosperous, capable and democratic states that can be our partners in the decades ahead.¹⁶⁴

PPD-6 led to additional guidance on foreign assistance including the USAID Policy Framework 2011-2015 that laid out how USAID would apply the principles from

¹⁶³ "Presidential Policy Directive (PPD-6) U.S. Global Development Policy."

¹⁶⁴ "National Security Strategy of the United States of America" (Washington, DC: Department of Defense, May 2010), <https://history.defense.gov/Historical-Sources/National-Security-Strategy/>, p. 18.

PPD-6. This framework further emphasized USAID’s role in preventative foreign assistance and the importance of foreign assistance in national security.¹⁶⁵

Contribution to Securitization. PPD-6 is an important turning point in the securitization of foreign assistance to countries at peace because it codified in policy the role of foreign assistance to promote U.S. national security and prevent conflict. Further, by including USAID in the NSC, the directive highlights how the administration viewed the importance of foreign assistance to national security.

CONCLUSION

Combined, these post WWII foundations of securitization and post 9/11 institutionalization of securitization turning points set the stage for the securitization of foreign assistance because they helped create the institutional imbalance and set precedent for DoD’s role in foreign assistance and foreign assistance continuing to be a tool of national security.

The following graphic summarizes all the key turning points covered in this chapter and how they impacted the securitization of foreign assistance.

¹⁶⁵ “USAID Policy Framework 2011-2015” (Washington, DC: United States Agency for International Development, 2011), <https://www.usaid.gov/sites/default/files/documents/1870/USAID%20Policy%20Framework%202011-2015.PDF>.

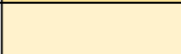
Year	Change	Impact Areas	Level of Impact	Impact on Securitization	
Post WWII Foundations of Securitization				Expansion of DoD's power as an organization	
1961	Foreign Assistance Act of 1961	 		Expansion of DoD responsibilities in foreign assistance	
1961-1968	The McNamara Reorganization of DoD			Increasing security priorities in foreign assistance	
1986	Goldwater-Nichols	 		Level of Impact	
1990-2000	Expansion of Noncombatant Military Tasks and Democracy Promotion	 		High	
Post 9/11 Institutionalization of Securitization				Medium	
2005	Department of Defense Directive 3000.5			Low	
2008	Department of Defense Instruction 2205.02				
2010	Department of Defense Instruction 6000.16				
2002	Foreign Aid in the National Interest				
2010	Presidential Policy Directive on Global Development				

Figure 1: Key Policy Turning Points and their Impact on Securitization

The goal of this chapter was to identify the specific organizational and policy changes that enabled securitization. The analysis focused on both those turning points that allowed the DoD to be a larger and more powerful organization and thereby have a more significant role in foreign assistance giving, and the policy changes that directly impacted the securitization of foreign assistance to countries at peace. The next chapter of this dissertation looks at the key drivers of the securitization of foreign assistance including the institutional disparity between DoD and State, the role of the president versus Congress, and the geographic combatant commanders. These drivers of securitization likely set the stage for the key turning points that directly shaped securitization.

CHAPTER FOUR

INTRODUCTION

The goal of this chapter is to measure the securitization of United States foreign assistance to understand whether the Department of Defense (DoD) increasingly gives foreign assistance to countries at peace post World War II, and whether national security priorities direct foreign assistance to countries at peace. This chapter also examines whether DoD's role in the provision of foreign assistance and the role of security priorities in directing foreign assistance increased after 9/11.

This chapter uses the “Foreign Aid Explorer: the official record of U.S. foreign aid” to first explore whether DoD foreign assistance giving has changed over the six decades following WWII. This dataset is from the United States Agency for International Development (USAID) and tracks all U.S. foreign assistance spending by country, agency, year, and program type from 1947 to the present. Spending from USAID goes back to 1949, although the agency did not exist then and State spending only began to be tracked in 1963 even though the department is far older. The reason the data set captures the data this way is that many of these State programs were moved under USAID when it was established. Further, this analysis looks at foreign assistance obligations. The focus is on obligations largely because this data set does not track disbursements before 2001 (see data and methods appendix for additional details).

The analysis uses the same foreign assistance dataset to examine how security priorities drive U.S. foreign assistance. This analysis tests whether U.S. foreign assistance giving increases when there is a perceived security threat for a given country. For this analysis, foreign assistance is the dependent variable, and the primary independent variable is a binary measure of whether a country is susceptible to communism or whether there was a terrorist attack in that year. This analysis also includes a variety of controls for traditional determinants of foreign assistance giving including infant mortality, gross domestic product (GDP), level of democracy, and occurrence of natural disasters (see data and methods appendix for additional details).

DOD’S ROLE IN FOREIGN ASSISTANCE

The analysis in the figure below illustrates that from 1955 until 2000 total foreign assistance obligations to all countries the U.S. gives assistance to remained relatively stable with some ups and downs year-to-year across the departments, with USAID and State significantly outspending DoD. However, in 1974 DoD spending briefly exceeded USAID and State combined spending by around five billion but dropped down again by the following year. Beginning in the 2000s, DoD’s foreign assistance obligations began to increase again. Although it never exceeded State and USAID, DoD spending came close in 2003 and again in 2007. The wars in Iraq and Afghanistan and the related assistance that DoD provided drove this increased spending.

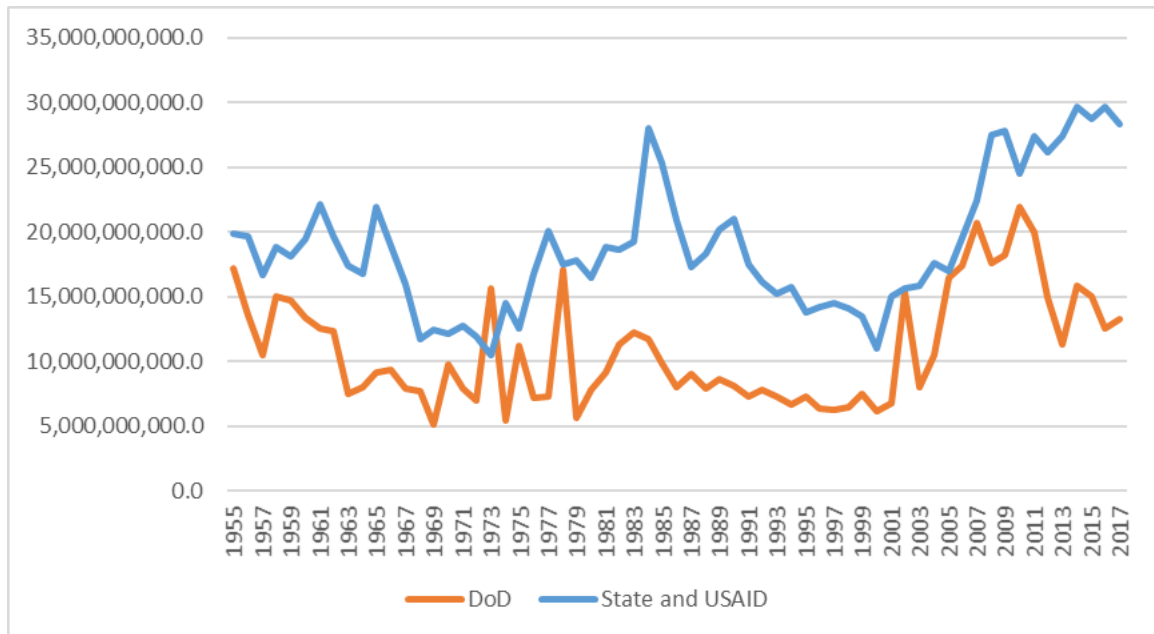


Figure 2: Total Spending on Foreign Assistance 1955 – 2018

The following figure uses the same data but drops out foreign assistance to countries that the U.S. military was involved in active conflict with to focus on countries at peace. To determine U.S. military involvement, the analysis used the correlates of war dataset that tracks all military engagement around the world from 1816 to 2010 to find every country the U.S. military was involved in at a range of conflict levels from no militarized action to war from 1949 to 2010. The analysis only includes countries with U.S. military engagement that involved the use of force or war. Because this data set had some gaps and only went through 2010, the analysis combined this data with a Congressional Research Service report that details all major military conflicts with U.S.

engagement.¹⁶⁶ The analysis then matched this with the existing data on foreign assistance by country-year, dropping each country that the U.S. was engaged in active military conflict in for that year. As expected, the analysis shown below finds that DoD has a smaller role in foreign assistance obligations to countries at peace. Overall, DoD spending does not exceed combined USAID and State spending except in 1974, following a similar trend to total spending. DoD came close again in 2003 when DoD spending to countries at peace was only 200 million below State and USAID combined spending. Overall, the post 9/11 changes in spending to countries at peace was much less dramatic than it was for total assistance spending.

¹⁶⁶ “U.S. Periods of War and Dates of Recent Conflicts” (Washington, DC: Congressional Research Service, June 5, 2020), <https://sgp.fas.org/crs/natsec/RS21405.pdf> and “Correlates of War Data, 1816 - 2007 (v4.0)” (The Correlates of War Project, 2007), <http://www.correlatesofwar.org/data-sets>.

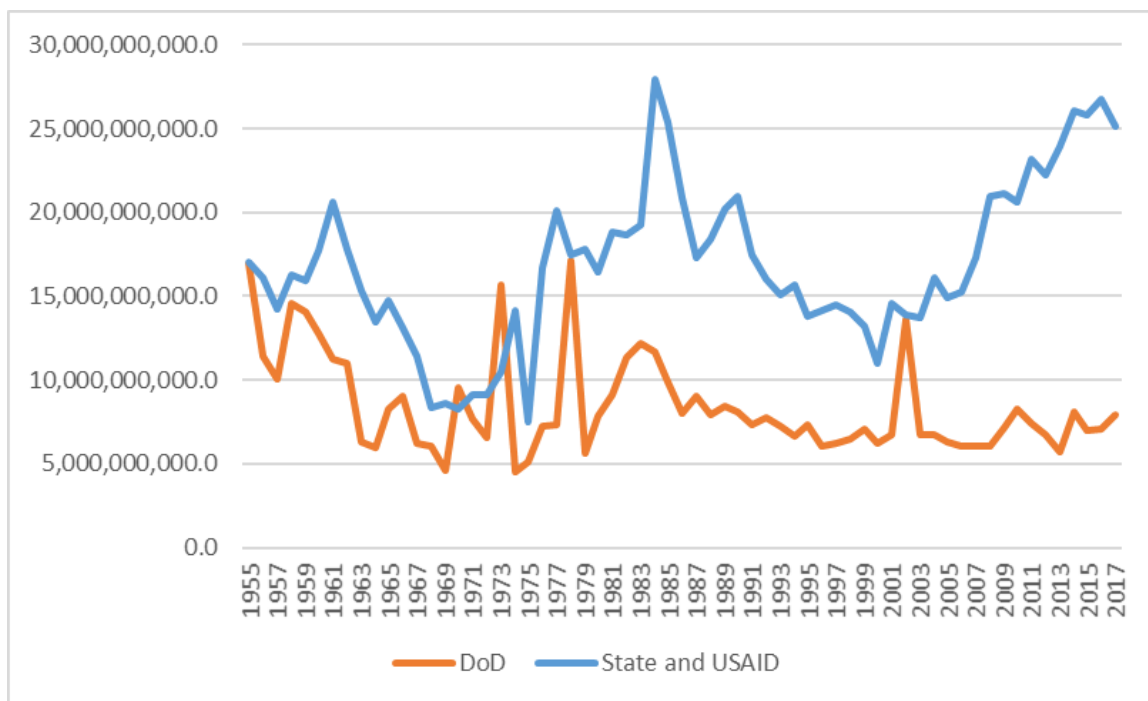


Figure 3: Total Spending on Foreign Assistance to Countries at Peace 1955 – 2018

This analysis demonstrates that DoD spending has at times exceeded State and USAID both in the mid-1970s and came close in the early 2000s. Removing countries that the U.S. had active military conflicts in renders these trends much less dramatic, particularly for the post 9/11 era.

Another way to view DoD foreign assistance obligations is to examine how it compares to the total DoD budget over time. The following graphic shows DoD foreign assistance obligations as a percent of the total DoD budget. This graphic indicates that overall, as a percent of the total DoD budget, DoD foreign assistance obligations have not increased but rather have declined since the 1970s. It should be noted that foreign assistance obligations were a relatively large percent of the total DoD budget in 1979 at 13 percent due to an increase in DoD assistant to Israel and Egypt in that year. Further,

the total DoD budget has grown significantly starting in the early 2000s and, while assistance obligations increased during this time, it was a relatively small increase compared to the overall DoD budget. In 1977 the difference between the DoD budget and DoD foreign assistance obligations was about 100 billion and in 2018 it was about 650 billion. This does not support the idea that DoD has a growing role in foreign assistance spending at large, although they may have an expanded role in some areas of foreign assistance as the following analysis indicates.

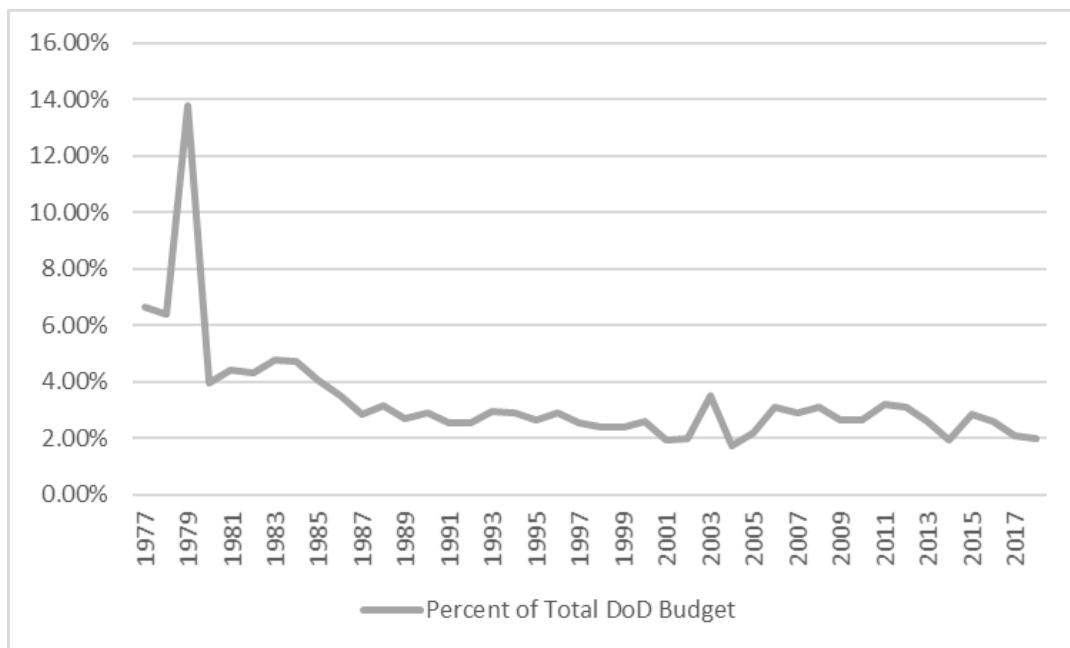


Figure 4: DoD Foreign Assistance Obligations as a Percent of the Total DoD Budget

There are more precise ways to measure DoD assistance to countries at peace than looking at total foreign assistance spending. DoDI 2205.02 codified DoD's role in Humanitarian and Civic Assistance (HCA) activities. HCA activities include relief and

development activities that take place as part of overseas military exercises, training, or operations. The U.S. military primarily conducts exercises and training operations in countries at peace. Tracking spending on HCA activities and programs is one way to examine at the changes in DoD-provided foreign assistance to countries at peace. It is difficult to capture exact spending on these programs because their scope has changed over time. However, 10 U.S.C. Section 401 requires that DoD submit an annual report on HCA activities that includes the total costs and number of projects in the fiscal year. Sections of these reports are classified and are thus not publicly available but the Congressional Research Service tracks information on the cost and number of programs from 1993 to 2007. This is not a long time span but it is an important one because it includes both pre and post-9/11 years. The following figure examines the trends in both spending on HCA programs (in constant 2007 dollars) and the number of programs from 1993 to 2007. For both spending and the number of programs, there were significant increases after 2004. This largely fits with the overall trends in DoD foreign assistance spending that increased after 2004 raising through 2018. This data shows that foreign assistance provided through HCA activities has increased post 9/11. However, given the limited time span of this data, this analysis cannot look at how this post 9/11 increase compares to HCA spending trends since WWII.

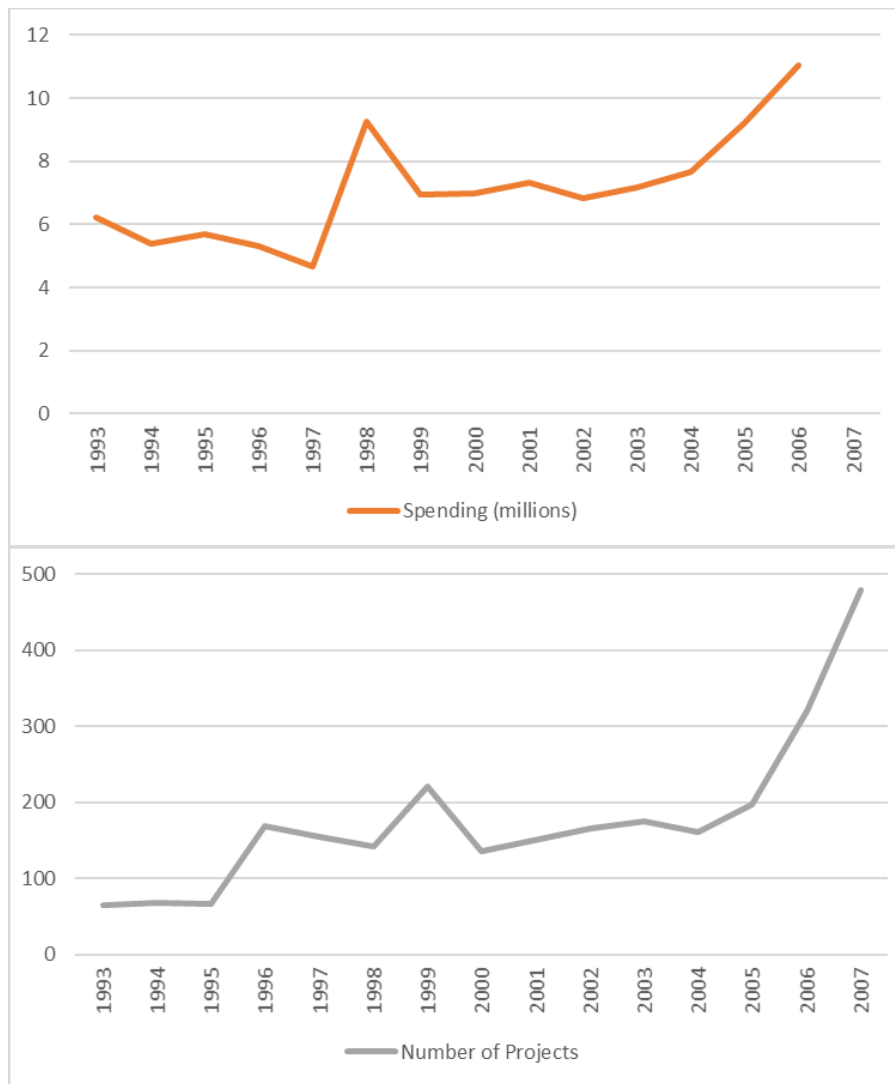


Figure 5: DoD HCA Spending and Programs Total 1993 – 2007

Another way to examine DoD preventative foreign assistance to countries at peace is to analyze DoD's role in health assistance. As mentioned in the literature review chapter, one example of DoD's increased role in preventative foreign assistance to countries at peace is preventative global health assistance. In recent decades DoD has linked global health to defense objectives. Part of the reason behind this shift is the

realization that global health issues can affect U.S. national security.¹⁶⁷ DoD also conducts a wide range of activities in preventative health assistance including medical stability operations and partnership engagement intended to contribute to greater stability and lessen conflict in the receiving nation. These activities occur in countries in active conflict with the U.S. as well as in countries at peace as a preventive measure.¹⁶⁸ Prior to 2000 DoD did not have a separate foreign assistance funding category for health assistance, although they did provide some level of health assistance as part of other operations including disaster relief and stabilization. As demonstrated in the following figure, DoD's health assistance activities to countries at peace have grown since the early 2000s with a significant spike in 2011. Increased spending on the DoD HIV/AIDS program and the emerging infections disease prevention program likely drove this increase. Again, the limited time span of this data makes it impossible to see how this change compares to overall post WWII spending trends.

¹⁶⁷ Michaud et al., "The U.S. Department of Defense and Global Health Policy," p. 7.

¹⁶⁸ Michaud et al., "The U.S. Department of Defense and Global Health Policy," p. 24.

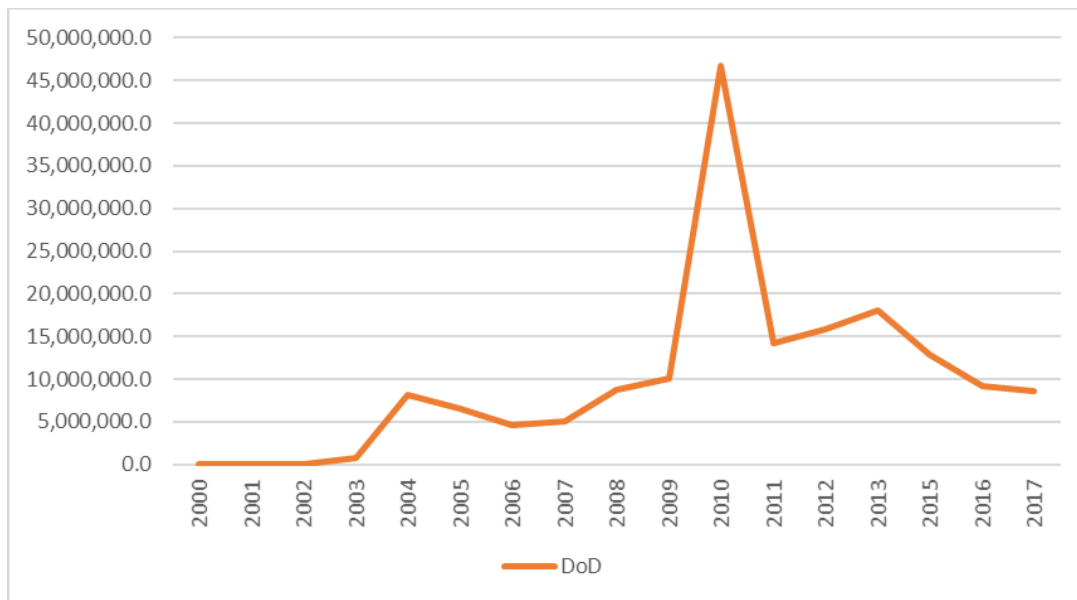


Figure 6: DoD Health Assistance Spending 2000 – 2018

NATIONAL SECURITY PRIORITIES AND FOREIGN ASSISTANCE GIVING

The first NSS published in 1987 highlighted foreign assistance as a tool to fight the spread of communism, an inherently national security-focused goal. In the 1987 NSS, President Reagan discussed the importance of using security and development assistance to avoid direct military involvement, arguing that it is in the U.S. national interest to support the efforts of friendly developing countries to provide for the basic needs of their citizenry.¹⁶⁹ Further, in this strategy Reagan called to Congress for increased foreign assistance funding, positing that it is money well spent for U.S. national security.¹⁷⁰

Subsequent NSSs continued to highlight the importance of foreign assistance to U.S. national security. There was a marked increase in the role of foreign assistance in the 1993 NSS. This strategy was the first following the fall of the Soviet Union and noted

¹⁶⁹ “National Security Strategy of the United States,” 1987, p. 8.

¹⁷⁰ “National Security Strategy of the United States,” 1987, p. 37.

the U.S.'s pivoting priorities. This strategy stated that in the absence of great power competition the U.S. is free to focus on other national security concerns. The 1993 strategy also included an emphasis on foreign assistance for democratization with the notion that spreading democracy would make the world more stable because democratic governments will be less likely to be unstable and pose a risk to U.S. national security.¹⁷¹

The role of democratization in national security continued to be a focus in President Clinton's NSSs. During the Clinton years, the strategy also introduced the importance of health assistance to national security. The 1999 NSS highlighted for the first time the value of foreign assistance directed at preventing HIV/AIDS, stating that health problems can compromise U.S. national security, economic, and humanitarian interests abroad for generations. More specifically, international epidemics, such as polio, tuberculosis, and HIV/AIDS could destroy human life on a scale as great as any war or terrorist act, and the resulting burden on health systems can undermine hard-won advances in economic and social development and contribute to the failure of fledgling democracies.¹⁷² Following the terrorist attacks of 9/11, the NSS focused heavily on preventing terrorism. The 2002 strategy highlighted the use of foreign assistance to prevent the proliferation of terrorism and radicalized groups.¹⁷³

One can draw the link between national security priorities and foreign assistance giving on a very simplistic level. From 1950 to 2018 top recipients of U.S. foreign assistance track closely with national security priorities. The following figure traces the

¹⁷¹ National Security Strategy 1987-2010.

¹⁷² "A National Security Strategy for a New Century," 1999, p. 3.

¹⁷³ "The National Security Strategy of the United States of America," 2002, pp. 4-5.

top recipients of U.S. foreign assistance at the beginning of each decade from 1950 to 2018. In 1950, the top recipient of U.S. foreign assistance was France, followed by the United Kingdom, Italy, Netherlands, Belgium, and Germany. U.S. foreign assistance to France was in the form of military assistance to France and the Associated States of Indochina as part of the Indochina War. The rationale for this assistance was that the Soviet-controlled expansion of communism both in Asia and in Europe required, in the interests of U.S. national security, a counter in Indochina.¹⁷⁴ Assistance to the United Kingdom, Italy, Netherlands, Belgium, and Germany largely reflected U.S. assistance for rebuilding in the wake of WWII. In 1960, the top recipient was South Korea (top recipient from 1955- early 1960s) followed by Taiwan and South Vietnam. South Korea was a top recipient due to U.S. assistance in the aftermath of the Korean War that ended in 1953 and Vietnam was a top recipient due to the ongoing Vietnam War. In 1970, the top two recipients were South Vietnam and Taiwan followed by India and Turkey. Vietnam continued to be a top recipient due to the war then the assistance provided in the aftermath of the Vietnam War and Taiwan because of the support they provided in the Vietnam War to the U.S. and South Vietnam as anti-communist Asian nations fighting against rival communist regimes. In 1980, Israel and Egypt became the top two recipients followed by Turkey and Jordan. Israel and Egypt continued to be the top recipients throughout the 1990s because the U.S. viewed their support as key to stability in the Middle East. There were also domestic political considerations that influenced assistance to Israel. Further, in some circumstances U.S. assistance to Israel may have worked

¹⁷⁴ *The Pentagon Papers*, Gravel Edition, vol. 1 (Boston: Beacon Press, 1971), <https://www.mtholyoke.edu/acad/intrel/pentagon/pent9.htm>.

against our national security because U.S. assistance to Israel has contributed to tensions with other countries in the region. Several countries were in third and fourth place, Russia was a top-three recipient in line with providing assistance in the aftermath of the collapse of the Soviet Union in 1991. In the early 2000s Israel and Egypt continued to be the top receipts, however, by the end of the decade, Iraq and Afghanistan were the top recipients, as would be expected with the ongoing conflicts.

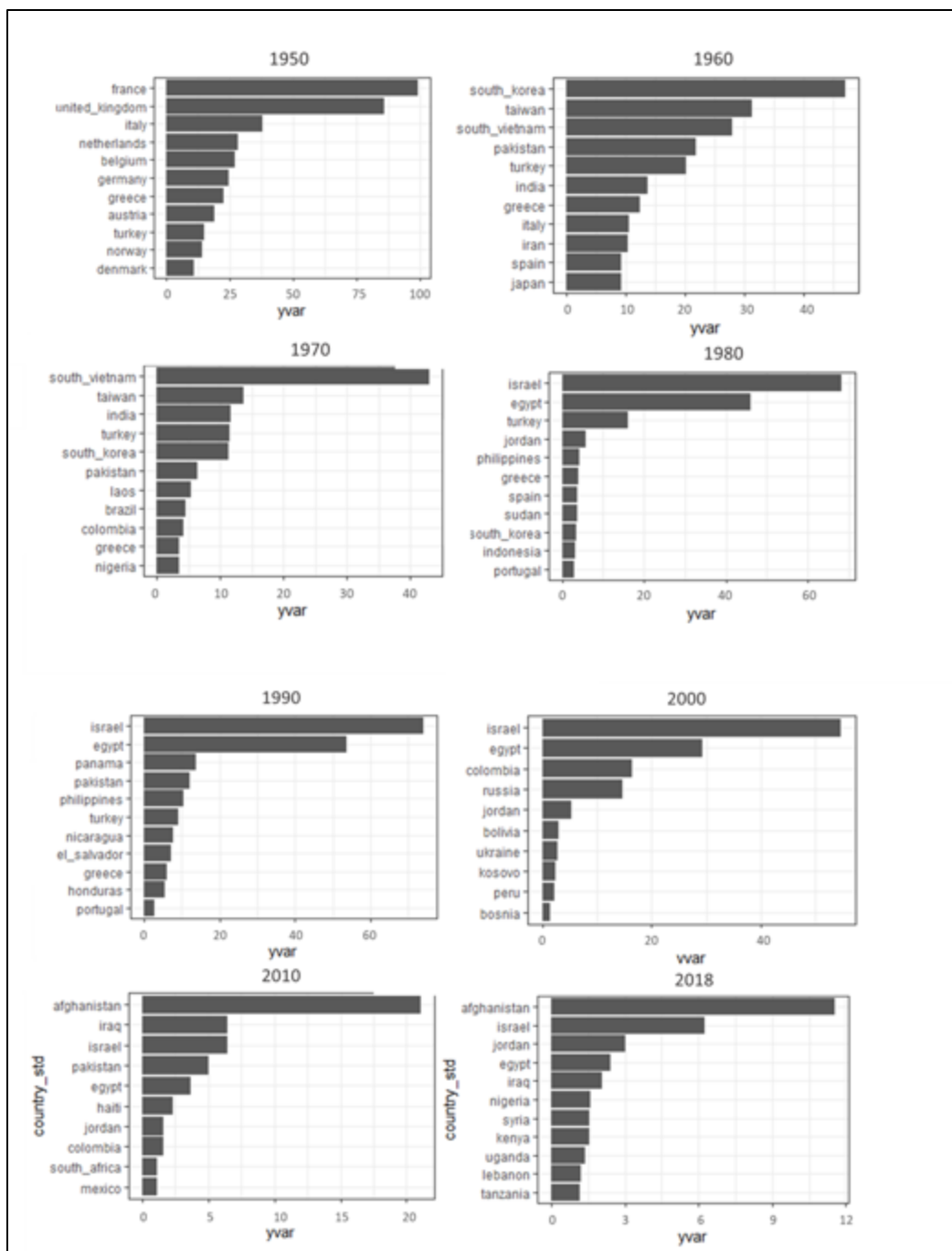


Figure 7: Top Recipients of U.S. Foreign Assistance by Decade

This cursory analysis reveals that the top recipients of foreign assistance largely align with U.S. national security interests. However, this is a limited analysis and does not control for other factors that influence foreign assistance giving.

As discussed in the literature review chapter, several key studies find that the strategic interests of donor countries influence where and for what purposes they give foreign assistance. Alberto Alesina and David Dollar find that the U.S. gives foreign assistance more heavily to countries in the Middle East; the authors posit that the U.S.'s considerable strategic interests in the region drive this. A study by Melita Lazell and Ivica Petrikova finds that states that are of strategic interest to the donor country receive more assistance.¹⁷⁵ Cooper Drury, Richard Stuart Olson, and Douglas Van Belle find that the level of disaster relief assistance provided by the U.S. positively correlates to the recipient country's alliance ties to the U.S., level of democracy, and low GDP.¹⁷⁶ The analysis in this section builds on these studies to understand in more detail how national security concerns may drive U.S. foreign assistance giving over time.

This dissertation focuses on U.S. foreign assistance spending and used the USAID official development assistance dataset that tracks all U.S. foreign assistance spending by agency, country, year, and program as the dependent variable. Many existing studies on why countries give foreign assistance use the Organization for Economic Co-operation and Development data on foreign assistance by country. The USAID dataset has several advantages principally that it is on the agency and program level and focuses exclusively on the U.S.

¹⁷⁵ Lasell and Petrikova "Is Development Aid Securitized?," pp. 232-343.

¹⁷⁶ Drury, et al., "The Politics of Humanitarian Aid," pp. 454-473.

To measure national security interests this dissertation used data from the RAND Corporation on incidents of terrorist attacks by country from 1991 to 2018 to determine whether countries with incidents of terrorism received more foreign assistance. To help understand how foreign assistance for national security interests may have changed over time, the analysis examines how countries the Central Intelligence Agency (CIA) considered posing a threat of becoming communist or by having communist leanings between 1946 and 1991 impacted foreign assistance spending. This dissertation gathered this data from recently declassified CIA reports. The analysis uses terrorism and the threat of communism as indicators of U.S. national security interests because the U.S. NSSs since 1987 have consistently focused on these two key threats; first communism before the fall of the Soviet Union, and then weak and failing states being a breeding ground for terrorist organizations in the 1990s with increased emphasis on this following the terror attacks of 9/11. No other studies use these variables as a proxy for national security interests.

For control variables, similar to existing studies, this analysis used the level of democracy in the host country as studies have shown that the U.S. gives greater assistance to countries that are fellow democracies; GDP since lower GDP can correlate with greater foreign assistance need; infant mortality because it can also tie to increased assistance; incidence of natural disaster to control for countries that may already be

receiving U.S. assistance due to a natural disaster; and countries at war to make sure this analysis only includes countries that the U.S. is not in active conflict with.¹⁷⁷

The results of this country year fixed effects regression captured below show that there is a positive relationship between a country having incidents of terrorism or threat of communism and increased U.S. foreign assistance giving. More specifically, the results for the relationship between incidents of terrorism and the threat of communism show a significant increase in U.S. foreign assistance giving when a country has experienced an incident of terrorism in that year or was considered susceptible to the threat of communism as defined by CIA reports. For the two key independent variables, the relationship is statistically significant. This analysis reveals that the two significant indicators of national security interest, incidents of terrorism and the threat of communism do drive U.S. foreign assistance spending. Of additional interest, countries are significantly more likely to receive foreign assistance if they have active U.S. military engagement, which supports analysis earlier in this chapter.

This analysis does not support the idea that national security priorities increasingly drive foreign assistance giving since 9/11. This analysis is not conclusive since an incident of terrorism is not a perfect measure of whether U.S. national security leadership may see a country as a threat for becoming a breeding ground for terrorist institutions. Scholarship indicates that countries that serve as breeding grounds for terrorist organizations often do have a greater number of small incidences of terrorism

¹⁷⁷ Drury, et al., “The Politics of Humanitarian Aid,” pp. 454-473 and Lasell and Petrikova “Is Development Aid Securitized?,” pp. 232-343.

internally but incidents of terrorism also occur in other countries that do not host terrorist organizations.

Table 1: Regression Results: Relationship between National Security Priorities and Foreign Assistance Spending

	Coefficient
Incidents of Terrorism:	0.5766***
Threat of Communism:	14.03***
At War:	4.75***
Natural Disaster:	0.1441
GDP:	-1.18***
Democracy:	-.21
Infant Mortality:	-.006
N:	6,802
Residual Standard Error:	4.11
Adjusted R-squared:	.6643
F-statistic	58.53
***p < .01; **p < .05; *p < .1	

CONCLUSION

Overall, this analysis finds that for total foreign assistance spending there is not a sustained increase in DoD spending that outpaces State and USAID since WWII.

Although DoD spending did increase in the mid-1970s and again post 9/11 it decreased again. Removing countries that the U.S. had active military conflicts in overtime does not make this trend disappear but renders it less dramatic. This trend was not as significant as expected given the numerous increases in DoD authorities to provide preventative assistance to countries at peace mentioned in chapter 3. This analysis indicates that State and USAID provide the majority of foreign assistance, and for DoD provided assistance, DoD provides most of the foreign assistance, as measured by obligations, to countries engaged in active conflict with the U.S. Further, DoD foreign assistance obligations as a percent of the total DoD budget has not increased. Looking specifically at HCA activities and health assistance, this data shows that foreign assistance provided through HCA activities and health assistance has increased post 9/11 but the data does not go far enough back to examine the changes in HCA spending since WWII. Since HCA activities and health assistance are a significant means through which DoD provides preventative foreign assistance to countries at peace this does indicate that at least by one measure, DoD assistance to countries at peace has increased post 9/11. For the analysis of how national security priorities direct foreign assistance, the results demonstrated that there is a positive relationship between a country having incidents of terrorism or threat of communism and increased U.S. foreign assistance giving while controlling for traditional determinants of foreign assistance giving (natural disasters, GDP, democracy, and infant mortality), however, this analysis does not address a post-9/11 change.

Broadly this analysis supports the idea that securitization is occurring in that DoD has a role in the provision of foreign assistance but this role has not significantly

increased as measured by total foreign assistance. Additionally, since WWII security priorities appear to drive foreign assistance giving.

CHAPTER FIVE

INTRODUCTION

This chapter is an exploratory analysis of the key drivers of the securitization of foreign assistance to attempt to better understand the applicability of the key drivers raised in the larger literature on the securitization of foreign policy to the securitization of foreign assistance. This analysis uses the existing literature summarized in chapter 2 to frame the key drivers of securitization (the institutional imbalance between the Department of Defense (DoD) and the Department of State (State), the president and Congress, and the geographic combatant commands) and then utilizes subject matter expert interviews to validate and expand on these key drivers. This analysis also relies on a range of additional sources to develop upon concepts raised in the interviews.

Generally, subject matter expert interviewees identified the same key drivers suggested in the existing literature. All interviewees unprompted highlighted the role of the institutional imbalance between DoD and State, in many cases suggesting that it was the largest driver of the securitization of foreign assistance. Interviewees also highlighted the role of the post 9/11 foreign policy context, noting that the nature of the war on terror resulted in DoD's expanded role in foreign assistance and the U.S. using assistance for national security priorities, something that is touched on in existing literature but this chapter does not explore in detail. Interviewees also provided some support and

additional insight on the roles of the president and Congress, and the geographic combatant commands in securitization, although they generally viewed these roles as less significant than the institutional imbalance.¹⁷⁸

This research selected subject matter experts for their extensive experience in the foreign policy bureaucracy and included retired military officers at the O6 level, State Department civilians, National Security Council staff, and individuals who worked in the Office of Management and Budget (OMB). All interviewees were deeply familiar with foreign assistance programs and how they have changed. Although this analysis relies on interviews with a limited group of subject matter experts, these individuals frequently raised experiences that existing scholarship supports. Further, these interviewees had unique expertise that enabled them to directly observe many factors that likely contributed to the securitization of foreign assistance (see data and methods appendix for further details on subject matter expert interviews).

The analysis in this chapter differs from the key turning points analysis in chapter 3 in that the key turning points analysis focused on the policy and organizational changes that shaped the securitization of foreign assistance. This chapter is an attempt to step back to understand the broader context that shaped securitization and likely influenced the policy changes that shaped securitization, including DoDD 3000.5, DoDI 2205.02, DoDI

¹⁷⁸ Senior Defense Researcher on Security Cooperation, Dissertation Interview 1, Phone, August 4, 2021, Retired Military Officer Familiar with Humanitarian Assistance Disaster Relief in SOUTHCOM, Dissertation Interview 2, Phone, August 5, 2021, Retired Military Officer Familiar with PRTs in Afghanistan, Dissertation Interview 3, Phone, August 26, 2021, Retired Office of Management and Budget Senior Official with Expertise on the Defense Budget, Dissertation Interview 4, Phone, October 18, 2021, Former Department of State Official with Counterterrorism Expertise, Dissertation Interview 5, Phone, October 29, 2021, and Retired Office of Management and Budget Senior Official with Expertise on the International Affairs Budget, Dissertation Interview 6, Phone, November 3, 2021.

6000.16, 2010, and changes to the United States Agency for International Development (USAID) policies including the “Foreign Aid in the National Interest” report and the Presidential Policy Directive on Global Development.

THE INSTITUTIONAL IMBALANCE BETWEEN DOD AND STATE

As mentioned in chapter 2, the institutional imbalance between DoD and State and by extension USAID is likely a key driver of the securitization of foreign policy more broadly and thus foreign assistance. The institutional imbalance means DoD has significantly more resources in budget and personnel than State that enable them to take on a larger role in foreign assistance by their own choice, necessity, or outside pressure. Further, there are several organizational factors including congressional support and the institutional cultures of State and DoD regarding planning that increased the imbalance.¹⁷⁹

In the interviews conducted for this dissertation, interviewees across DoD, State, and OMB brought up the institutional imbalance between DoD and State and how it fed securitization. Interviewees mentioned the institutional imbalance both in DoD’s increased role in providing foreign assistance and driving security priorities in U.S. foreign assistance giving.¹⁸⁰ It is not surprising that DoD would be a significantly larger

¹⁷⁹ Senior Defense Researcher on Security Cooperation, Dissertation Interview 1, Retired Military Officer Familiar with Humanitarian Assistance Disaster Relief in SOUTHCOM, Dissertation Interview 2, Retired Military Officer Familiar with PRTs in Afghanistan, Dissertation Interview 3, Retired Office of Management and Budget Senior Official with Expertise on the Defense Budget, Dissertation Interview 4, Former Department of State Official with Counterterrorism Expertise, Dissertation Interview 5, and Retired Office of Management and Budget Senior Official with Expertise on the International Affairs Budget, Dissertation Interview 6.

¹⁸⁰ Senior Defense Researcher on Security Cooperation, Dissertation Interview 1, Retired Military Officer Familiar with Humanitarian Assistance Disaster Relief in SOUTHCOM, Dissertation Interview 2, Retired Military Officer Familiar with PRTs in Afghanistan, Dissertation Interview 3, Retired Office of Management and Budget Senior Official with Expertise on the Defense Budget, Dissertation Interview 4,

organization because the military mission by nature requires more manpower and equipment that incur resource-intensive logistics and support networks. This aside, the disparity is still striking and has expanded outside traditional military functions.

The origins of the institutional imbalance between DoD and State are rooted in the formation of a unified DoD after World War II and the retention of a large military and military-industrial complex that created an institutional competitor for State. The National Security Act of 1947, the Truman Doctrine (1947), the White House Policy Memorandum NCS-68 (1950), and the Korean War (1950-53) all set the foundation for DoD to become a larger and more powerful organization than State.¹⁸¹ The post WWII foundations of securitization mentioned in the previous chapter including the McNamara internal reorganization of DoD, Goldwater-Nichols, and the expansion of noncombatant military tasks in the 1990s all allowed DoD to become a larger and more powerful organization in the foreign policy space, deepening the institutional imbalance. Additional factors that continue to enable the imbalance include DoD's more robust constituency and networks with Congress, and different organizational cultures regarding planning. There are several reflections of the institutional imbalance between DoD and State including the disparate size of the budgets and personnel numbers. Perhaps most striking is the budget disparity. This imbalance also affects USAID, however, much of this analysis focuses on the imbalance between DoD and State as these are the older and larger U.S. foreign policy institutions.

Former Department of State Official with Counterterrorism Expertise, Dissertation Interview 5, and Retired Office of Management and Budget Senior Official with Expertise on the International Affairs Budget, Dissertation Interview 6.

¹⁸¹ Adams and Murray, eds., *Mission Creep*, p. 7 and Schake, *State of Disrepair*, p. 25.

The following analysis includes two main sections. The first section examines the size and scope of the two primary indicators of the institutional imbalance between DoD and State, the budget and personnel disparities, and their potential implications for securitization. The subsequent section analyses the organizational factors including the different networks and constituencies, and organizational cultures in regards to planning and their possible impacts on securitization. This dissertation selected these indicators of the institutional imbalance based on existing literature that cites these as reflections of the institutional imbalance. Many subject matter experts also raised and provided additional support for these factors in interviews.¹⁸²

Institutional Disparity Size and Scope

Budget Disparity. There has been a significant budget disparity between State and DoD for decades and the discrepancy has grown since the early 2000s. In FY 1977, the budget difference between DoD and State was \$94.2 billion and in FY 2018, the difference was \$641.7 billion. Beginning in 2001, DoD's budget began to grow at a faster rate compared to past rates and relative to State's growth rate due to the wars in Iraq and Afghanistan. State's budget also began to increase more rapidly at this time, although not nearly as quickly as DoD's, due to some involvement in reconstruction activities in Iraq and Afghanistan. The figure below illustrates this budget disparity graphically in constant 2017 U.S. dollars.

¹⁸² Senior Defense Researcher on Security Cooperation, Dissertation Interview 1, Retired Military Officer Familiar with Humanitarian Assistance Disaster Relief in SOUTHCOM, Dissertation Interview 2, Retired Military Officer Familiar with PRTs in Afghanistan, Dissertation Interview 3, Former Department of State Official with Counterterrorism Expertise, Dissertation Interview 5.

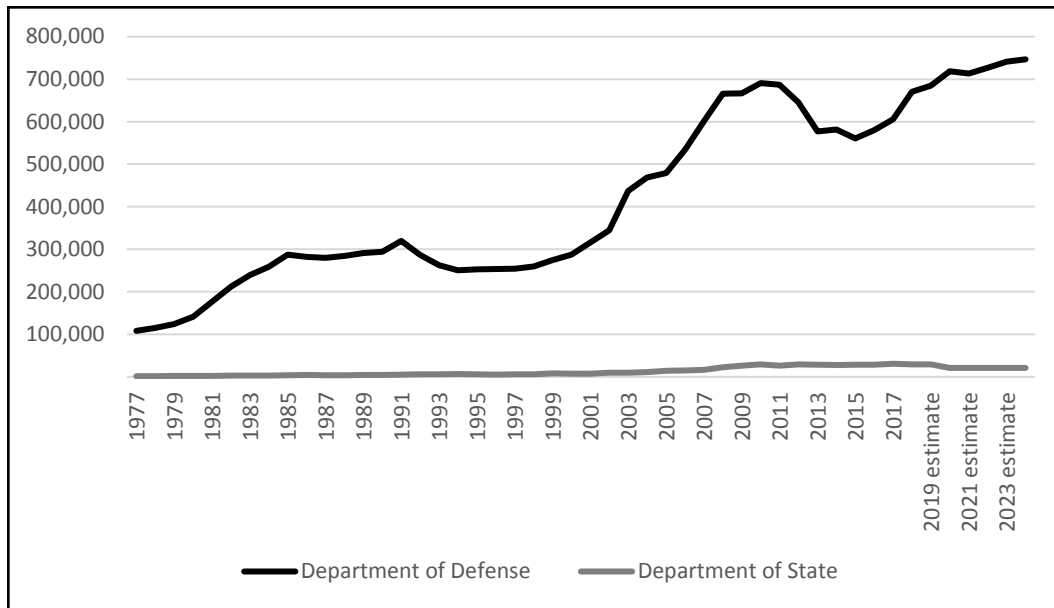


Figure 8: DoD and State Budget Authority FY 1976 – 2023 (in millions of dollars)

A retired senior OMB official noted that the disparity between DoD and the civilian foreign policy institutions is not just about the differences in funding amounts but also that DoD generally has more flexible funding.¹⁸³ The largest and perhaps most influential of these was the Overseas Contingency Operations (OCO) funding. OCO was a separate fund provided largely to DoD in addition to their "base" budgets (i.e., their regular peacetime budget). Following the terrorist attacks of 9/11, Congress appropriated \$2 trillion in discretionary budget authority designated as emergency requirements for OCO/Global War on Terrorism (GWOT) in broad support of the U.S. response to 9/11 and other related international affairs activities. This figure amounts to 9.5 percent of total discretionary spending during this period. Although originally used to finance the wars in Iraq and Afghanistan, OCO quickly expanded to fund many other activities

¹⁸³ Retired Office of Management and Budget Senior Official with Expertise on the International Affairs Budget, Dissertation Interview 6.

including some preventative foreign assistance in countries with no active conflicts principally to prevent the spread of terrorism. Of that total, \$1.8 trillion in war-related appropriations from FY 2001 through FY 2019, DoD categorized \$235 billion (13 percent) as “other than war funds.” A key benefit of OCO funds was its effective exemption from the discretionary spending limits established by the Budget Control Act (BCA) of 2011 and thus it was not subject to sequestration that cut every other part of the federal budget starting in 2013. Further, OCO funding had little congressional oversight.¹⁸⁴

Of the \$2 trillion appropriated in discretionary budget authority designated for OCO/GWOT this total included \$1.8 trillion for DoD, \$162 billion for State and USAID, and \$3 billion for the Department of Homeland Security (DHS) and the Coast Guard. The figure below gives the OCO/GWOT by agency and year from 2001 to 2017.¹⁸⁵ From this graphic, it is clear just how much more OCO funding DoD received.

¹⁸⁴ Brendan W. McGarry and Emily M. Morgenstern, “Overseas Contingency Operations Funding: Background and Status” (Washington, DC: Government Accountability Office, September 6, 2019), <https://sgp.fas.org/crs/natsec/R44519.pdf>.

¹⁸⁵ McGarry and Morgenstern, “Overseas Contingency Operations Funding.”

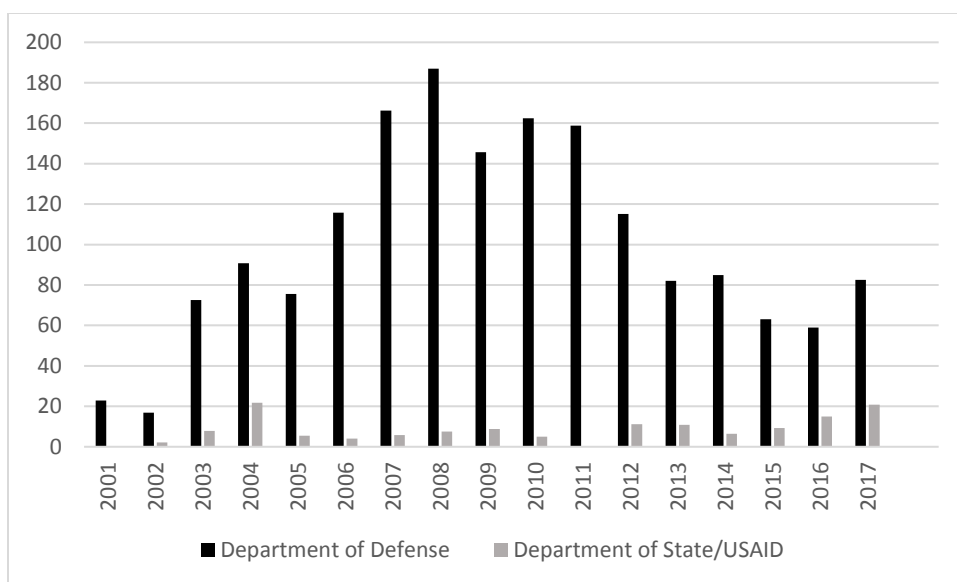


Figure 9: OCO/GWOT Appropriations FY 2001 – 2017 (in billions of dollars)

Although DoD received the majority of allocated OCO funding, State and USAID began receiving a formal request for OCO/GWOT funding in FY 2012. State and USAID did receive funding prior 2012 but this was for limited usage and requests went through DoD. This new OCO funding distinguished between enduring, ongoing, or base costs versus any extraordinary temporary costs of State and USAID in supporting ongoing U.S. operations and policies in Iraq, Afghanistan, and Pakistan. The first foreign affairs OCO/GWOT appropriation in FY 2012 provided funds for a wide range of recipient countries including Yemen, Somalia, Kenya, and the Philippines largely because these countries were potential breeding grounds for terrorist organizations. In addition to country-specific uses, appropriations also included OCO/GWOT-designated funds for the Global Security Contingency Fund.¹⁸⁶

¹⁸⁶ McGarry and Morgenstern, “Overseas Contingency Operations Funding.”

According to a senior OMB official, State advocated for several years to get a foreign affairs OCO budget. Before becoming the director of OMB in 2010, Jack Lew had been the Deputy Secretary of State for Management and Resources. During his time at State Lew fought for OCO appropriations for foreign affairs to help balance the disparity between State and DoD in terms of OCO. Once he was the director of OMB, Lew continued this work, and the first foreign affairs OCO/GWOT appropriation came out in 2012. Although this theoretically gave State and USAID more independent control of OCO/GWOT it was still a fraction of what DoD received and did little to decrease the budget disparity between the departments.¹⁸⁷

Another way DoD's more flexible funding continued to deepen the budget disparity between the two departments were the funding cuts through the BCA. Enacted on August 2, 2011, the BCA as amended set limits on defense and nondefense spending. The BCA aimed to reduce annual federal budget deficits by a total of at least \$2.1 trillion from FY 2012 through FY 2021. In FY 2013 the BCA directed the defense and nondefense accounts equally split \$85.3 billion in automatic cuts (\$42.65 billion for each). The BCA defined defense as spending under the 050 budget function and nondefense as spending under most other budget functions.¹⁸⁸ Foreign affairs appropriations, including State and USAID budgets, were considered nondefense. Sequestration enforced the caps by automatically canceling previously enacted

¹⁸⁷ Retired Office of Management and Budget Senior Official with Expertise on the International Affairs Budget, Dissertation Interview 6.

¹⁸⁸ Function 050 (National Defense) includes the military activities of DoD, the nuclear weapons-related activities of the Department of Energy, the national security activities of several other agencies such as the Selective Service Agency, and portions of the activities of the Coast Guard and the Federal Bureau of Investigation.

appropriations by an amount necessary to reach previously specified levels. As mentioned above, the BCA effectively exempted certain types of discretionary spending from the statutory limits, including funding designated for OCO/GWOT.¹⁸⁹ Retired OMB officials noted that State falling under the nondefense cap furthered the institutional imbalance and its impact on securitization because the DoD budget fell under the defense cap they did not need to compete with other agencies for funding. Further, State and USAID with the foreign affairs budget had to compete with all the domestic agencies for funding to keep under the budget caps. According to subject matter experts, this resulted in DoD having even greater budget flexibility for foreign assistance programs.¹⁹⁰

The budget imbalance has implications for securitization because DoD's greater funding levels and funding flexibility have deepened the budget imbalance and resulted in DoD having more accessible and flexible money to spend on foreign assistance. This has resulted in the president and Congress more frequently turning to DoD for foreign assistance because they know the funding will be easier to find in DoD than State or USAID.¹⁹¹

Personnel Disparity. As of 2013, the workforce of the DoD was almost 100 times the size of State. DoD employs over 1.5 million people in active duty forces, roughly one million in the reserves and the National Guard, and approximately 770,000 civilians, nearly 28 percent of which are in the federal civil service. By contrast, State employs

¹⁸⁹ Susan B. Epstein, "The Budget Control Act, Sequestration, and the Foreign Affairs Budget: Background and Possible Impacts" (Washington, DC: Congressional Research Service, December 20, 2013), <https://sgp.fas.org/crs/row/R42994.pdf>, p. 1.

¹⁹⁰ Retired Office of Management and Budget Senior Official with Expertise on the Defense Budget, Dissertation Interview 4 and Retired Office of Management and Budget Senior Official with Expertise on the International Affairs Budget, Dissertation Interview 6.

¹⁹¹ Senior Defense Researcher on Security Cooperation, Dissertation Interview 1.

about 19,000, including civil servants and Foreign Service Officers.¹⁹² Former Secretary of Defense Robert Gates put this in perspective when he said, “there are 6,600 Foreign Service Officers, which is less than the number of sailors assigned to a Carrier Battle Group.”¹⁹³

To illustrate how small State is in comparison to DoD, the figure below shows a comparison between DoD (including military departments) civil servants, total State civil servants, total active duty military, and total Foreign Service Officers.¹⁹⁴ In FY 2017, the number of DoD civilians was 676,840, nearly 60 times that of State at 10,166. The military mission by its nature requires a significant workforce to fight and provide the associated logistical support, while State requires fewer highly specialized individuals to fulfill its mission. Nonetheless, the differences, particularly in civilian employees, are striking.

This analysis only includes military and civilians working for DoD and State and does not include contractors. There are few accurate accountings of the total number of contractors used across the federal government so it is difficult to capture for this analysis. However, DoD has a large contractor work force employed in a variety of functions across the department. While State does rely on contractors, they employ far fewer contractors than DoD.

¹⁹² Adams, Chapter 2, “The Institutional Imbalance of American Statecraft,” in Adams and Murray, eds., *Mission Creep*, p. 23.

¹⁹³ Robert Gates in Eikenberry, “The Militarization of U.S. Foreign Policy,” p. 2.

¹⁹⁴ Adams, Chapter 2, “The Institutional Imbalance of American Statecraft,” in Adams and Murray, eds., *Mission Creep*, p. 25.

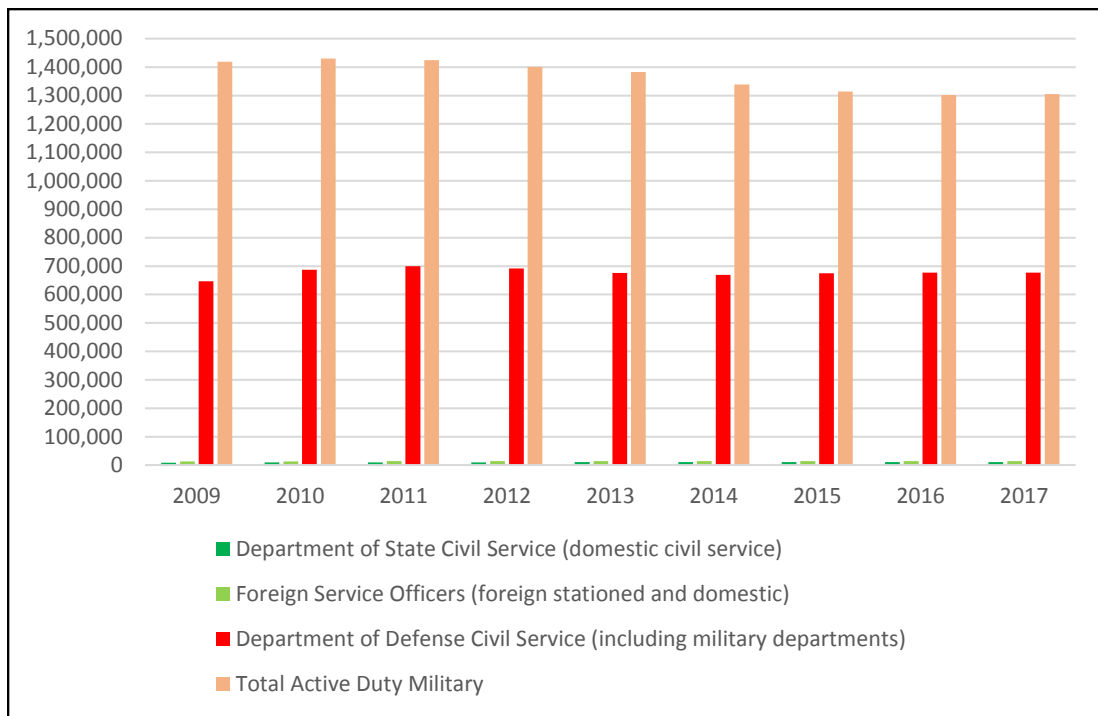


Figure 10: Comparison of DoD and State Work Forces FY 2008 – 2017

As discussed earlier, there are reasons why DoD’s mission requires more manpower, however, as one interviewee mentioned, increased manpower means that DoD has more capability for activities like foreign assistance. More specifically, DoD has medical capabilities for the routine care of military members and dependents and additional capabilities on-hand to support major combat operations should they occur. Humanitarian assistance efforts provide a great opportunity for DoD to exercise these capabilities to deliver much needed care in areas that require it and for medical professionals, who in many cases are reservists, to exercise their capabilities. Many of these individuals regularly practice medicine in DoD facilities or, in the case of reservists, in their civilian roles, but humanitarian assistance activities provide opportunities to be in the field and meet required annual reserve duty and training hours.

State and USAID do not have these capabilities at this scale.¹⁹⁵ This is likely one of the drivers for DoDI 6000.16 published in 2010 that entitled Military Health Support (MHS) for Stability Operations and established the policy that Medical Stability Operations (MSOs) would be a core military mission. DoDI 6000.16 codified DoD's role in MSOs as a core U.S. military mission that the DoD MHS shall be prepared to conduct across the range of military operations, including in combat and non-combat environments.¹⁹⁶ In addition to medical capabilities, DoD can support major construction projects with Army engineer construction battalions that tackle projects like building schools, roads, and other infrastructure as part of humanitarian assistance efforts.¹⁹⁷

Of additional note on the personnel disparity, when the two departments work together the size discrepancy often results in DoD minimizing State's perspective. In conversations with personnel who worked at State in a role that involved coordination with military officers, particularly on foreign assistance projects, these individuals found that although DoD personnel often deferred to their expertise in meetings and there was an open respectful dialog, the sheer difference in numbers often meant that State's input still got drowned out.¹⁹⁸ In speaking with former military officers who also worked on projects that coordinated with State, they noted the same dynamic and observed this occurring first hand in many meetings. One retired military officer also noted that in their experience working with the Provincial Reconstruction Teams (PRTs) in Afghanistan,

¹⁹⁵ Retired Military Officer Familiar with Humanitarian Assistance Disaster Relief in SOUTHCOM, Dissertation Interview 2.

¹⁹⁶ DoDI 6000.16.

¹⁹⁷ Retired Military Officer Familiar with Humanitarian Assistance Disaster Relief in SOUTHCOM, Dissertation Interview 2.

¹⁹⁸ Former Department of State Official with Counterterrorism Expertise, Dissertation Interview 5.

that there were some cultural differences in how the two organizations ran meetings and reached decisions that likely contributed to DoD overrunning State's perspective.¹⁹⁹ The following section on the organization disparity touches on these cultural differences in detail.

Organizational Disparity

There are also several organizational disparities between DoD and State that, according to existing literature and subject matter expert interviews, play a role in deepening DoD's influence in foreign policy and thus foreign assistance. The organizational disparities covered here include the difference in networks and constituencies and organizational culture regarding planning.

Networks and Constituencies. Both exiting literature and subject matter experts noted that DoD and State are at opposite extremes with their domestic networks and constituencies; DoD has a large domestic presence resulting in stronger networks and constituencies than State. With large numbers of military personnel and DoD civil servants spread around the country, many members of Congress represent districts containing a significant number of active and retired military personnel, in addition to military bases. Defense contracting has been another vehicle for constituency development: about 40 percent of the defense budget in any given year goes to buying weapons and other products made in states across the U.S.²⁰⁰ By contrast, State has far fewer employees, most of whom are concentrated in the metropolitan Washington, DC

¹⁹⁹ Retired Military Officer Familiar with Humanitarian Assistance Disaster Relief in SOUTHCOM, Dissertation Interview 2.

²⁰⁰ Adams, Chapter 2, "The Institutional Imbalance of American Statecraft," in Adams and Murray, eds., *Mission Creep*, p. 29.

area and in small enclaves abroad. Additionally, State has relatively little need for contracting with the industrial base. All these factors make it more difficult for State to win public and congressional support for their institutional needs.²⁰¹

State has never had significant domestic constituencies and networks, while DoD has slowly built these as it grew into a larger organization. Further, following WWII and the Korean War, a significant number of Americans served in the military or engaged in activities affiliated with the war efforts. This resulted in many people having a personal tie to DoD and receiving benefits from DoD for years after their service. In comparison, very few Americans have worked for State or have ever had any interaction with a State official.²⁰²

Of additional importance, defense issues are often more politically compelling than other foreign policy concerns. This is because members of Congress want to court the pool of military voters and show patriotism by supporting DoD. Additionally, while Americans generally see defense spending as necessary for national security, they often view spending on diplomacy as less important. Senate Committee activities also contribute to the imbalance between DoD and State. The prestige and power of the Senate Foreign Relations Committee has decreased over the past decades while the Senate Armed Services Committee has grown in popularity. This is in part because Senate rules prohibit serving on more than one of the major committees (Armed Services, Appropriations, Finance, and Foreign Relations) and, as noted above, military basing and

²⁰¹ Adams, Chapter 2, “The Institutional Imbalance of American Statecraft,” in Adams and Murray, eds., *Mission Creep*, p. 31.

²⁰² Schake, *State of Disrepair*, pp. 16-17.

contracting issues have more prominent constituencies than foreign relations do.²⁰³ It is prestigious to be on the Armed Services Committees because of the importance of the defense issue space, as well as the enormous size of the defense budget compared to other areas of federal spending. Further, defense spending has a connection to getting favors at home with constituents; the U.S. spends a non-insignificant portion of the defense budget on aircraft, weapons systems, and munitions built in congressional districts across the country. Having robust defense spending can allow Congressmen and women to boost employment in their home districts, furthering their incentive to serve on national security policy committees. It is worth noting that some members of Congress do find value in serving on the foreign affairs and diplomatic oversight committees when they have constituencies that follow specific foreign affairs issues, for example, Cuban Americans and U.S. Cuba policy.

Additionally, the military services have a very powerful presence on the Hill, partially because the House and Senate Armed Service Committees are desirable committees to serve on and to educate members of Congress and their staffs about the needs of the military. This unique relationship between the military services and Congress may be partially responsible for the military receiving more funding than other foreign policy departments, namely State. Further, this relationship arguably contributes to DoD acquiring expanded authorities in areas of foreign policy that were traditionally

²⁰³ Reveron and Gavin, Chapter 1, “America’s Viceroy,” Reveron, ed., *America’s Viceroy*, pp. 5-7.

associated with civilian foreign policy departments, such as the provision of foreign assistance.²⁰⁴

Experts across the foreign policy bureaucracy mentioned the role of DoD at large and the military services' relationships with Congress. These interviewees also cited this as a potential factor in why DoD is a more powerful organization. However, one expert pointed out that not all the military services put an equal amount of effort into maintaining a relationship with the Hill. The Marine Corps is notorious for putting significant resources into this relationship, often sending some of their best officers to be fellows on the Hill.²⁰⁵ It makes sense that the Marine Corps puts a lot of effort into maintaining the relationship with the Hill as they are the smallest service and are part of the Department of the Navy. Therefore, they must fight to maintain their budget more than the other services. Further, the Marine Corps has often been concerned that they are at risk of being cut as a service and thus put significant focus and resources on maintaining their relevancy.²⁰⁶ The Army on the other hand does not expend as many resources on maintaining a strong relationship with the Hill, and although they maintain a presence on the Hill they do not generally put as many of their "rising stars" in those positions, instead opting to keep them more operationally focused.²⁰⁷ The Army and the Marine Corps represent the two extremes with how the services prioritize their relationships with Congress and the Navy and the Air Force fall in between.

²⁰⁴ Adams, Chapter 2, "The Institutional Imbalance of American Statecraft," in Adams and Murray, eds., *Mission Creep*, pp. 38-40.

²⁰⁵ Senior Defense Researcher on Security Cooperation, Dissertation Interview 1.

²⁰⁶ Nathan Packard, "Congress and the Marine Corps: An Enduring Partnership," *Marine Corps University Journal* 8, no. 2 (2017), pp. 2-10.

²⁰⁷ Senior Defense Researcher on Security Cooperation, Dissertation Interview 1.

State has operated its Capitol Hill House Liaison Office since 2001 and the Senate Liaison Office since 2010. Both offices provide a full range of support services to members of Congress and their staff. Despite having offices on the Hill, State and Congress have a notoriously dysfunctional relationship with a lot of distrust. State perceives that legislators and staff confer a degree of deference to the military and intelligence agencies they seldom do to State. From Congress's perspective, this relationship results from a diplomatic apparatus that treats the Hill as a hall monitor to be kept at bay, rather than an involved, strategic constituency. However, State does not invest a lot of resources in trying to improve its relationship with Congress. Experts from State and DoD noted that their departments do put different levels of emphasis on their relationship with the Hill, DoD putting significant influence (somewhat varied by service) and State very little.²⁰⁸ One interviewee who was a retired career civilian from State noted that they never viewed building a better relationship with Congress as a priority and there is a general perception within the department that it is not worth the time or effort to build a stronger relationship.²⁰⁹

Organizational Culture and Planning. DoD and State have very different organizational cultures stemming from different values and priorities. According to Rickey Rife, the military (warriors) value competence, achievement, and efficiency. Warriors are mission and task-oriented, with a “give me the mission and get out of the way” mentality. They are step-by-step problem solvers who love to follow the plan.

²⁰⁸ Senior Defense Researcher on Security Cooperation, Dissertation Interview 1 and Former Department of State Official with Counterterrorism Expertise, Dissertation Interview 5.

²⁰⁹ Former Department of State Official with Counterterrorism Expertise, Dissertation Interview 5.

Teamwork and community are highly valued by the warrior.²¹⁰ Samuel Huntington best captured the essence of the military mind when he wrote, “In order is found peace; in discipline, fulfillment; in community, security... the military life subordinates man to duty for society's purposes. In its severity, regularity, and discipline, the military society shares the characteristics of the religious order.”²¹¹ The diplomat is almost the polar opposite of the warrior. Diplomats prioritize intellectual ability and individual achievement over teamwork. Diplomats struggle to develop plans and prefer a more fluid event-driven approach to planning.²¹²

One retired military officer with extensive experience working with the PRTs in Afghanistan in the early 2000s observed this difference in planning firsthand. Being on the military side, this interviewee was naturally biased toward the military culture and practices in planning, as they acknowledged during the conversation. Over the course of more than a year working with State counterparts, both with Foreign Services Officers and directly with the ambassador, the interviewee observed that the State officials did not appear to have a planning process. These officials would meet to discuss and analyze a problem without forming any conclusions, consensus, or recommendations. They would then wait for their senior leadership to tell them what they should do to solve the problem, not making any recommendations to their leadership. This was directly counter to the military planning process in the interviewee's PRT. The military representatives would meet to lay out the problem and develop solutions to recommend to senior

²¹⁰ Rife, “Defense is from Mars, State is from Venus,” pp. 4-7.

²¹¹ Samuel P. Huntington, *The Soldier and the State: The Theory and Politics of Civil–Military Relations* (Cambridge: The Belknap Press of Harvard University, 1964), p. 465.

²¹² Rife, “Defense is from Mars, State is from Venus,” pp. 4-7.

leadership. Further, in the case of the military, depending on the scope of the problem, they would not need the approval of any senior leadership outside the PRT. On the other hand, State operated with more central authority and mostly did need a decision from senior leadership. In the interviewee's experience, this often meant that the military representatives were the problem solvers in the PRTs and eventually their State counterparts just left planning to them because it took too long for them to engage their senior leadership on a decision.²¹³

This is just one person's experience on one PRT but this aligns with others who have written about State and DoD coordination on the PRTs and how DoD became the default lead for these reasons.²¹⁴ Again, this is from a military perspective and unfortunately this dissertation did not include any interviewees who were former State officials who served in a PRT. However, in conversation with a former State civilian this individual mentioned that State's planning process was very different than DoD's process in their observation and did not lend itself to making the quick decisions that were a necessity when working on the PRTs.²¹⁵

Contribution to Securitization

Several interviewees mentioned that the institutional imbalance matters to securitization because DoD has more assets and capabilities and thus it is more practical to use them than the civilian agencies. Further, DoD often has slack resources in

²¹³ Retired Military Officer Familiar with PRTs in Afghanistan, Dissertation Interview 3.

²¹⁴ Todd Brown, "U.S. Provincial Reconstruction Teams in Afghanistan: Best Practices and Recommended Improvements," *Connections* 6, no. 4 (Winter 2007), 1-12 and "The Role of the Department of Defense in Provincial Reconstruction Teams," § sec. House Armed Services Committee, Subcommittee on Oversight and Investigations (October 4, 2007).

²¹⁵ Former Department of State Official with Counterterrorism Expertise, Dissertation Interview 5.

engineers and doctors, whose skills would be in high demand in times of war but less so during steady-state operations. This provides a group of available, easily mobilized, capable individuals that can build roads and schools and provide medical care with reach-back to a range of specialists. The military can deploy these capabilities in response to natural disasters, in the aftermath of conflict (as traditionally done), and to countries at peace to provide preventative assistance. Therefore, the military's increasing role in providing foreign assistance may be just a natural extension of DoD being a larger organization with diverse capabilities and slack resources that are suited to foreign assistance projects.²¹⁶ Outside of foreign assistance, it is known that the military has a fair amount of slack resources, for example the Army Corps of Engineers conduct domestic water projects. Like these domestic projects, foreign assistance may be just another use for these slack resources.

PRESIDENT AND CONGRESS

Existing literature suggests that the president holds significant power in national security, and this power has continued to increase in recent decades. While the president holds significant power in foreign policy, Congress has the power of the purse. Although Congress has the power of the purse, some literature argues that this power has weakened and Congress often defers to the president on the foreign assistance budget.²¹⁷ However,

²¹⁶ Senior Defense Researcher on Security Cooperation, Dissertation Interview 1, Retired Military Officer Familiar with Humanitarian Assistance Disaster Relief in SOUTHCOM, Dissertation Interview 2, Retired Military Officer Familiar with PRTs in Afghanistan, Dissertation Interview 3, Retired Office of Management and Budget Senior Official with Expertise on the Defense Budget, Dissertation Interview 4, Former Department of State Official with Counterterrorism Expertise, Dissertation Interview 5, and Retired Office of Management and Budget Senior Official with Expertise on the International Affairs Budget, Dissertation Interview 6.

²¹⁷ Schake, *State of Disrepair*, p. 52 and Hinckley, *Less than Meets the Eye*, p.10.

Congress may also have a role through the federal budget because they are partially responsible for granting DoD significantly more funding and more flexible funding than the other foreign policy departments. This section examines whether some presidents may have used the budget process to further the securitization of foreign assistance and whether Congress exercises its power of the purse on foreign assistance spending.

The Budget and Securitization

The first part of the analysis on the role of the president and Congress focuses on understanding whether and how the president and Congress play a role in shaping securitization through the federal budget process. This has two parts, understanding whether the president plays an active role in directing more foreign assistance dollars through the DoD budget and directing foreign assistance dollars into programs supporting national security objectives.

Many scholars have examined the relative power of the president and Congress in foreign policy. This relationship has varied over time but generally, the president holds more power in foreign policy than in domestic policy areas. As summarized in chapter 2, this largely comes down to the president's first-mover advantage, information asymmetry, and different electoral incentives between the president and Congress. Congress does, in theory, have the power of the purse and the ability to control spending on foreign assistance and other foreign policy items. However, some scholarship posits

that in practice this does not happen and the president largely drives foreign assistance spending levels.²¹⁸

Historically, the foreign aid bill was one of the primary means through which Congress attempted to influence and make U.S. foreign policy. Examples of this include the landmark Hughes-Ryan amendment of 1974, in which Congress attempted to set restrictions on intelligence agencies passed as part of that year's foreign assistance bill.²¹⁹ Further, in 1984 Congress told President Reagan through the bill that giving foreign assistance, beyond humanitarian assistance, to governments supporting terrorism was forbidden. Therefore, nothing beyond humanitarian aid would be given to the Nicaraguan contras. Reagan ultimately did provide assistance through other means available to the president, resulting in the Iran contra debacle.²²⁰ It makes sense that the foreign aid bill would represent a microcosm of U.S. foreign policy because Congress is most comfortable in budgetary decisions with their power of the purse. By eliminating foreign assistance to one country or attaching restrictions to another Congress could influence U.S. foreign policy toward those countries.²²¹

In the late 1960s and early 1970s presidents won about two-thirds of foreign assistance roll call votes on which they took a position – about the same success rate as domestic issues during that time. Comparing the White House draft bill to the final public law, the congressional role appears substantial, with Congress making changes to over

²¹⁸ Hinckley, *Less than Meets the Eye*, p. 5 and Jeremy Caddel “The President, Congress, and the Allocation of Foreign Aid,” pp. 22-27.

²¹⁹ Robert Pastor, *Congress and the Politics of U.S. Foreign Economic Policy* (Berkeley: University of California Press, 1980), p. 253.

²²⁰ Hinckley, *Less than Meets the Eye*, pp. 101-102.

²²¹ Hinckley, *Less than Meets the Eye*, p. 104.

half the provisions.²²² For example, Kennedy sought an expanded foreign assistance program including creating the Peace Corps, funds for developing Latin America, and initiatives for communist bloc countries in Eastern Europe. Congress was not a passive partner in these expanded foreign policy initiatives and actively negotiated each program and dollar spent. The 1961 Foreign Assistance Act followed the general outline of Kennedy's draft bill but Congress adjusted funding, added various restrictions, and required annual authorizations. Then in 1962 and 1963, Congress passed foreign assistance restrictions that cut the president's overall request by 18 percent. However, congressional involvement in foreign assistance began to gradually decline beginning in 1969 and by 1980 Congress was giving significant discretion to the president. In 1981 Congress stated that the president could provide foreign assistance to a nation if "prohibited by law" as long as the president believed it was "vital" to U.S. national security interests. Further, starting around this time, Congress no longer cut the president's foreign assistance requests as significantly as they had in the previous two decades.²²³

Although Congress no longer makes as many modifications to the president's budget for foreign assistance spending, presidents do not consistently seek to influence foreign assistance spending. Subject matter experts who worked at OMB over the last three decades noted that in their observations presidents do not try to directly influence foreign assistance spending to a significant extent through the president's budget.

²²² Hinckley, *Less than Meets the Eye*, p. 107.

²²³ Hinckley, *Less than Meets the Eye*, p. 124.

However, many presidents have had their own foreign assistance areas of interest.²²⁴ For instance in March 2002, President George W. Bush proposed an increase in foreign assistance spending through the creation of the Millennium Challenge Account. The Millennium Challenge Account would provide \$5 billion per year to a select group of countries that were "ruling justly, investing in their people, and establishing economic freedom."²²⁵ Additionally, President Obama was particularly interested in providing foreign assistance for African development including developing the Power Africa program that focused on expanded access to electricity across Africa.²²⁶ Presidents also have a history of requesting foreign assistance dollars in response to high-profile disasters that they want the U.S. to have additional resources for.²²⁷

According to subject matter experts these special interest items did not make changes to the president's budget that were large and enduring enough to meaningfully impact the securitization of foreign assistance. Further, interviewees noted that, in the case of foreign assistance, the president's budget numbers were driven by the agencies providing the request and less a reflection of presidential preference.²²⁸

Subject matter experts did note that if the president wanted to give additional foreign assistance in response to an issue it was easier to get that money through the

²²⁴ Retired Office of Management and Budget Senior Official with Expertise on the Defense Budget, Dissertation Interview 4 and Retired Office of Management and Budget Senior Official with Expertise on the International Affairs Budget, Dissertation Interview 6.

²²⁵ Steven Radelet, "Bush and Foreign Aid," *Foreign Affairs*, October 2003.

²²⁶ "Fact Sheet: Power Africa" (The White House Office of the Press Secretary, July 25, 2015), <https://obamawhitehouse.archives.gov/the-press-office/2015/07/25/fact-sheet-power-africa>.

²²⁷ Retired Office of Management and Budget Senior Official with Expertise on the Defense Budget, Dissertation Interview 4 and Retired Office of Management and Budget Senior Official with Expertise on the International Affairs Budget, Dissertation Interview 6.

²²⁸ Retired Office of Management and Budget Senior Official with Expertise on the Defense Budget, Dissertation Interview 4 and Retired Office of Management and Budget Senior Official with Expertise on the International Affairs Budget, Dissertation Interview 6.

defense budget. This is because in the last two decades there are more options for flexible funding for DoD through the defense supplemental for the war on terror that could be used for foreign assistance, as discussed earlier in this chapter.²²⁹

Despite some arguing that Congress does not take as powerful of a role in the budget process as it once did when it comes to foreign assistance spending levels, Congress did play a key role in establishing many of the budget authorities that have allowed DoD greater and more flexible funding. Congress has relied on supplemental appropriations to fund war-related activities throughout the 20th century. For example, in 1951, a year after the start of the Korean War, Congress approved DoD supplemental appropriations totaling \$32.8 billion (\$271 billion in constant FY 2019 dollars). In 1952, DoD supplemental appropriations totaled just \$1.4 billion (\$11 billion in constant FY 2019 dollars), as the base budget incorporated costs related to the war effort. A similar pattern occurred during the Vietnam War and the 1990 to 1991 Gulf War. As discussed above, during the post-9/11 conflicts in Afghanistan and Iraq, Congress appropriated supplemental and specially designated funding above the base DoD budget for much longer and in a greater number than for previous conflicts.²³⁰

Of additional importance, Congress can also implement budget enforcement mechanisms to mandate specific budgetary policies or fiscal outcomes when they are concerned with a deficit or debt levels. The BCA of 2011 was the legislative result of extended budget policy negotiations between congressional leaders and President Obama.

²²⁹ Retired Office of Management and Budget Senior Official with Expertise on the Defense Budget, Dissertation Interview 4 and Retired Office of Management and Budget Senior Official with Expertise on the International Affairs Budget, Dissertation Interview 6.

²³⁰ McGarry and Morgenstern, "Overseas Contingency Operations Funding."

These negotiations occurred in conjunction with the government’s borrowing authority approaching the statutory debt limit. Congress may modify or repeal any aspect of the BCA procedures, but such changes require the enactment of legislation. Congress has repeatedly amended the legislation to raise spending by passing several bills that revised the automatic spending caps initially established by the BCA, including the following:²³¹

- American Taxpayer Relief Act of 2012
- Bipartisan Budget Act of 2013
- Bipartisan Budget Act of 2015
- Bipartisan Budget Act of 2018
- Bipartisan Budget Act of 2019²³²

These changes included modifications to the discretionary limits imposed by the BCA that increased deficits in each year from FY 2013 to 2021. As mentioned earlier in this chapter, experts noted that State falling under the nondefense cap furthered the institutional imbalance and ultimately impacted securitization. According to subject matter experts, this contributed to DoD having even greater budget flexibility for foreign assistance programs.²³³

Contribution to Securitization

Based on the findings in this analysis, the president and Congress do not appear to have a strong role in increasing securitization through the federal budget process.

²³¹ McGarry and Morgenstern, “Overseas Contingency Operations Funding.”

²³² McGarry and Morgenstern, “Overseas Contingency Operations Funding.”

²³³ Retired Office of Management and Budget Senior Official with Expertise on the Defense Budget, Dissertation Interview 4 and Retired Office of Management and Budget Senior Official with Expertise on the International Affairs Budget, Dissertation Interview 6.

However, the post 9/11 increase in DoD's budget through OCO and more flexible funding has likely played a role in securitization. This is because these changes have allowed DoD greater and more flexible resources to use in activities like foreign assistance. Further, this means that when foreign assistance is needed it is easier to get the resources to provide it through DoD than through State or USAID.

THE GEOGRAPHIC COMBATANT COMMANDS

The literature on the role of the geographic combatant commands in the securitization of foreign policy seems to suggest two potential explanations for the role of combatant commands in securitization of foreign assistance. Literature suggests that circumstances in the command may push combatant commands to take on responsibility in areas that extend into diplomatic activities. Therefore, commands like United States Africa Command (AFRICOM) and United States Southern command (SOUTHCOM) that do not have ongoing wars or face direct great power competition may expand into activities outside traditional defense responsibilities to include foreign assistance to compete for more resources and prove their relevance.²³⁴ Some literature also suggests that in unique cases individual combatant commanders can be policy entrepreneurs wielding their influence to increase the role of their commands in activities outside traditional defense responsibilities.²³⁵

²³⁴ Priest, *The Mission*, pp. 61-99, Murray and Quainton, Chapter 9, "Combatant Commanders, Ambassadorial Authority, and the Conduct Diplomacy," in Adams and Murray eds., *Mission Creep*, pp. 197-168 and Reveron and Gavin, Chapter 1, "America's Viceroy" in Reveron, ed., *America's Viceroy*, p 10.

²³⁵ Reveron, Chapter 5, "U.S. European Command: General Wesley Clack and the War for Kosovo," in Reveron, ed., *America's Viceroy*, p. 100 and Cook, Chapter 6, "U.S. Southern Command: General Charles E Wilhelm and the Shaping of U.S. Military Engagement in Columbia, 1997-2000", in Reveron, ed., *America's Viceroy*, p. 128.

The following section explores these explanations as they apply to the securitization of foreign assistance. First, this section explores whether different types of commands, those engaged in active conflict or facing direct great power competition versus those that are not, play different roles in the provision of foreign assistance. This analysis attempts to assess whether these types of commands may seek additional responsibilities in foreign assistance within their area of responsibility. This dissertation conducts this analysis by examining how the different commands present their mission, priorities, and posture statements to Congress, as well as measuring the differences in the commands' foreign assistance spending and programs. Next, this section examines whether individual combatant commanders have played role in advocating for increased foreign assistance spending in their area of responsibility, exploring whether there are examples of this occurring and its limitations.

Before getting into the analysis two important pieces of background information frame the context of this analysis. First, what are the origins of the combatant commands' role in foreign policy and second, what are the differences in legal authorities between a U.S. ambassador and a combatant commander.

Origins of Combatant Command Power

The origins of the expanding power of the combatant commands are rooted in the policies that set up the combatant command structure, as we know it today. According to the works of Andrew Feickert and Gregg Garbesi, in 1946 the Chief of Naval Operations spoke out against Pacific Command due to its perceived ambiguity of responsibilities and

proposed a single command over the Pacific region to provide unity of command. The other service chiefs rejected this proposal, however, after an extended debate, they established a worldwide system of unified commands. In December of 1946, President Truman approved the Outline Command Plan establishing seven commands based on the geographic regions of the world. The National Security Act of 1947 further fleshed out the command plan and officially established the Unified Combatant Command system, signifying that the U.S. would continue to have a global military presence in the aftermath of WWII. In 1958, President Eisenhower decided on a more unified and streamlined chain of command, resulting in the DoD Reorganization Act of 1958. This Act authorized the president, acting through the secretary of defense, to establish unified commands, assign missions, and determine their force structure. This act did not change any of the authorities codified in the National Security Act, but instead established a clear line of command from the president, through the secretary of defense, to the combatant commanders granting the combatant commanders more power and autonomy. In 1986, Goldwater-Nichols sought to rebalance the power of the geographic combatant commands versus the services. At the time, the military services were more powerful than the commands and leadership saw a need for unification across the services, which the commands could provide. The act further expanded the combatant commanders' powers giving commanders greater interaction with Congress and more participation in the DoD budget process, arguably setting the foundation for them to play an expanding

role in U.S. foreign policy.²³⁶ Chapter 4 discussed the role of Goldwater-Nichols in laying the foundation for the securitization of foreign assistance in depth.

Legal Authorities of the Combatant Commands

In their country of responsibility, ambassadors hold the most formal authority. The ambassador is the president's representative and, as a result, the highest-ranking official in the country. When assigned to an ambassadorial post, the ambassador receives a formal letter from the president charging them with the responsibility to oversee all executive branch personnel on official duty in their country of responsibility except those under command of a U.S. military area commander. Put simply, the U.S. ambassador is the chief of mission for their country of responsibility who oversees the Country Team composed of all agencies represented at post. Further, ambassadors have the authority to decide whether any U.S. government employee, including military not directly deployed by the combatant commander, can enter the country. Finally, military leadership must keep ambassadors informed of and cooperate with them on all matters of mutual interest.²³⁷ This affects the combatant commands' role in foreign assistance because, although they may provide assistance and play a significant role in directing where they give foreign assistance within their area of responsibility, they must still work through the ambassador.

²³⁶ Feickert, "The Unified Command Plan and Combatant Commands," pp. 3-5.

²³⁷ "2 FAH-2 H-100 Post Management Organization and 2 FAH-2 H-110 Chief of Mission Authority Security Responsibility and Overseas Staffing" (Washington, DC: Department of State, May 12, 2020), <https://fam.state.gov/fam/02fah02/02fah020110.html>.

The Role of the Type of Command in Securitization

As mentioned above, some existing literature implies that circumstances may push combatant commands to take on responsibility in areas that extend into diplomatic activities. For example, commands like AFRICOM and SOUTHCOM that do not have ongoing wars or face direct great power competition may expand their responsibilities into foreign assistance by necessity or to compete for more resources and prove their relevance.²³⁸

A retired State civilian with extensive experience working with DoD leadership in both CENTCOM and AFRICOM observed differences between these two commands that lend some support to the idea that a command's role in foreign assistance is directed by the type of command (one actively engaged in conflict or facing direct great power competition versus one that is not). This interviewee found that in general AFRICOM took a lot of pride in their humanitarian mission particularly health assistance, attempting to focus on fostering longer-term progress not just a transaction between nations. Further, AFRICOM had noticeably more military exercises on both humanitarian assistance efforts and positive military-to-military training. Finally, the interviewee noted that overall, AFRICOM's staff were educated about State programs in their area of responsibility and proactive in collaborating with State on foreign assistance programs. On the other hand, CENTCOM was much more focused on the ongoing conflicts and was

²³⁸ Priest, *The Mission*, pp. 61-99, Murray and Quainton, Chapter 9, "Combatant Commanders, Ambassadorial Authority, and the Conduct Diplomacy," in Adams and Murray ed., *Mission Creep*, pp. 197-168, and Reveron and Gavin, Chapter 1, "America's Viceroys" in Reveron, ed., *America's Viceroys*, p 10.

not interested in getting involved in humanitarian assistance projects or other programs without a direct mission focus.²³⁹

One way to examine the different types of commands' roles in foreign assistance is by analyzing how the different commands message their responsibilities in foreign assistance through their mission statements, priorities, and posture statements. Command missions and priorities are crucial data in this study because commanders have a fair amount of autonomy in modifying these as they see fit. One of the fundamental responsibilities of a combatant commander is to advocate for their command and justify their budget request, as well as advocate with the secretary of defense for their force allocation through the force allocation process. Their mission and priorities are one way to demonstrate their utility and advance their responsibilities.

AFRICOM's mission is to counter transnational threats and malign actors, strengthen security forces, and respond to crisis to advance the U.S. national interests and promote regional security, stability, and prosperity. AFRICOM's focus has largely been consistent since the command was founded in 2007 including the emphasis on exercises and strengthening defense capabilities to better enable Africans to address their security threats and security cooperation including humanitarian assistance.²⁴⁰ Fundamentally, AFRICOM's mission and priorities are preventative in nature, built on the notion that a stable Africa is better for U.S. national security. Thus, many of their programs fall under preventative foreign assistance to countries at peace, both in humanitarian assistance focused on building infrastructure, economies, and healthcare and in military training

²³⁹ Former Department of State Official with Counterterrorism Expertise, Dissertation Interview 5.

²⁴⁰ AFRICOM, "What We Do."

assistance in the form of financial assistance and exercises to countries with no active U.S. military conflict. SOUTHCOM has a similarly preventative emphasis with a large foreign assistance focus in their mission and priorities. However, a significant part of SOUTHCOM's mission is counterdrug and their mission highlights more conventional national security roles including defending the homeland and deterring threats and aggression. SOUTHCOM's priorities comprise of strengthening partnerships including building partner capacity and humanitarian assistance, and countering threats including cooperation and information sharing with allies.²⁴¹

CENTCOM and EUCOM's missions and priorities read very differently than AFRICOM and SOUTHCOM's. Their missions and priorities focus on conventional military concerns with little mention of foreign assistance outside of disaster response, preventative foreign assistance is not part of either of their missions or priorities. CENTCOM's mission is to direct and enable military operations and activities with allies and partners to increase regional security. Their priorities focus on deterring Iran, negotiating the resolution of conflict in Afghanistan, and maintaining the defeat-ISIS campaign in Syria and Iraq.²⁴² EUCOM's mission and priorities also focus on conventional national security objectives. EUCOM's mission is to execute a full range of multi-national operations in coordination with allies and partners to support the North Atlantic Treaty Organization, deter Russia, assist in the defense of Israel, enable global operations, and counter trans-national threats to defend the homeland and Euro-Atlantic

²⁴¹ SOUTHCOM, "About," 2022, <https://www.southcom.mil/About/>.

²⁴² CENTCOM, "About Us," 2022, <https://www.centcom.mil/ABOUT-US/>.

security. EUCOM's priorities include constantly improving the warfighting readiness of the Joint Force, and strengthening solidarity and unity with U.S. allies and partners.²⁴³

Like the commands' missions and priorities, combatant commanders' posture statements over the last decade have reflected different views by type of commands for their role in providing foreign assistance. Posture statements are important to analyze because they are the primary means through which the combatant commanders communicate their priorities and challenges to Congress. Posture statements also serve as an opportunity for commanders to demonstrate the importance of their mission to Congress and advocate for increased resources.

Across the last decade, AFRICOM's posture statements have highlighted the U.S. interest in a stable Africa and emphasized development efforts as the foundation of change in Africa, as well as the need to resolve, through foreign assistance, issues of poor governance and limited healthcare. Posture statements earlier in the decade focused on the need for military-to-military training to make African militaries more professional and capable. Later AFRICOM statements focused more on the need for humanitarian assistance to create stable foundations and prevent violent extremism from taking deeper root on the continent.²⁴⁴ SOUTHCOM's posture statements focused more on traditional

²⁴³ "Commander's Priorities" (EUCOM, 2022), <https://www.eucom.mil/organization/commanders-priorities>.

²⁴⁴ "2011 Posture Statement: Statement of General William Ward Before House Armed Services Committee," § sec. House Armed Services Committee (2010), sec. House Armed Services Committee, <https://www.africom.mil/article/7245/africom-posture-statement-ward-reports-annual-test>, "2012 Posture Statement: Statement of General Carter Ham Before House Armed Services Committee," § sec. House Armed Services Committee (2012), sec. House Armed Services Committee, <https://www.africom.mil/Story/8832/2012-posture-statement-statement-of-general-carter>, "Full Committee Hearing on the Posture of the U.S. European Command and U.S. Africa Command," § sec. House Armed Services Committee (2013), sec. House Armed Services Committee, <https://www.govinfo.gov/content/pkg/CHRG-113hrg80189/html/CHRG-113hrg80189.htm>, "2013

military operations than AFRICOM's, including the threat of Russian and Chinese influence in the SOUTHCOM area of responsibility and the counter-drug mission. These statements also focused on supporting stability in the region through preventative humanitarian assistance programs, although later posture statements mention foreign assistance programs more prominently.²⁴⁵ CENTCOM's posture statements over the last

Posture Statement: Statement of General Carter Ham Before House Armed Services Committee," § sec. Senate Armed Services Committee (2013), sec. Senate Armed Services Committee, https://www.globalsecurity.org/military/library/congress/2013_hr/130307-ham.pdf, "Statement of General David M. Rodriguez, USA, Commander, United States Africa Command Before the Senate Armed Services Committee," § sec. Senate Armed Services Committee (2015), sec. Senate Armed Services Committee, https://defenseinnovationmarketplace.dtic.mil/wp-content/uploads/2018/02/Rodriguez_032615.pdf, "Statement of General David M. Rodriguez, USA, Commander, United States Africa Command Before the Senate Armed Services Committee," § sec. Senate Armed Services Committee (2016), sec. Senate Armed Services Committee, https://www.armed-services.senate.gov/imo/media/doc/Rodriguez_03-08-16.pdf, "Transcript: AFRICOM Commander Delivers 2017 Annual Posture Statement to the SASC," § sec. Senate Armed Services Committee (2017), sec. Senate Armed Services Committee, <https://www.africom.mil/transcript/28738/transcript-africom-commander-delivers-2017-annual-posture-statement-to-the-sasc>, and "Statement of General Thomas D. Waldhauser, United States Marine Corps Commander United States African Command Before the Senate Committee on Armed Services," § sec. Senate Armed Services Committee (2018), sec. Senate Armed Services Committee, https://www.armed-services.senate.gov/imo/media/doc/Waldhauser_03-13-18.pdf.²⁴⁵ "Posture Statement of General Douglas M. Fraser, United States Air Force Commander, United States Southern Command Before the 112th Congress House Armed Services Committee," § sec. House Armed Services Committee (2011), sec. House Armed Services Committee, <https://www.airforcemag.com/PDF/testimony/Documents/2011/March%202011/033011fraser.pdf>, "Posture Statement of General Douglas M. Fraser, United States Air Force Commander, United States Southern Command Before the 112th Congress House Armed Services Committee," § sec. House Armed Services Committee (2012), sec. House Armed Services Committee, <https://apps.dtic.mil/sti/pdfs/ADA565018.pdf>, "Posture Statement of General John F. Kelly, United States Marine Corps Commander, United States Southern Command Before the 113th Congress Senate Armed Services Committee," § sec. Senate Armed Services Committee (2014), sec. Senate Armed Services Committee, https://www.armed-services.senate.gov/imo/media/doc/Kelly_03-13-14.pdf, "Posture Statement of General John F. Kelly, United States Marine Corps Commander, United States Southern Command Before the 114th Congress Senate Armed Services Committee," § sec. Senate Armed Services Committee (2015), sec. Senate Armed Services Committee, https://www.armed-services.senate.gov/imo/media/doc/Kelly_03-12-15.pdf, "Posture Statement of Admiral Kurt W. Tidd Commander, United States Southern Command Before the 114th Congress Senate Armed Services Committee," § sec. Senate Armed Services Committee (2016), sec. Senate Armed Services Committee, https://www.southcom.mil/Portals/7/Documents/Posture%20Statements/SOUTHCOM_POSTURE_STATEMENT_FINAL_2016.pdf?ver=2017-01-04-094258-267, "Posture Statement of Admiral Kurt W. Tidd Commander, United States Southern Command Before the 115th Congress Senate Armed Services Committee," § sec. Senate Armed Services Committee (2017), sec. Senate Armed Services Committee, https://www.southcom.mil/Portals/7/Documents/Posture%20Statements/SOUTHCOM_2017_posture_statement_FINAL.pdf, and "Posture Statement of Admiral Kurt W. Tidd Commander, United States Southern Command Before the 115th Congress Senate Armed Services Committee," § sec. Senate Armed Services

decade focused on operations in Iraq and Afghanistan and, earlier in the decade, the threats in Syria. Later CENTCOM posture statements focused more broadly than the conflicts in Iraq and Afghanistan and included concerns with Iran and strengthening partnerships and military-to-military training to prevent the spread of violent extremist organizations. Many of the CENTCOM posture statements did highlight humanitarian assistance as part of ongoing conflicts but not as a preventative measure.²⁴⁶ EUCOM posture statements across the decade focused on partnerships and military-to-military engagement and training. Posture statements later in the decade focused largely on countering Russian aggression.²⁴⁷

Committee (2018), sec. Senate Armed Services Committee, https://www.southcom.mil/Portals/7/Documents/Posture%20Statements/SOUTHCOM_2018_Posture_Statement_FINAL.PDF?ver=2018-02-15-090330-243.

²⁴⁶ “Statement of General James N. Mattis, U.S. Marine Corps Commander U.S. Central Command Before the Senate Armed Services Committee on the Posture of U.S. Central Command,” § sec. Senate Armed Services Committee (2012), sec. Senate Armed Services Committee, <https://www.armed-services.senate.gov/imo/media/doc/Mattis%2003-06-121.pdf>, “Statement of General James N. Mattis, U.S. Marine Corps Commander U.S. Central Command Before the Senate Armed Services Committee on the Posture of U.S. Central Command,” § sec. Senate Armed Services Committee (2013), sec. Senate Armed Services Committee, https://www.globalsecurity.org/military/library/congress/2013_hr/130305-mattis.pdf, “Statement of General Lloyd J. Austin III Commander U.S. Central Command Before the House Armed Services Committee on the Posture of U.S. Central Command,” § sec. House Armed Services Committee (2015), sec. House Armed Services Committee, <https://docs.house.gov/meetings/AS/AS00/20150303/103076/HHRG-114-AS00-Wstate-AustinUSAL-20150303.pdf>, “Statement of General Joseph L. Votel on the Posture of U.S. Central Command,” § sec. Senate Armed Services Committee (2017), sec. Senate Armed Services Committee, <https://www.centcom.mil/ABOUT-US/SASC-POSTURE-STATEMENT-2017/>, and Statement of General Joseph L. Votel Commander U.S. Central Command Before the Senate Armed Services Committee on the Posture of U.S. Central Command,” § sec. Senate Armed Services Committee (2018), sec. Senate Armed Services Committee, https://www.centcom.mil/Portals/6/Documents/Transcripts/Votel_03-13-18.pdf.

²⁴⁷ “House and Senate Armed Services Committees Testimony of Admiral James G. Stavridis, United States Navy Commander, United States European Command Before the 112th Congress,” § sec. House and Senate Armed Services Committees (2011), sec. House and Senate Armed Services Committees, <https://ogc.osd.mil/Portals/99/testStavridis03292011.pdf>, “Posture Statement of General Philip Breedlove Commander, U.S. European Command,” § sec. House Armed Services Committee (2016), sec. House Armed Services Committee, <https://www.eucom.mil/article/35164/u-s-european-command-posture-statement-2016>, “Statement of General Curtis M. Scaparrotti Commander United States European Command,” § sec. Senate Armed Services Committee (2017), sec. Senate Armed Services Committee, https://www.armed-services.senate.gov/imo/media/doc/Scaparrotti_03-23-17.pdf, and “Statement of General Curtis M. Scaparrotti Commander United States European Command,” § sec. Senate Armed

Although the different types of commands message their roles in foreign assistance differently, the above analysis does not address the actual differences in foreign assistance spending between the types of commands. The following analysis examines whether there are differences in foreign assistance spending and programs across the two different types of commands to understand if the commands have different roles in foreign assistance in practice. More specifically, the following analysis examines how spending (using the Foreign Aid Explorer: The official record of U.S. foreign aid), differs by commands that have been involved in active conflict or facing a direct great power threat and those that have not.

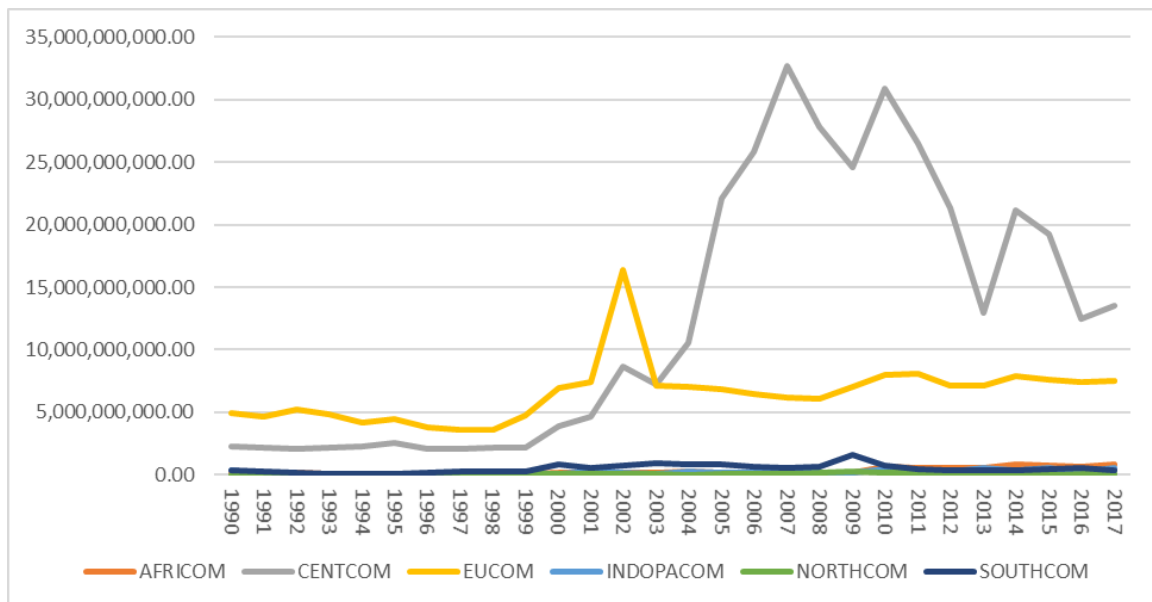


Figure 11: Total Foreign Assistance by Combatant Command 1990 – 2018

Services Committee (2018), sec. Senate Armed Services Committee,
<https://www.eucom.mil/article/36269/test>.

Despite AFRICOM and SOUTHCOM having clear messaging on the importance of preventative foreign assistance to their mission, total foreign assistance spending is still higher in CENTCOM and EUCOM. This is because more foreign assistance, both total and DoD-provided assistance, is directed to areas where there are ongoing conflicts. Looking at total foreign assistance obligations by the combatant command from 1990 to 2018 reveals that the highest level of spending was in CENTCOM after 2001. Before 2001, the highest level of spending was in EUCOM. It makes sense that CENTCOM had the highest level of foreign assistance spending due to the wars in Iraq and Afghanistan.

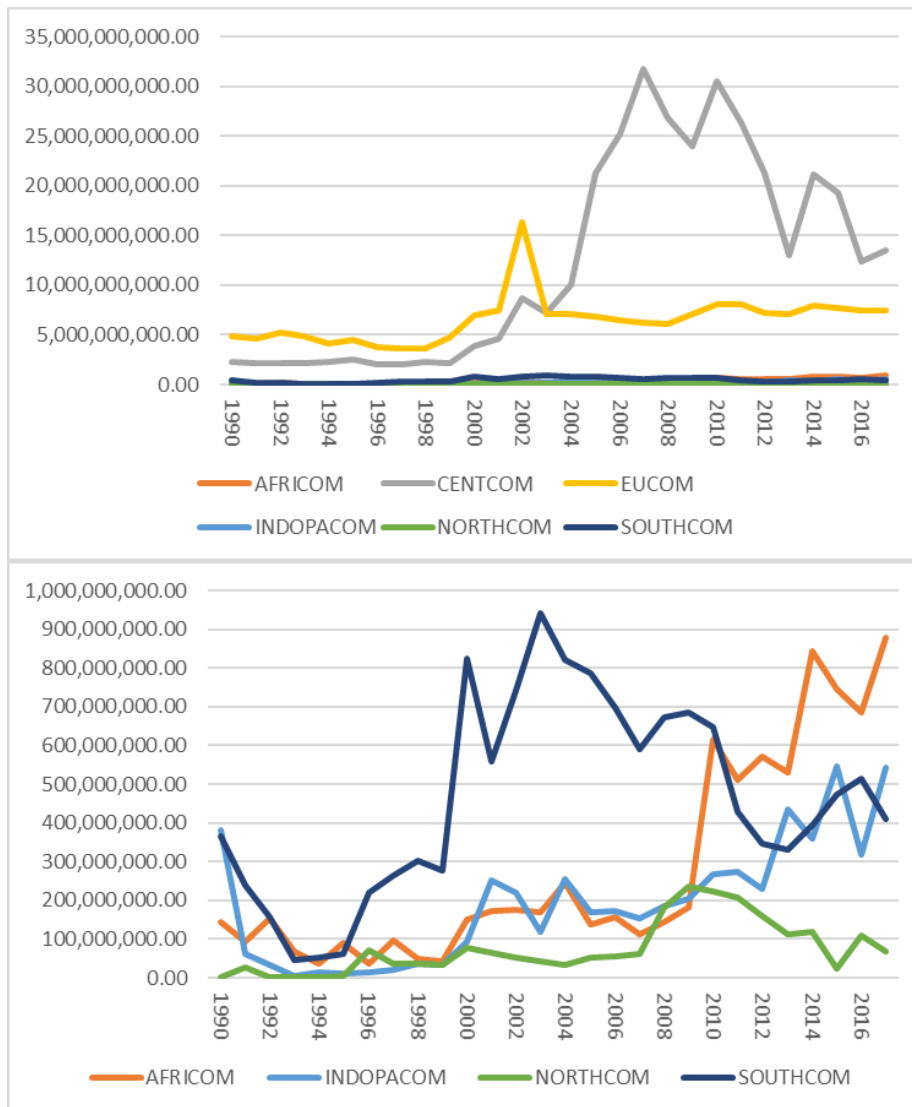


Figure 12: Humanitarian Program Spending by Combatant Command 1990 – 2018

Analyzing only humanitarian assistance reveals a similar spending trend.

However, if we drop CENTCOM and EUCOM out for total humanitarian assistance we can see that SOUTHCOM and AFRICOM have the largest humanitarian assistance spending. Although humanitarian spending in SOUTHCOM peaks in 2004, spending in

AFRICOM steadily rises through 2018, far exceeding any of the other commands (excluding CENTCOM and EUCOM) starting in 2012.

This analysis demonstrates that although non warfighting commands namely AFRICOM and SOUTHCOM highlight preventative foreign assistance as a large part of their mission and priorities and advocate for its importance in their posture statements, spending does not wholly reflect this. Active conflicts, particularly in CENTCOM, appear to drive foreign assistance spending by combatant command. This does not mean that the commands highlighting their role in preventative foreign assistance does not have an impact or will not have a more significant impact in the future. For instance, AFRICOM is a relatively new command and, as the analysis above demonstrates, its humanitarian assistance spending is increasing annually at a greater rate than the other commands.

The Role of Individual Commanders in Securitization

This section explores whether individual geographic combatant commanders can play a role in securitization by seeking increased responsibility for their command in the provision of foreign assistance. Some existing literature suggests that a commander's personality can be a driving factor in select commands expanding foreign assistance responsibilities. Commanders who have acted as proconsuls have been a part of this and those that have powerful relationships with policymakers in Washington.

According to Reveron's work, the fact that the military has more influence with Congress, while State has a relatively weak relationship is part of the reason the

combatant commanders can have more influence than ambassadors.²⁴⁸ Christopher Fettweis argues that with larger budgets and a broader perspective than U.S. ambassadors, combatant commanders hold influence inside and outside the regions they command. As a result, the combatant commanders not only implement policy but also play a critical part in formulating foreign policy.²⁴⁹

One example of a geographic combatant commander appearing to have a significant influence on foreign assistance spending in their area of responsibility was General Charles E. Wilhelm as the commander of SOUTHCOM. General Wilhelm played a significant role in shaping a change in U.S. foreign assistance policy toward Colombia. Before taking command of SOUTHCOM in 1997, U.S. engagement with the Colombian military was limited. Before Wilhelm retired in 2000, U.S. Army Special Forces had trained the first of three U.S.-equipped Colombian Army counterdrug battalions, and Congress had approved a \$1.3 billion foreign assistance package to support a Colombian government initiative known as Plan Colombia. This catapulted Colombia into the position of being the third-largest U.S. foreign assistance recipient (behind Israel and Egypt (see chapter 3)) and represented the first step toward active U.S. involvement in Colombia's internal security situation.²⁵⁰

It appears that General Wilhelm had strong personal feelings about foreign assistance to Columbia and the need for assistance, particularly military assistance.

Through his posture statements to Congress it is clear that General Wilhelm viewed

²⁴⁸ Reveron and Gavin, Chapter 1, "America's Viceroys" in Reveron, ed., *America's Viceroys*, p. 10.

²⁴⁹ Fettweis, Chapter 3, "Militarizing Diplomacy: Warrior-Diplomats and the Foreign Policy Process," in Reveron, ed., *America's Viceroys*, p. 48.

²⁵⁰ Cook, Chapter 6, "U.S. Southern Command: General Charles E Wilhelm and the Shaping of U.S. Military Engagement in Columbia, 1997-2000", in Reveron, ed., *America's Viceroys*, pp. 127-162.

Columbia as the most threatened nation in the SOUTHCOM area of responsibility due to drug trafficking. General Wilhelm hoped that preventative foreign assistance would help bolster Columbia's capacity to counter the threat both in training that directly addressed the threat and by preventing it from taking root in the country through preventative assistance. Through his posture statements General Wilhelm argued that the command required resources for nurturing democracy through combined operations, combined exercises, military-to-military training, security assistance, and humanitarian assistance.²⁵¹ Although these posture statements make a strong case for why General Wilhelm believed that additional assistance dollars were sorely needed for Columbia, the posture statements are not particularly unique; other posture statements, particularly for SOUTHCOM and AFRICOM, make a similar case for preventative assistance for their particular priorities. However, as demonstrated in the figure below there is a significant increase in assistance to Columbia during and after General Wilhelm's tenure as commander, which is unusual in overall country-level assistance spending trends across all commands. Therefore, it is likely that General Wilhelm's advocacy at least partially drove the increase.

²⁵¹ "Posture Statement of General Douglas M. Fraser, United States Air Force Commander, United States Southern Command Before the 112th Congress House Armed Services Committee," "Posture Statement of General Douglas M. Fraser, United States Air Force Commander, United States Southern Command Before the 112th Congress House Armed Services Committee," Posture Statement of General John F. Kelly, United States Marine Corps Commander, United States Southern Command Before the 113th Congress Senate Armed Services Committee," "Posture Statement of General John F. Kelly, United States Marine Corps Commander, United States Southern Command Before the 114th Congress Senate Armed Services Committee," "Posture Statement of Admiral Kurt W. Tidd Commander, United States Southern Command Before the 114th Congress Senate Armed Services Committee," "Posture Statement of Admiral Kurt W. Tidd Commander, United States Southern Command Before the 115th Congress Senate Armed Services Committee," and "Posture Statement of Admiral Kurt W. Tidd Commander, United States Southern Command Before the 115th Congress Senate Armed Services Committee."

As mentioned above, General Wilhelm had strong personal relationships with members of Congress that likely enabled him to make a stronger case for increased assistance that other commanders might have been able to without these relationships. However, the strength and actual influence of these relationships are difficult to measure. One retired military officer who worked on the SOUTHCOM staff during General Wilhelm's time as commander attested that Wilhelm was invested in obtaining additional assistance for Columbia. Further, according to this subject matter expert, Wilhelm did have direct relationships with the Hill that he was able to leverage. However, this is not enough to conclude that this was the means through which this increase in spending occurred. This interviewee also noted that General Wilhelm was asking for military assistance for the counter-drug mission that was of special interest to President Clinton and some key members of Congress, thus making for less opposition to his requests.²⁵²

However, based on the analysis of the roles of the president and Congress in securitization in the preceding section it appears that neither has advocated for changes that directly shape the securitization of foreign assistance. Although both have been involved in DoD resourcing decisions that indirectly supported securitization by enabling DoD to have greater and more flexible funding. Therefore, it is not clear that a commander's direct relationship with members of Congress would have a meaningful impact, although maybe it would enable a command to procure more funding. Further research on the role of the president and Congress is required to understand the potential role of the combatant commanders' individual relationships with Congress.

²⁵² Retired Military Officer Familiar with Humanitarian Assistance Disaster Relief in SOUTHCOM, Dissertation Interview 2.

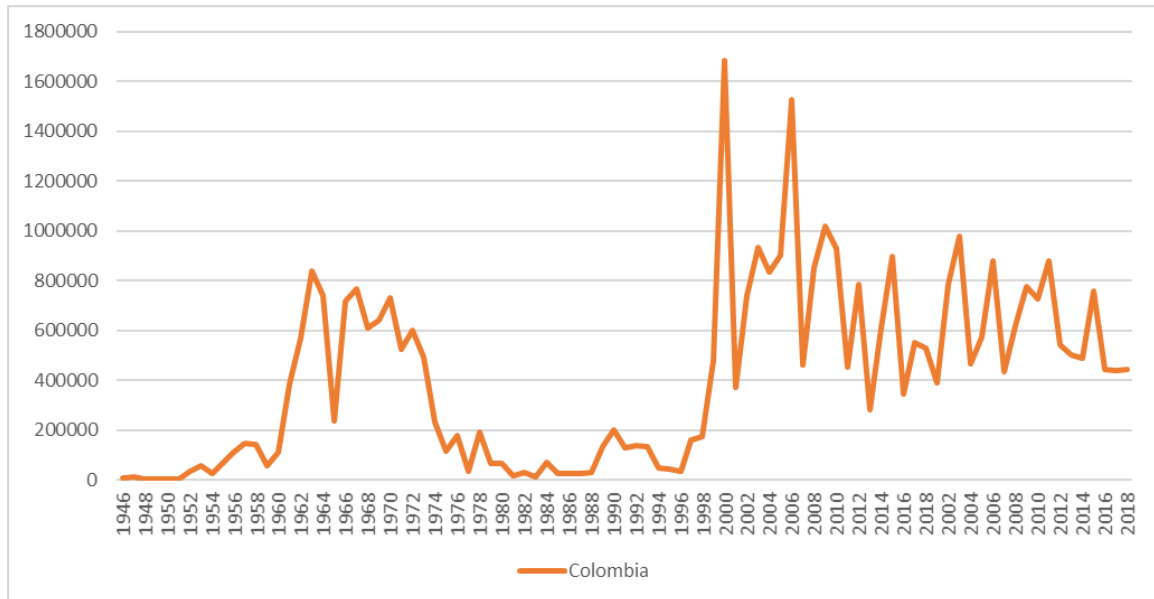


Figure 13: Foreign Assistance to Colombia 1946 – 2018

As the analysis in the graphic above demonstrates, it appears that one commander may have an influence on foreign assistance spending, at least at the country level. General Wilhelm took command in 1997 and in 1999 there was a large increase in the amount of U.S. foreign assistance spending on Colombia. Although General Wilhelm only served as the SOUTHCOM commander until 2000, this increase in spending continued through the early 2000s after which it began to decline, although not back to pre-2000 levels. As noted above, what is less clear is how much General Wilhelm advocated for this assistance and how effective that advocacy was. There may have been outside factors (e.g. the drug problems in the U.S.) that enabled assistance to Colombia to increase so dramatically during his tenure. This also raises the question of whether Wilhelm was appointed to help crack down on the drug problem in the SOUTHCOM

area of responsibility. Wilhelm's experience and interest in anti-drug work may have influenced President Clinton when he appointed him SOUTHCOM commander since Clinton took an interest in international drug control programs and authorized foreign assistance dollars to be used for antinarcotics in Latin America.²⁵³

Speaking more broadly on the role of individuals combatant commands in foreign assistance, a retired military officer with extensive experience providing humanitarian assistance mentioned that, with few exceptions, ambassadors relied on the military to provide all forms of assistance. Further, ambassadors frequently deferred to the military leadership for their knowledge of their region and what would be the most impactful projects and areas to work in. With more than a decade of experience leading foreign assistance projects, this individual only encountered two ambassadors who took a personal interest in where and what type of foreign assistance was offered. In one case, existing relationships with local leaders and wanting to support those leaders' requests for assistance drove the decision. In most cases, the interviewee had great working relationships with the ambassador and frequently made recommendations on what projects to work on and had little oversight from the ambassador during the project execution.²⁵⁴

Contribution to Securitization

The overall takeaway from this analysis is that understanding the role of the geographic combatant commands in the securitization of foreign assistance requires more

²⁵³ Coletta Yougers, "The U.S. and the War on Drugs: On the Wrong Path" (Amsterdam: Transnational Institute, April 1, 1997), <https://www.tni.org/en/article/us-war-drugs-wrong-path>.

²⁵⁴ Retired Military Officer Familiar with Humanitarian Assistance Disaster Relief in SOUTHCOM, Dissertation Interview 2.

research. While personality may play a role in combatant commands expanding their role in foreign assistance, as demonstrated by General Wilhelm in the case of assistance to Columbia, it is difficult to understand how much influence the commander had in the change in foreign assistance to Columbia. Further, based on this analysis, it appears that commands not involved in conflict or facing direct great power competition could contribute to securitization because they participate in more foreign assistance activities, as highlighted in AFRICOM and SOUTHCOM's missions and priorities, however foreign assistance spending does not fully reflect this.

CONCLUSION

This chapter was an exploratory analysis of the key drivers of securitization in order to better understand the key drivers raised in the existing literature and their applicability to the securitization of foreign assistance. Overall, subject matter expert interviewees identified the same key drivers suggested in the existing literature. All interviewees highlighted the role of the institutional imbalance, in many cases suggesting that it was the most important driver of securitization. Several interviewees mentioned that the institutional imbalance matters to securitization because DoD has more assets and capabilities and thus it is more practical to use them than the civilian agencies. Therefore, it seems that the military's increasing role in providing foreign assistance is a natural extension of DoD being a larger organization with diverse capabilities and slack resources. Interviewees also provided some support and additional insight on the role of the president and Congress, and the geographic combatant commands in securitization,

although they generally viewed these roles as less significant than the institutional imbalance.²⁵⁵

Although DoD's slack resources in terms of money and skilled personnel that can be used for foreign assistance appears to be a significant driver of securitization, DoD may not always seek their increased role in the provision of foreign assistance. In other words, because DoD has substantial slack resources including greater and more flexible funding, policy entrepreneurs across government may focus on particular foreign assistance issues knowing that DoD has the ability and resources to support these programs and thus seek to use DoD to fund and implement their own projects. These policy entrepreneurs are likely not tied to a particular department, but rather search wherever the resources are to acquire funding and manpower to support their particular cause. For example, a member of Congress may attempt to work through USAID to provide funding for a special interest project but might not be successful in getting the resources for their project. Therefore, they might turn to DoD as a funding and execution vehicle by using their own leverage such as hearings, working with the Appropriations Committee on DoD's budget, and legislation to build the case that DoD should take on this project. This may not have been something that DoD wanted to take on because the project did not contribute to DoD's priorities. Simply put, since DoD has the resources and capacity for foreign assistance, special foreign assistance interests might in some

²⁵⁵ Senior Defense Researcher on Security Cooperation, Dissertation Interview 1, Retired Military Officer Familiar with Humanitarian Assistance Disaster Relief in SOUTHCOM, Dissertation Interview 2, Retired Military Officer Familiar with PRTs in Afghanistan, Dissertation Interview 3, Retired Office of Management and Budget Senior Official with Expertise on the Defense Budget, Dissertation Interview 4, Former Department of State Official with Counterterrorism Expertise, Dissertation Interview 5, and Retired Office of Management and Budget Senior Official with Expertise on the International Affairs Budget, Dissertation Interview 6.

instances turn to DoD to implement their projects even though DoD may not have sought or wanted the projects.

Ultimately, this gets at whether securitization is a push by special interests leveraging DoD's slack resources rather than a pull from DoD and national security interests to acquire additional responsibilities. By examining the data on DoD's increasing role and foreign assistance laid out above, it is difficult to determine if the expansion was driven by DoD pulling in more responsibilities or a push for additional responsibilities levied on them by outside interests who use their leverage to get DoD to fund and execute their special interest projects. However, if DoD is being pushed to fund and execute special interest projects from outside policy entrepreneurs, this still contributes to securitization in that it is foreign assistance being administered by the military. Brown and Grävingholt argue that securitization occurs when donor countries increasingly provide the highest levels of assistance to specific countries and sectors based on security imperatives and when military forces deliver significant amounts of assistance.²⁵⁶ Inevitably, DoD is going to administer these programs through a DoD lens, even if the projects are not specifically military in nature. Further, taking on these responsibilities whether by choice or the direction of outside policy entrepreneurs, will continue to deepen DoD's role in foreign assistance and can increase the institutional imbalance since DoD gains more responsibilities. This may be a less blatant form of securitization than if the assistance was directed by DoD for clear military purposes, but it still increases the influence of DoD in foreign assistance, although arguably to a lesser

²⁵⁶ Brown and Grävingholt, eds., *The Securitization of Foreign Aid*, p. 3.

degree than when DoD pursues aid administration for its own priorities. Although pushing DoD's role in foreign assistance could still increase securitization by increasing the military's role in the provision of foreign assistance it would be less likely to contribute to the other component of securitization, national security priorities driving foreign assistance.

The most likely scenario is that it is both pull and push dynamics that drive securitization, but this dissertation does not explore in detail how securitization may have been pushed by outside interests. Understanding the role of outside policy entrepreneurs in increasing DoD's role in foreign assistance is an interesting area for additional research.

CHAPTER SIX

KEY TAKEAWAYS

This dissertation set out to answer the question, has the provision of U.S. foreign assistance to countries at peace become increasingly provided by the Department of Defense (DoD) and driven by national security priorities following World War II, and if so, what are the key drivers? This dissertation also sought to understand how the aftermath of 9/11 impacted DoD's role in the provision of foreign assistance and the role of security priorities in directing foreign assistance. To answer these questions chapter 3 examined the key policy turning points that helped pave the way for securitization. Next, chapter 4 measured to what extent the securitization of U.S. foreign assistance has occurred by examining both DoD's changing role in providing foreign assistance and whether national security priorities increasingly direct foreign assistance spending. Finally, chapter 5 conducted an exploratory analysis on the key drivers of securitization identified through existing literature and subject matter expert interviews (the institutional imbalance between DoD and the Department of State (State), the presidency and Congress, and the geographic combatant commands).

Chapter 3 revealed that there are distinct policy turning points or organizational changes that paved the way for securitization, influencing, directly and indirectly, the ability of security priorities to drive foreign assistance and DoD's increased role in

foreign assistance. This analysis broke the turning points into two categories: post WWII turning points that established the foundation for the securitization of foreign assistance; and post 9/11 turning points that institutionalized securitization and directly shaped the securitization of foreign assistance to countries at peace. The key turning points analysis began by examining the post WWII foundations of securitization starting with the Foreign Assistance Act of 1961. The Foreign Assistance Act established the importance of the role of the presidency in U.S. foreign assistance decisions and laid the foundation for the U.S. military's role in preventative foreign assistance. Next, this section explored the McNamara internal reorganization of DoD that made the secretary of defense more powerful on the National Security Council; Goldwater-Nichols that reorganized DoD and much of the combatant command structure; and the expansion of noncombatant military tasks in the 1990s. For the post 9/11 institutionalization of securitization, the analysis examined the role of the post 9/11 policy changes in reshaping how the U.S. gives foreign assistance. These changes resulted in policies that may have led to the securitization of foreign assistance, granting DoD a larger role in the provision of preventative foreign assistance, and allowing national security objectives to guide foreign assistance giving, particularly in preventing the spread of terrorism.

In measuring the securitization of foreign assistance, chapter 4 found that for total foreign assistance spending, DoD spending did not generally outpace combined State and the United States Agency for International Development (USAID) spending since WWII, with the exception of a brief period in the mid-1970s and again following 9/11 and declining again beginning in 2009. Focusing on countries at peace did not make this trend

disappear but rendered it less dramatic. This trend was not as expected given the numerous increases in DoD authorities to provide preventative assistance to countries at peace covered in chapter 3. Looking specifically at DoD Humanitarian and Civic Assistance (HCA) activities, this data revealed that foreign assistance provided through HCA programs has increased post 9/11, but the data did not go far enough back to examine the changes in HCA spending since WWII. Since HCA activities are a significant means through which DoD provides preventative foreign assistance to countries at peace this indicated that, by one measure, DoD assistance to countries at peace has increased post 9/11. For the analysis of how national security priorities direct foreign assistance, the results demonstrated that there was a positive relationship between a country having incidents of terrorism or threat of communism and increased U.S. foreign assistance giving while controlling for traditional determinants of foreign assistance giving.

Chapter 5 on the key drivers of securitization found that subject matter expert interviewees identified the same key drivers as the existing literature. All interviewees emphasized the role of the institutional imbalance between DoD and State, believing it to be the most powerful driver of securitization. Of importance, several interviewees mentioned that the institutional imbalance matters to securitization because DoD has more assets and slack resources for providing foreign assistance. Thus it can be more practical for DoD to deliver assistance over the civilian agencies. As a result, it seems that DoD's increasing role in foreign assistance may just be a natural extension of DoD being a larger organization with diverse capabilities and slack resources. Further, based

on the findings in this chapter, the president and Congress do not appear to have a strong role in increasing securitization through the federal budget process. However, the post 9/11 increases to the DoD budget through Overseas Contingency Operations funding and more flexible funding may have played an indirect role in driving securitization. Additionally, for the role of the geographic combatant commands, while personality may play a role in combatant commands expanding their role in foreign assistance, it is difficult to determine how much influence an individual commander has in foreign assistance. Finally, it appears that commands not involved in conflict or facing direct great power competition may contribute to securitization because they advocate for involvement in more foreign assistance activities, as highlighted in United States Africa Command (AFRICOM) and United States Southern command's (SOUTHCOM) missions and priorities. However, AFRICOM and SOUTHCOM do not have the highest levels of foreign assistance spending compared to United States Central Command and United States European Command.

Overall, this dissertation was an exploratory analysis of the securitization of foreign assistance. Although securitization appears to be occurring by some measures including HCA activities increasing since 9/11, DoD overall foreign assistance spending overall and in countries at peace has not generally increased above State and USAID. Further, by the measures employed in this dissertation, security priorities appear to drive foreign assistance spending. The drivers of the securitization of foreign assistance are difficult to trace as many complex factors drive securitization. Examining the drivers of securitization identified through existing literature and subject matter expert interviews,

revealed that one of the largest drivers of securitization was that DoD is a larger and more powerful organization with greater and more flexible funding than State or USAID, as well as slack resources and capabilities that can be used for foreign assistance activities. This institutional imbalance has likely led DoD to gain expanded authorities to provide foreign assistance and for security priorities to drive foreign assistance giving.

POLICY IMPLICATIONS

Broadly, this dissertation has several potential implications for public policy. First, and perhaps most significantly, if DoD has come to play a larger role in how the U.S. gives foreign assistance to countries at peace this change could impact the effectiveness of U.S. foreign policy. More specifically, the securitization of foreign assistance may affect the behavior of developing nations and the outcomes of development in those nations. It could incentivize governments to prioritize their security relationship with the U.S. or even artificially boost security threats to get assistance, which could continue to deepen the securitization of foreign assistance. Additionally, many of the driving factors of the securitization of foreign assistance also influence the larger securitization of foreign policy. Therefore, a more complete understanding of these factors may broaden the knowledge of the drivers of the securitization of foreign policy.

Understanding the depth of the institutional imbalance between DoD and State and its role in the securitization of foreign assistance is particularly important for understanding securitization more broadly. If this institutional imbalance is a driving factor in securitization, as this dissertation suggests it is, it is important to continue to study this imbalance and monitor its depth. This is especially important as recent budget

cuts and marginalizing of State's role during the Donald Trump administration appear to have deepened the institutional imbalance. In addition to suggesting State budget cuts of nearly 30 percent, the Trump administration also marginalized the role of State staffers in foreign policy advice and left many key State leadership positions vacant throughout the administration. The administration also reduced the size of the department with the idea of creating a more efficient streamlined department. However, many experts noted that the administration made cuts without proper study of the department or consultation with those who understood it and its key functions. This served to weaken the department's ability to conduct its mission rather than make it more efficient.²⁵⁷

As one interviewee who was a retired career Office of Management and Budget employee noted, the relative power and resourcing of State and DoD has ebbed and flowed over time, changing across administrations. However, there is a trend of DoD becoming increasingly powerful and better resourced, as the analysis on the institutional imbalance in chapter 5 indicates. As a result, decisions the Trump administration made in regards to reducing State's budget and influence in foreign policy have likely served to deepen the imbalance.²⁵⁸ The larger this imbalance gets the harder it will be to right and

²⁵⁷ Robbie Gramer, Dan De Lece, and Colum Lynch, "How Trump Broke the State Department," *Foreign Policy*, July 31, 2017, <https://foreignpolicy.com/2017/07/31/how-the-trump-administration-broke-the-state-department>, Julia Ioffe, "The State of Trump's State Department," *The Atlantic*, March 1, 2017, <https://www.theatlantic.com/international/archive/2017/03/state-department-trump/517965/>, Morgan Chalfant, "Trump's War on the State Department," *The Hill*, July 14, 2017, <https://thehill.com/homenews/administration/341923-trumps-war-on-the-state-department/>, and Morgan Chalfant, "Diplomacy in Crises: The Trump Administration's Decimation of the State Department," A Democratic Staff Report Prepared for the use of the Committee on Foreign Relations United States Senate (Washington, DC: Committee on Foreign Relations United States Senate, July 28, 2020), <https://www.foreign.senate.gov/imo/media/doc/Diplomacy%20in%20Crisis%20--%20SFRC%20Democratic%20Staff%20Report.pdf>.

²⁵⁸ Retired Office of Management and Budget Senior Official with Expertise on the International Affairs Budget, Dissertation Interview 6.

the more it could drive the securitization of foreign assistance and the overall securitization of U.S. foreign policy. Although outside the time scope of this dissertation, how the Trump administration attempted to reduce State's role in foreign policy is likely a key policy turning point that furthered the securitization of foreign assistance.

There is also some potential applicability of this research to other countries. For instance, the United Kingdom has some similar elements in their foreign policy bureaucracy, as well as comparable challenges including the war on terror. Several studies argue that the UK's foreign assistance has become increasingly driven by their national security priorities, particularly using foreign assistance as a counter terrorism tool.²⁵⁹ Additionally, in 2020 the Department for International Development merged with the Foreign and Commonwealth Office as the Foreign, Commonwealth, and Development Office. Some argue this policy move deepened the securitization of foreign assistance in the UK by combining development efforts more directly with foreign policy and national security issues.²⁶⁰

Some of the policy implications of the securitization of U.S. foreign assistance could apply to the UK including how it may impact the incentives of the developing countries they provide assistance to. As with the U.S., securitization could incentivize recipient governments to prioritize their security relationship with the UK or even artificially boost security threats to get assistance. This research could also provide a framework for exploring the key drivers of securitization in the UK. It would be

²⁵⁹ Lazell and Petrikova, "Is Development Aid Securitized?," pp. 323-43, Lazell and Petrikova "“Securitized” UK aid projects in Africa: Evidence from Kenya, Nigeria and South Sudan,” *Development Policy Review* 40, no. 1 (January 2022), pp. 1-42, and “Is the UK securitising its development aid?, ODI,” <https://odi.org/en/insights/is-the-uk-securitising-its-development-aid/>

²⁶⁰ Lazell and Petrikova ““Securitized” UK aid projects in Africa,” pp. 1-42.

particularly interesting to understand if the UK has a similar institutional imbalance with the Ministry of Defense being a better resourced and more powerful organization than their other foreign policy ministries. The UK does not have the defense budget of the U.S. nor is it clear that their military holds the influence that the U.S. military does with policy makers so it may be that an institutional imbalance is not a driver of their securitization. If it is not it would be interesting to explore what the key drivers of their securitization of foreign assistance are as that could lend additional insight into the potential drivers of U.S. securitization.

Along similar lines, China appears to explicitly use foreign assistance as a national security tool to shape their long-term strategic interests.²⁶¹ The drivers of this for China may simply be that it is part of their long-term strategic plan, therefore understanding the drivers has less applicability for the study of the U.S. drivers of securitization. However, understanding how China gives assistance for security priorities to shape the future security environment and how recipient countries respond to the incentives set out by this assistance would have applicability for the U.S. This would help to understand some of the policy implications of securitization and how assistance given for security priorities may or may not shape the incentives of recipient countries.

LIMITATIONS AND AREAS FOR FURTHER RESEARCH

The principal limitation of this dissertation is that it was an exploratory analysis revealing more questions than answers in many areas. Chapter 3 covered the key policy

²⁶¹ Kristen A. Cordell, “Chinese Development Assistance: A New Approach or More of the Same?” Carnegie Endowment for International Peace, March 2021, <https://carnegieendowment.org/2021/03/23/chinese-development-assistance-new-approach-or-more-of-same-pub-84141>.

and organization turning points that likely impacted the securitization of foreign assistance. While this analysis captured what appeared to be the largest turning points that impacted securitization, there were many smaller policy and organizational changes that likely played a role in securitization. Further analysis could delve into additional policy and organization changes particularly since 9/11 to understand how they may have impacted securitization. Additionally, there are some turning points that occurred after 2018 that may impact securitization. Most importantly, the Trump administration's reduction of State's budget in absolute terms and personnel represents a turning point that likely had a large impact on securitization. Understanding the scope of this impact is a practically interesting area for further research.

The analysis in chapter 4 examining overarching spending trends revealed that DoD spending on foreign assistance to countries at peace does not generally outpace State and USAID. However, certain types of foreign assistance, namely HCA spending have increased post 9/11. Additional research could examine HCA through subject matter expert interviews on the expanding role and scope of HCA to understand its potential contribution to securitization.²⁶² For the analysis of the role of national security priorities in directing foreign assistance spending, there are several differences in the two measures of national security threats employed in this dissertation that could account for their different levels of impact on foreign assistance spending. Most importantly, an incident of terrorism is not a perfect measure of whether U.S. national security leadership may see a country as being a threat for becoming a breeding ground for terrorist institutions. Some

²⁶² Data on HCA spending and programs is part of an annual classified report to Congress so it is difficult to understand HCA implementation in greater depth until those reports are declassified.

classified data sources likely identify countries that have the highest likelihood of being breeding grounds for terrorist organizations. As with the Central Intelligence Agency data on countries that posed a risk of becoming communist, this data will likely be declassified in time

Chapter 5 was an exploratory analysis to identify and understand the key drivers of the securitization of foreign assistance and therefore reveals several areas for additional research. Of interest would be further understanding the role of the geographic combatant commands in securitization. More research could examine whether additional individual commanders pushed for more foreign assistance responsibilities and whether this was successful. Further, examining in more depth whether the type of command (one engaged in active conflict or facing a direct near-peer threat versus one that is not) has impacted how the commanders advocate for resources is an interesting area for further research.

One particularly exciting area for further research not touched on in this dissertation but raised in both existing literature and in subject matter expert interviews is the question of whether the secretary of defense has a more powerful role on the National Security Council (NSC) than the secretary of state and if this impacts the securitization of foreign assistance.

According to the work of Alan Whittaker et. al., in theory, DoD performs a support role to State's lead in foreign policy on the NSC. However, in reality, DoD plays an active role at interagency meetings in determining the parameters or tools of foreign

policy.²⁶³ Scholars observe that more so than other national security positions, the level of influence of the secretary of state is subject to how the president values the role.

Relatedly, Brooks et. al. argues that while the role of the secretary of state on the NSC has declined, the role of the secretary of defense has increased. Internal reorganizations, many of which stemmed from changes made when Robert McNamara was secretary of defense, (see chapter 4) increased the influence of the secretary of defense. Further, in 1999 statute codified the secretary of defense as being alone with the president in constituting the National Command Authority, resulting in more legal authorities and a closer relationship between the president and the secretary of defense.²⁶⁴

One interviewee who worked on the NSC during the Obama administration mentioned that early in the Obama years the secretaries of defense and state played an equal role and seemed to hold a roughly equivalent amount of influence with the president. However, this interviewee noted that the secretary of defense held more sway in the counter-terrorism mission. This was a big area of focus at the time, and the secretary of defense was the president's top advisor on counter-terrorism, even though both State and DoD had a role in the mission.²⁶⁵

This is not enough information to validate whether the secretary of defense's potentially more powerful role on the NSC and closer relationship with the president could impact the securitization of foreign assistance. However, additional research could explore in depth whether the secretary of defense has had a more powerful role on the

²⁶³ Alan Whittaker et al., "The National Security Policy Process: The National Security Council and Interagency System" (Charlottesville: University of Virginia, August 15, 2011), <http://www.virginia.edu/cnsl/pdf/national-security-policy-process-2011.pdf>, p.52.

²⁶⁴ Brooks et al., "Two Hands on the Sword," p. 30.

²⁶⁵ Former Department of State Official with Counterterrorism Expertise, Dissertation Interview 5.

NSC over the last 60 years and if this has impacted the securitization of foreign assistance.

Identifying these future research opportunities is one of the main accomplishments of this exploratory study. In addition to identifying these areas for additional research, this mixed methods study contributes to the scholarly debate by highlighting the implications of the resource imbalance between DoD and the other foreign policy departments. Based on this research, it appears that the most powerful driver of securitization is that DoD has greater and more flexible resourcing than State and USAID, as well as a range of capabilities and personnel that can be leveraged for the provision of foreign assistance. DoD may not advocate for this increased responsibility and, as mentioned in chapter 5, this may be driven by policy entrepreneurs leveraging DoD's greater resources and capabilities. This resources imbalance has many implications for securitization more broadly. More specifically, if this drives some of DoD's expansion in the provision of foreign assistance, it could also enable DoD's expansion into other areas of foreign policy including diplomacy and how the U.S. is represented abroad. Some argue that the military is increasingly becoming the face of American diplomacy rather than the Foreign Service because other nations view military leadership has having more resources and thus put more value on those relationships.²⁶⁶ The institutional imbalance could deepen this perception and ultimately continue to drive securitization.

²⁶⁶ Eikenberry, "The Militarization of U.S. Foreign Policy," p. 3 and Priest, *The Mission*, pp. 61-99.

APPENDIX

OVERVIEW

This appendix provides the details of the data and methods used in this dissertation by chapter. This includes the quantitative data and methods used in the analysis in chapters 3 and 5, as well as the interview methodology for the subject matter expert interviews used in chapter 5.

QUANTITATIVE ANALYSIS

Chapter 3 Data and Methods

The analysis in this chapter uses the “Foreign Aid Explorer: the official record of U.S. foreign aid” to measure U.S. foreign assistance spending. This dataset is from USAID and tracks all U.S. foreign assistance spending by country, agency, year, and program type from 1946 to the present. Further, this analysis looks at foreign assistance obligations. The focus is on obligations largely because this data set does not track disbursements before 2001. Specific data elements within this dataset used for this analysis include: country name, funding agency (the name of the agency to which funds for U.S. foreign assistance were appropriated), numeric year, foreign assistance objective name (makes the distinction between economic and military assistance), constant amount (foreign assistance spending in constant U.S. dollars), and U.S. government sector name (a sector framework developed for U.S. government foreign assistance reporting across

agencies, provides a means to tell what the assistance was used for e.g. stabilization operations, basic educations, healthcare, etc.). For the purpose of the analysis in this dissertation this data was combined by agency, country, and year using Microsoft Excel.

Total Spending on Foreign Assistance Over Time. This analysis uses the “Foreign Aid Explorer: the official record of U.S. foreign aid” combined by agency, country, and year. This analysis is purely a trend analysis of DoD, and State and USAID’s combined spending from 1955 to 2018 to view and compare changes over time between DoD and State and USAID. 1955 was selected as the start year to exclude the aftereffects of WWII on foreign assistance spending. The graphic was created in Microsoft Excel.

Total Spending on Foreign Assistance to Countries at Peace 1955 – 2018. This analysis uses the same data as the total spending on foreign assistance over time but drops out foreign assistance to countries that the U.S. military was involved in active conflict with to focus on countries at peace. To determine U.S. military involvement, the analysis used the correlates of war dataset that tracks all military engagement around the world from 1816 to 2010 to find every country the U.S. military was involved in at a range of conflicts levels from no militarized action to war from 1949 to 2010. The analysis only included countries with U.S. military engagement that included the use of force or war with the idea of only including countries that the U.S. had active conflicts with. Because this data set had some gaps and only went through 2010, the analysis combined this data with a Congressional Research Service (CRS) report titled “U.S. Periods of War and Dates of Recent Conflicts” that detailed all major conflicts with U.S.

engagement. The analysis then matched this using index matched in Microsoft Excel. Once the data was matched with the existing data on foreign assistance by country-year, each country that the U.S. was engaged in active military conflict in for that year was dropped out. The result was a dataset only tracking foreign assistance in countries without active U.S. military engagement in that year. The graphic was created in Microsoft Excel.

DoD HCA Spending and Programs Total 1993 – 2007. This analysis leverages CRS data tracking Humanitarian and Civic Assistance (HCA) costs and number of programs from 1993 to 2007. CRS collects this data from the unclassified portion of DoD reports submitted annually to Congress. 10 U.S.C. Section 401 requires that DoD submit an annual report on HCA activities that includes the cost and number of projects in the fiscal year. The analysis in the graphic simply captures the trends over time in HCA program spending and total number of programs. The graphic was created in Microsoft Excel.

DoD Health Assistance Spending 2000 – 2018. This analysis uses the same data as the total spending on foreign assistance to countries at peace over time but filters by U.S. government sector name to drop out all programs that were not focused on health assistance. Programs included in this data set included general health assistance, family planning and reproductive health, HIV/AIDS assistance, maternal and child health, tuberculosis malaria, pandemic influenza, and other public health threats. Once all non health assistance programs were dropped from the data, the data was aggregated by country year. The analysis displayed in the graphic is a simple trend analysis over time

from 2000-2018. The reason that 2000 was selected as the start year was that DoD did not break out spending by sector name prior to 2000. The graphic was created in Microsoft Excel.

Comparison of the DoD Budget to DoD Total Foreign Assistance Spending.

This analysis uses the same data as the total spending on foreign assistance over time by agency and DoD budget total from the Office of Management and Budget “Historical Tables.” The graphic displays DoD foreign assistance spending as a percent of the total DoD budget from 1977 to 2018. 1977 was chosen as the start year since prior to 1977 there were changes in what was included under the DoD budget.

Foreign Assistance Top Recipients by Decade. This analysis uses the “Foreign Aid Explorer: the official record of U.S. foreign aid” aggregated by country year. The graphic was created in R to include the top 10 U.S. foreign assistance recipients at the beginning of each decade.

Regression Analysis. This analysis also uses the “Foreign Aid Explorer: the official record of U.S. foreign aid” for the measure of foreign assistance. To measure national security interests this dissertation used data from the RAND Corporation on incidents of terrorist attacks by country from 1991 to 2018 to determine whether countries with incidents of terrorism received more foreign assistance. To help understand how foreign assistance for national security interests may have changed over time, the analysis examines how countries the Central Intelligence Agency (CIA) considered posing a threat by becoming communist or by having communist leanings between 1946 and 1991 impacted foreign assistance spending. This dissertation gathered

this data from recently declassified CIA reports. The dissertation uses terrorism and the threat of communism as indicators of U.S. national security interests because the U.S. National Security Strategies since 1987 have consistently focused on these two key threats. First communism before the fall of the Soviet Union, and then weak and failing states being a breeding ground for terrorist organizations in the 1990s, with increased emphasis on this following the terror attacks of 9/11. For control variables, this analysis uses the level of democracy in the host country from Freedom House democracy index; GDP data from the World Bank; infant mortality data from the World Bank; incidence of natural disaster from the International Disaster Database; and countries at war. The incidence of terrorism, likelihood of becoming communist, and the control variables (GDP, infant mortality, and incidence of natural disaster) were combined in R with the existing data set that already included a variable for whether there was active U.S. military engagement in the country in that year. The methods used was a country year fixed effects regression.

Chapter 5 Data and Methods

Comparison of DoD and State Budget Authority FY 1976 – 2023 Estimate. This was a simple trend analysis completed in Microsoft Excel of DoD and State spending using the Office of Management and Budget “Historical Tables.”

OCO/GWOT Appropriations by Agency FY 2001 – 2017. This analysis uses data gathered from a Government Accountability Office report by Brendan W. McGarry and Emily M. Morgenstern “Overseas Contingency Operations Funding: Background and Status” and the graphic was created in Microsoft Excel.

Comparison of DoD and State Work Forces FY 2008 – 2017. This analysis was created with data from United States Office of Personnel Management and is a simple comparison of personnel across agencies done in Microsoft Excel.

DoD Humanitarian Program Spending on Foreign Assistance by Combatant Command 1990 – 2018. This analysis also uses the “Foreign Aid Explorer: the official record of U.S. foreign aid” for the measure of foreign assistance. Combatant command was added to this data set so total spending by agency year could be aggregated by command. The graphic was created in Microsoft Excel.

Foreign Assistance to Colombia 1946 – 2018. This analysis used the same data set as above but included only foreign assistance spending to Colombia for the selected years.

INTERVIEW METHODOLOGY

Institutional Review Board (IRB) Approval

The interview research conducted for this dissertation was approved by the George Mason University IRB and was conducted in compliance with all IRB guidelines.

Interviewee Selection

This research selected subject matter experts for their extensive experience in the foreign policy bureaucracy and included retired military officers, State Department civilians, National Security Council staff, and individuals who worked in the Office of Management and Budget. All interviewees were deeply familiar with foreign assistance programs and how they have changed in the last two decades. Further, these interviewees had unique expertise that enabled them to directly observe many factors that likely

contributed to the securitization of foreign assistance. Interviewees were selected through snowball sampling. This dissertation began by interviewing a few individuals who were recommended through academic connections, these interviewees were then asked if they had suggestions for other individuals to interview. The researcher reached out to interviewees via email to set up the interview. Overall, six individuals were interviewed.

Interview Implementation and Questions

Due to COVID-19 restrictions all interviews were conducted over the phone in a private location. All interviewees were asked to sign an informed consent form that are retained in the research records. All interviewees were also asked if they wished to be interviewed allowing their name to appear in the research or if they preferred to only have non identifying background information included, all interviewees wished for their name or identifying information not to be used in the research. In order to protect the anonymity of the interviewees, detailed interview transcripts are not included in the dissertation since elements of the interview could reveal the interviewees' identity but transcripts are stored in secure files along with other interview documentation in accordance with IRB guidelines.

All interviews began with a brief description of the research goals of the dissertation and why interviewees were selected. Interviews were conducted in a semi-structured manner, with a series of lead in questions followed by follow up questions based on the interviewees' responses. Many of the interviews were conducted in a conversational manner, allowing the interviewee to raise other issues they thought were related or would be helpful to this research effort.

Sample questions used to direct the interviews or use as prompts include the following, exact questions asked varied based on the interviewee's background.

- Much scholarly literature has noted that DoD has an increasing role in providing foreign assistance, would you agree with this?
- Why might DoD have a larger role in foreign assistance?
- What has driven DoD's role in foreign assistance?
- Did the president take an active interest in the distribution of U.S. foreign assistance, if so how?
- Did the president influence how foreign assistance is given, if so for what purpose and how?
- Did the president influence policy changes on U.S. foreign assistance giving, if so how?
- What was the combatant command's role in providing foreign assistance?
- Have you seen a difference in the way different commands view their role in foreign assistance?
- How do combatant commanders view the command's role in the provision of foreign assistance?
- What incentives might the commander have had to provide foreign assistance and expand the command's role in providing foreign assistance?
- Have there been policy or organizational changes that allowed commands more authority in the provision of foreign assistance, if so what?

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